

The Rise and Fall of the Capitalist World-System (III): An Analysis of the Contradictions of the Three Stages of the World-System

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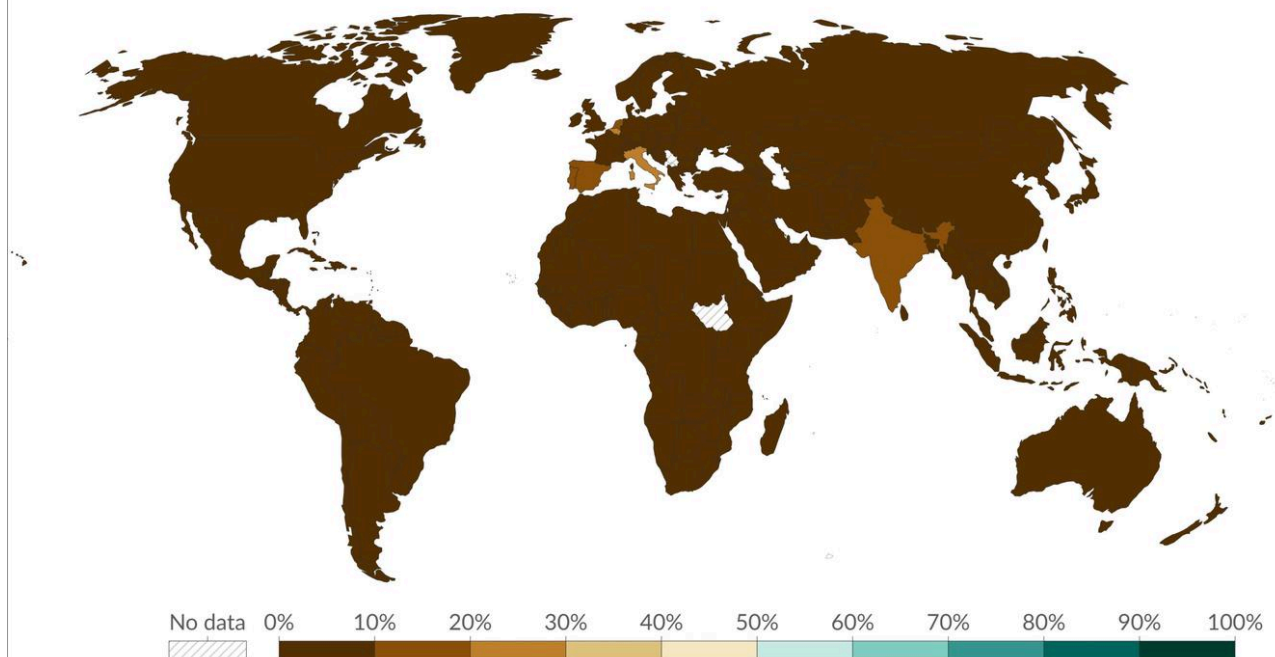
1. The Era of Mercantile Capitalism

(1) The Contradiction between Landlords and Peasants

In the era of mercantile capitalism, whether in the China and India of the center, the Europe of the semi-periphery, or the Americas of the outermost periphery, the dominant mode of production in most regions was pre-capitalist. Around 1500, when the world-system first took shape, most of the population lived in the countryside; even in Jiangnan, the most economically developed region of China, the urbanization rate in the late Ming dynasty was only about 15 percent ^[1]. In Italy, the most developed part of early modern Europe, the urbanization rate was likewise only 15–20 percent ^[2]. In fact, some scholars hold that China's urbanization rate reached 15 percent in the Warring States period, rose above 20 percent in the Song dynasty, and declined somewhat in the Ming and Qing ^[3]. Other scholars estimate lower, holding that since the Warring States the urbanization rate has hovered around 10 percent, with the Qing relatively low — about 6 percent in 1820 ^[4]. In short, from the fifteenth to the eighteenth century, apart from a few regions of developed commerce and industry, urbanization rates were low.

Share of the population living in urban areas, 1500

Share of the total population living in urban areas, given as estimates by HYDE until 2023 and UN projections through 2050, using the median fertility scenario for future urbanization trends.



Data source: United Nations, Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division (2018); HYDE (2023)

Note: Because the estimates of city and metropolitan areas are based on national definitions of what constitutes a city or metropolitan area, cross-country comparisons should be made with caution.

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Source: <https://ourworldindata.org/grapher/urban-population-share-2050?time=1500>

The principal contradiction of these societies was therefore between various sorts of land-owners and the agricultural laborers. The two sides of the contradiction were, in Europe, feudal lords (secular and religious) versus serfs; in China, landlords versus peasants; in Latin America, plantation owners versus slaves or serfs. Within the land-exploiting class itself there were also contradictions — for instance, between king and feudal lords; this contradiction was relatively muted in China, but of great significance in Japan and Europe. Whether the contradiction between landlord class and peasants, or that within the feudal landlord or serf-owning classes, it regularly manifested itself in the form of civil wars (peasant uprisings or warlord conflicts).

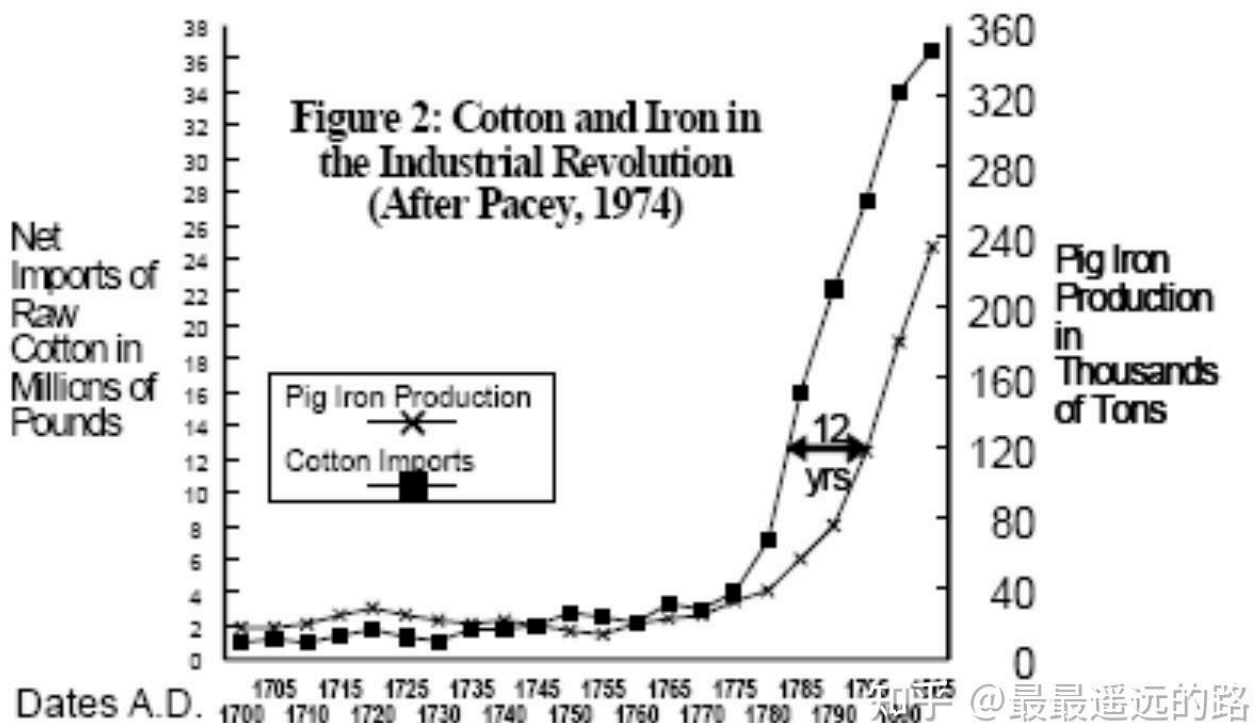
(2) Contradictions Related to Capitalist Relations of Production

Besides the various forms of the landlord–peasant contradiction, in the economically most advanced regions of the time — China (especially the Yangtze delta), Western Europe, and Japan — capitalist relations gradually developed, and the contradiction between bourgeoisie and proletariat had already begun to appear. Collective struggles of the Chinese proletariat appear already in the early Qing ^[5]. Besides the bourgeois–proletarian contradiction, the capitalist mode of production also stood in contradiction with the feudal classes. For instance, the Wanli era of the Ming dynasty saw a series of

urban struggles against the eunuch mine-tax inspectors, in which the participants included not only merchants and capitalists but workers [6]. Florence in the fourteenth century experienced the Ciompi Revolt [7]. The contradiction between the mass of the people — peasants, small handicraftsmen, workers, and capitalists — and the feudal landlord class was the main content of the social contradictions of the age. Since the peasants were the most numerous, winning over the peasants was the key to the success or failure of the anti-feudal struggle of the merchants and industrialists. In every successful bourgeois revolution, the anti-feudal peasants were the main force.

By the eighteenth century, as the mercantile-capitalist era drew to a close, Britain's urbanization rate was around 20 percent, passing 30 percent only in the early nineteenth century [8]. But in the few most developed regions, industry (domestic handicraft and manufactory) had already surpassed agriculture. According to Li Bozhong's research, in the early nineteenth century the urbanization rates of both Jiangnan in China and Holland in Western Europe exceeded one-third; Jiangnan's industrial population exceeded half of total employment, and its industrial output value surpassed agriculture's [9]. In eighteenth-century Britain, agriculture was only about 30 percent of GDP [10]. Although, by employment and by GDP, agriculture remained the dominant industry in both China and Europe, commerce and industry had already become an important component of the material life of the whole society. Hence any large-scale mass resistance movement of this period had to take the interests of commerce and industry into account to succeed. For instance, the Taiping Heavenly Kingdom's peasant revolutionary regime had an early program with distinctly anti-commercial features [11], whereas in its later period, the "New Administration of the State" (Zizheng xinbian) clearly encouraged commerce and industry [12].

The principal contradiction of the mercantile-capitalist era — that between peasants and landlords — could not move the world-system forward. Whether peasant uprisings broke out in China or in Europe, after the failure of the uprising or after the rebels' success in founding a new regime, the world-system would return to its old structure — China at the center, Western Europe as the semi-periphery, Africa and the Americas as the periphery — just as at the Ming–Qing transition in China. The development of the world-system required the continued development of bourgeois relations of production until they achieved dominance. And the precondition for capitalist relations of production to become dominant was that the productive forces corresponding to them greatly exceed those corresponding to feudal relations of production. As Marx said, "The hand-mill gives you society with the feudal lord; the steam-mill, society with the industrial capitalist." The key to the transformation of the mercantile-capitalist world-system into a world-system of national industrial capitalism was therefore the Industrial Revolution. The Industrial Revolution put into the hands of the bourgeoisie productive forces far greater than those of the small producers; the explosive development of these forces can be seen in the growth of iron output and cotton imports after the Industrial Revolution [13]:



Without the Industrial Revolution, even a bourgeoisie that had gained partial power could still be overthrown by a powerful feudal autocrat — as with the Zheng regime in Taiwan ^[14] ^[15]. But why did the Industrial Revolution not occur in China, the center of the world-system at the time, rather than in the semi-peripheral West? Why did China not have an Industrial Revolution? It is generally held that bourgeois revolution is the precondition of the Industrial Revolution, but this claim has many problems.

In economic institutions, China and Western Europe differed greatly. In fact, since the Warring States period, public land ownership in China had already disintegrated, turning into a private-ownership society dominated by small peasants and landlords ^[16]. For a long time after the Han dynasty, successive dynasties attempted non-private land systems such as the "land-occupation system" (zhantian) and the "equal-field system" (juntian), which quickly became dead letters — in essence, they only allocated land at the beginning of a dynasty to solve the problem of excessive concentration ^[17]. By the Song dynasty, land buying and selling was protected by law ^[18]. More and more people in the Song grew rich by managing land or commerce and industry, forming a "well-to-do" (fumin) stratum; hence some scholars hold that Song China entered a "society of the well-to-do" ^[19]. Not so Europe: Britain had to wait until the mid-seventeenth century for the parliament of the bourgeoisie and new gentry to enact laws establishing private land ownership ^[20]. France established private land ownership only during the French Revolution at the end of the eighteenth century ^[21]. At

least in Western Europe, the bourgeois revolution was decisive in sweeping away feudalism and establishing bourgeois relations of property founded on private ownership.

The development of internal commerce in China was the key factor in the formation of the capitalist economic system. The growth of the domestic market in Ming China enormously increased the whole society's demand for silver, while China's domestic silver production was very small — hence a global trade network centered on silver arose ^[22]. If China's domestic production of precious metals had met its needs, or if paper money had fulfilled its proper functions, China would have had little need to exchange with the periphery or semi-periphery; foreign trade would have remained chiefly tributary, with private trade existing but on a small scale, insufficient to drive a massive primitive accumulation of capital, and the course of history might well have been much slower.

Although Chinese commerce and industry long surpassed Europe's, and even in the eighteenth century before the Industrial Revolution were not inferior to Europe's, because China's population was huge, its territory vast, and its internal development uneven, on average the countries with the most developed commerce and industry and the strongest bourgeoisie were in Western Europe. Hence the first countries in the world to see the bourgeoisie take power were Holland and Britain. Academia has produced a flood of research on the influence of the Glorious Revolution on the Industrial Revolution ^[23] ^[24]. There are also scholars who hold that Jiangnan, like Western Europe, developed manufactories, but no Industrial Revolution occurred, and the fundamental reason is that Jiangnan lacked coal, so heavy industry could not develop ^[25].

Thus why the Industrial Revolution occurred in Britain and not in China remains a debated puzzle of economic history, awaiting further research.

(3) The Contradiction between Metropolis and Colony

The Europeans' colonization of the Americas rested largely not on guns but on germs ^[26]. If disease had not destroyed the American population, the Spanish would have found it very hard to establish stable rule there. Apart from the Americas, before the eighteenth century the Europeans had established almost no colonies with large agricultural populations; they could occupy only coastal cities as trading posts. With the great decline of the American population, the Western European colonists, continuing the criminal history of the Arabs ^[27], exploited the contradictions among African tribes to obtain black slaves from Africa and ship them to the American colonies.

Once the Industrial Revolution occurred in Britain, the bourgeoisie acquired prodigious productive forces with which to destroy pre-capitalist relations of production. Industry in the semi-peripheral world developed rapidly, surpassing the old centers, so that the central industrial countries of China

and India were converted into colonies and semi-colonies, while Europe, formerly peripheral, developed into the center of the world-system. As the Communist Manifesto puts it:

The bourgeoisie has subjected the country to the rule of the towns. It has created enormous cities, has greatly increased the urban population as compared with the rural, and has thus rescued a considerable part of the population from the idiocy of rural life. Just as it has made the country dependent on the towns, so it has made barbarian and semi-barbarian countries dependent on the civilized ones, nations of peasants on nations of bourgeois, the East on the West.

Thus, on the one hand, there was the internal industrialization, urbanization, and capitalization of the Western European countries; on the other, the Western European colonization of Asia, Africa, and Latin America — the two processes unfolded almost simultaneously. The conquest of the center began with the effective occupation of India around the mid-eighteenth century, at the time of the Industrial Revolution.

The colonial peoples never ceased resisting the colonizers; this resistance runs through the whole history of the capitalist world-system, down to recent times.

In the sixteenth century, Túpac Amaru of the Inca empire led the struggle against the Spanish colonizers. In the eighteenth century, Peru again saw an anti-colonial popular uprising; its leader styled himself "Túpac Amaru II" and "put forward slogans of abolishing the corvée, eliminating the head tax, and restoring the Inca state. At his call, Indians everywhere rose in response; within a few months the insurgents numbered seventy or eighty thousand. The whole of southern Peru, Bolivia, and parts of Chile and Argentina were drawn into the struggle. In the first months the rebel army advanced in triumph and besieged the city of Cusco, shaking Spanish colonial rule in South America." This great uprising was the prelude to the Latin American wars of independence ^[28]. In the colonies, slaves' struggles against their masters rose and fell continuously. Runaway slaves in Brazil even established their own polities, such as the Republic of Palmares ^[29].

In Asia, the Dutch seized Taiwan, taking advantage of the eruption of internal contradictions in Ming China. The Chinese fleet defeated the Dutch at sea and recovered Taiwan ^[30]. Then, as the Industrial Revolution vastly increased British power, the British in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries initially conquered the whole of the South Asian subcontinent and vast areas of Southeast Asia, knocked at China's door in 1842, and gradually turned China into a semi-colony. The colonial peoples' resistance to colonial and foreign aggression never ceased: the Haitian Revolution of 1790 opened the Latin American independence movement; China's Taiping Rebellion erupted in 1851 ^[31]; India's Great Rebellion broke out in 1857.

(4) Summary

To summarize: in the mercantile-capitalist stage, the world-system contained multiple contradictions.

In the colonies, the principal contradictions were between feudal lords and peasants, and between slave-owners and slaves.

In the semi-peripheral countries, the principal contradictions were: between feudal lords and peasants; between the big and small bourgeoisie of commerce and industry (and the workers they led) and the feudal lords; and between the bourgeoisie and the working class.

In the central countries: the contradiction between landlord class and peasants; between the big and small bourgeoisie of commerce and industry (and the workers they led) and the feudal lords; and between the bourgeoisie and the working class.

Between the semi-peripheral countries and the colonies existed the contradiction between metropolis and colony. Among the central countries, and among the various semi-peripheral countries, there was the contradiction over dominance in international trade.

In the successive revolutions of Western Europe, these contradictions manifested themselves one after another as the revolution deepened. In the English Revolution, the Presbyterians, the Independents, and the Levellers respectively represented the class interests of the big bourgeoisie and financial bourgeoisie, the middle industrial and commercial bourgeoisie, and the lower common people (petty bourgeoisie and working class). In the French Revolution, the Feuillants, the Girondins, and the Montagnards likewise represented respectively the big financial bourgeoisie, the middle industrial and commercial bourgeoisie, and the lower common people (petty bourgeoisie and working class). Throughout the mercantile-capitalist era, the independent political aspirations of the working class left their mark on history through Babeuf's abortive Conspiracy of Equals ^[32]. In the end, the bourgeoisie seized power and established capitalist society.

The dynamic of the world-system came from the semi-peripheral countries' achievement of capitalization and industrialization through the primitive accumulation of capital; the bourgeoisie "compels all nations, on pain of extinction, to adopt the bourgeois mode of production; it compels them to introduce what it calls civilization into their midst, i.e., to become bourgeois themselves. In one word, it creates a world after its own image" ^[33].

2. The Stage of National Industrial Capitalism

In the stage of national industrial capitalism, none of the contradictions of the previous stage disappeared; some even intensified.

(1) The Contradiction between Landlords and Peasants

First, the contradiction between the landlord class and the peasants took various forms in this period. In the rapidly developing central capitalist countries, feudal landlords turned into agricultural capitalists, tenancy largely disappeared, and peasants either remained owner-cultivators running family farms (the French model) or became agricultural laborers (Britain). To this day, however, every capitalist country has a coexistence of individual small-peasant family farms and capitalist large farms with hired labor; only the proportions differ by country and stage of development:

According to the agricultural history of Britain, in the mid-to-late nineteenth century the great landowners had swallowed up about 85 percent of the country's land; in 1851, hired labor made up 74 percent of the British agricultural labor force [34]. According to the French land statistics of 1862, of the country's 7.8 million landowners, small holders of 1–10 hectares were 46.5 percent, and dwarf holders of under 1 hectare 38.5 percent — of whom 3.6 million small holders were unable to pay their taxes. By 1882, 80 percent of French farm households cultivated the land directly, on 60 percent of the country's land, and only 12 percent of farmers operated under tenancy; a patchwork coexistence of capitalist large farms and small proprietors developed [35]. In Germany, the Junkers extracted high redemption payments from the peasants and, in the name of "freeing the estates," took back the strips previously used by the peasants; their farms became much larger than before the reform, using more and more machinery and hired labor, gradually turning into capitalist large farmers, while the mass of peasants were ruined and reduced to wage workers. Thus by the 1860s, the Junker great estates and rich-peasant economy of a capitalist character east of the Elbe had achieved absolute predominance, marking a new stage in modern agricultural capitalism. In the early 1860s, the number of farm laborers in Prussia alone reached 3.5 million; by the end of the 1860s, the small holders, 71.4 percent of German farm households, owned only 9 percent of the cultivated area, while the landlords and large and medium farmers, 28.6 percent of households, owned 91 percent. With the development of land-mortgage and land-lease systems, land ownership and rent concentrated more and more in the hands of a rich few [36].

Since the feudal agricultural relations of production had already been transformed into capitalist ones, feudal relations had nearly disappeared, or at least no longer held sway. The small peasant's adversary was no longer the feudal lord but the capitalist large farm with its advanced technology, and the financial bourgeoisie that bled him dry with loans. As Engels said in *The Peasant Question in France and Germany*:

The individual producer's possession of the means of production has, in our time, ceased to give these producers real freedom. Handicraft industry in the towns has gone bankrupt, and in big cities like London has completely vanished; in its place came big industry, the sweating system, and the poor businessmen who eke out a living on bankruptcies. The small peasant, who tills his own land, is neither a secure possessor of his little plot nor a free man. He and his house, his yard, his little field belong to the usurer; his existence is more precarious than the proletarian's, who at least gets an easy

day now and then, which is never granted to the tormented debtor slave. Even if you strike out Article 2102 of the Civil Code and legally guarantee the peasant a certain minimum of implements, livestock, and so on, which cannot be pledged, you will still not extricate him from his desperate condition, because he must "voluntarily" sell his cattle, his very body and soul, to the usurer, merely to postpone the day of ruin [37].

But in countries in the process of capitalist development, if capitalism did not develop fast enough, feudal exploitation could persist over a long period. Marx said in *Capital* that compared with Britain, Germany suffered "not only from the development of capitalist production, but also from the incompleteness of that development." Japan's case was similar:

Togo Minoru noted, on the basis of an 1899 survey, that owner-cultivators in Japan were only 33 percent of peasants, owner-tenant cultivators 43 percent, and pure tenants 21 percent; half of the country's cultivated land was tilled by tenants, and the livelihood of the lower peasants was growing ever harder [38]. In 1926, Japan began the "program for the creation and maintenance of owner-cultivators," encouraging tenants to become owners. But as late as 1945, nearly half of Japanese farm households were still tenants or small owner-cultivators, and 46 percent of farmland was tenanted [39].

In the semi-colonial and colonial countries, because capitalist development in agriculture was even more inadequate, feudal land exploitation remained widespread. For instance, in Republican China, although different institutions and scholars gave quite different statistics, it is undeniable that a great deal of feudal land exploitation persisted nationwide:

According to the survey of the Ministry of Agriculture and Commerce of the Beijing government, tenants were about 26 percent of farm households in 1918, about 24 percent in 1920, and about 42 percent in 1921. Buck estimated 17 percent; Zhang Xinyi, 33 percent; the Land Committee's survey, 16 percent. Averaging these data, tenants were about 24 percent of farm households. In addition, there were a certain number of hired farm laborers who sold their labor for wages; according to the Land Committee survey, they averaged about 1.6 percent of farm households. The share of hired laborers was higher in the northern provinces, related to the existence of a certain number of commercial landlords in North China [40]. According to a 1933 survey of Shanghang county, Fujian, of the county's 43,293 households, landlords were 3.6 percent of households holding 30.5 percent of land; owner-cultivators (in fact rich peasants and well-to-do middle peasants) 5.3 percent holding 5.4 percent; owner-tenants 88.4 percent holding 64.1 percent; pure tenants 2.7 percent. In Longyan, Fujian, a 1943 survey found owner-cultivators and semi-owner-cultivators 66.62 percent and tenants 33.38 percent. Jiangxi's 1936 statistics show owner-cultivators 28.7 percent of farm households, semi-owner-cultivators 34.2 percent, tenants 37.1 percent. The National Government's Land Committee survey of Jiangxi and Fujian in 1934 found owner-cultivation rates of 54.9 percent and 60.67 percent, and tenant rates of 45.1 percent and 39.33 percent [41].

Feudal land exploitation was also widespread in the peripheral colonial countries. In India, according to the Indian government's 1954 statistics, about 40 percent of all farm households rented all or part of their land and paid rent — tenants or semi-tenants [42].

3.6. Table (3.4) shows that out of 55 million operational holdings of size 0.005 acre or more, 60 per cent were entirely owned and about 17 per cent entirely leased in. 23 per cent of the holdings were of the mixed type i.e., partly owned and partly leased in.

TABLE (3.4) : ESTIMATED NUMBER OF ENTIRELY OWNED AND ENTIRELY LEASED IN OPERATIONAL HOLDINGS, MAJOR CROP SEASON 1953-1954

number of sample villages : 4431 number of sample households : 75720

operational holdings	estimate (000)	percentage
(1)	(2)	(3)
1. entirely owned	33093	60.15
2. entirely leased-in	9317	16.94
3. mixed	12602	22.91
4. total ¹	55012	100.00
5. reporting land owned ²	45695	83.06
6. reporting land leased-in ³	21919	39.84

¹ Excludes holdings of size less than 0.005-acre.

² item 5 = item (1) + item (3).

³ item 6 = item (2) + item (3).

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Even politically independent peripheral countries such as Brazil and Mexico had great landlords exploiting small peasants by renting land to them:

Before the Mexican Revolution of 1910, 11,000 great estate owners held 57 percent of the country's land; the Terrazas family of Chihuahua alone owned 15 great estates. By sharp contrast, nearly 97 percent of rural families owned no land. A visitor to Chile in the early twentieth century said: "The landowner's authority over his tenants is far greater than an American landowner's over his. The Chilean landowner is usually the local magistrate and does not hesitate to decide cases touching his own interests." James Bryce vividly described a great Brazilian planter living "a semi-feudal patriarchal life" in his "little principality," comparable to England a century before [43].

Thus in the peripheral colonial and semi-colonial countries (China, India), in the politically independent peripheral countries (Brazil, Mexico), and in countries in a peripheral (relatively weak-link) position within the capitalist center (Japan, Russia), feudal exploitation was widespread. In these societies, the contradiction between landlords and peasants remained very important. Since the

great estates remained small-scale production in mode, land reform devoted to "land to the tiller" was of great progressive value, raising productivity. Solving the land question — land reform or revolution that abolished feudal exploitation — was one of the main contents of reform or revolutionary movements in many countries.

Feudal land exploitation produced low agricultural productivity, which could neither provide enough surplus for industrialization nor release enough surplus labor for industrial capital to exploit — the basic problem every insufficiently capitalized country had to solve. Yet the ways different countries solved the land question differed enormously. In Russia, the land question was solved by the October Socialist Revolution. In Japan, it was solved by the postwar land reform:

Japanese farmland policy and law in this stage focused on protecting the interests of cultivators and ensuring peasant ownership of land, with the aim of uprooting feudal economic relations in the countryside, achieving "land to the tiller," and creating conditions for the development of capitalist relations of production. The law required the sale of all rented land of absentee landlords and of resident landlords' land exceeding three chō. To prevent new landlords, the law limited household ownership to three chō. From 1947 to 1950, 1.91 million chō of land were sold to farm households, equivalent to 80 percent of tenanted land; of the nation's 6.176 million households, owner-cultivators rose to 61.8 percent, tenants and semi-tenants 37.5 percent, of which pure tenants fell from 28.7 percent in 1947 to only 5 percent, with 5 percent other households. The revised Agricultural Land Law of May 1970 abolished the ceiling on land acquisition and the maximum rent provisions, legally recognizing the leasing and borrowing of farmland, providing the legal basis for the formation of large tenant farms. The 1975 revision of the Agricultural Promotion Areas Development Law aimed to promote agricultural development and efficient land use, legally ensuring farmers could lend out land without anxiety and promoting land mobility. From 1970 to the present, for more than thirty years, Japanese farmland institutions and laws have centered on the concentration and scaling-up of farmland [\[44\]](#).

In Taiwan, the land question was solved by the Kuomintang regime, which had retreated to the island, through land reform:

In 1953 the Taiwan government promulgated the "Regulations for the Implementation of Land to the Tillers" and the "Regulations for Physical Land Bonds of Taiwan Province," carrying out the third step of land reform, "land to the tiller." All rented land of landlords exceeding 3 hectares of paddy or 6 hectares of dry land had to be sold to the government, which then resold it to tenants. The purchase price was calculated at 2.5 times the annual main crop under the public land distribution method. Seventy percent was paid in physical land bonds — rice bonds for paddy, sweet-potato bonds for dry land — at 4 percent annual interest, principal and interest repaid in 20 equal installments over 10 years. The other 30 percent was paid in shares of public enterprises, which were converted into private companies after issuance and owned by the share-holders. The land reform of the 1950s realized "land

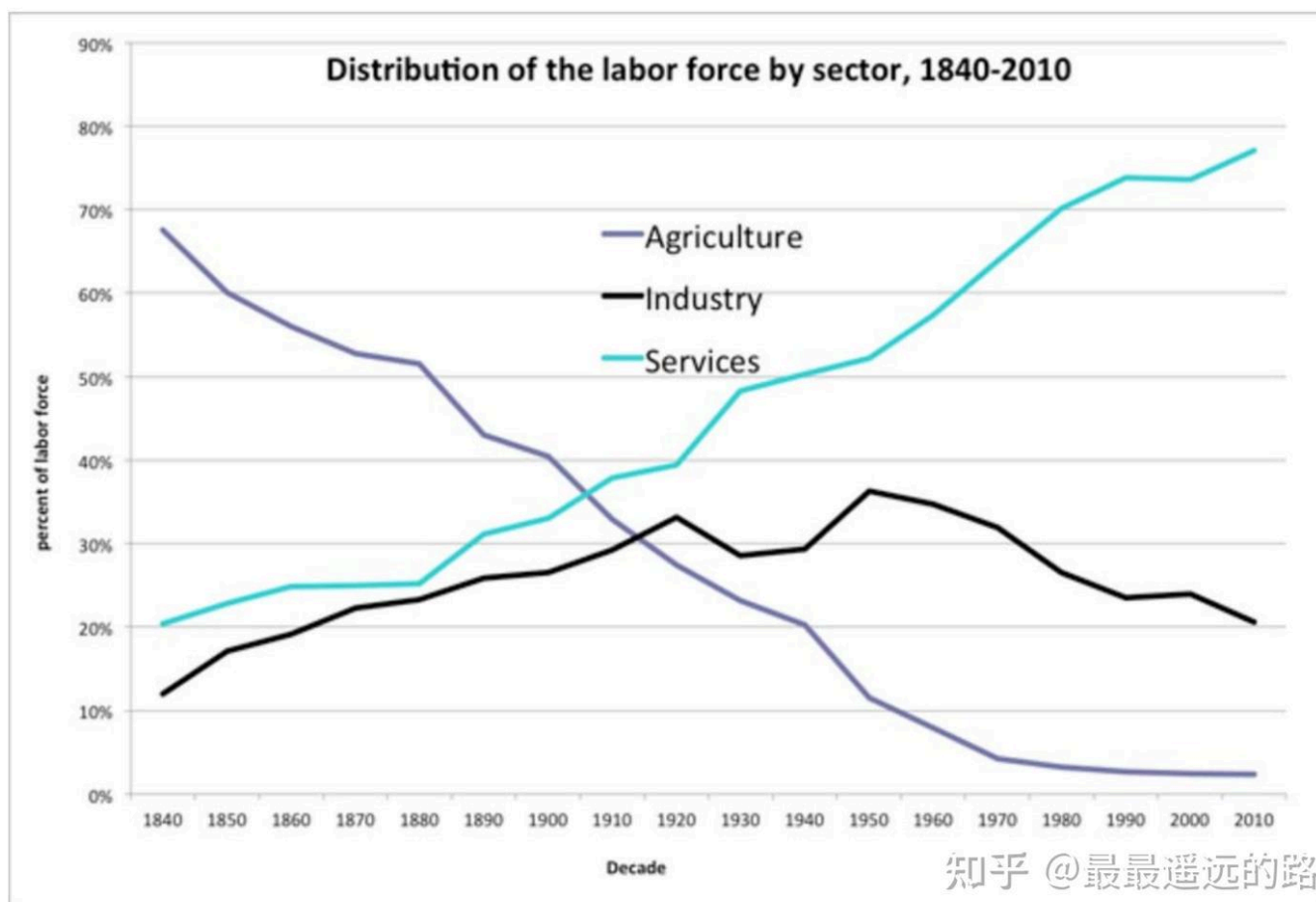
to the tiller": tenants legally obtained the land they cultivated. On the one hand, it mobilized peasants' production enthusiasm; agriculture developed rapidly, in turn driving industrialization. On the other hand, the law strictly restricted the area of land ownership and the objects of transfer, leading to fragmentation and smallness of holdings. Farm scale was too small: not only were costs high, but scattered households responded sluggishly to market changes, making production and marketing adjustment difficult. After the 1970s, agricultural development largely stagnated. The constraints of land, capital, and technology on agriculture grew ever more acute: rural aging, agricultural labor shortages, and a high rate of part-time farming. From 1983 the Taiwan government carried out a second land reform, aimed mainly at achieving agricultural modernization and scaled operation. Its main contents: banks relaxed lending conditions to stimulate land purchases; without changing ownership, farmers were organized to enlarge farm scale; and agricultural mechanization and land reconsolidation were accelerated ^[44].

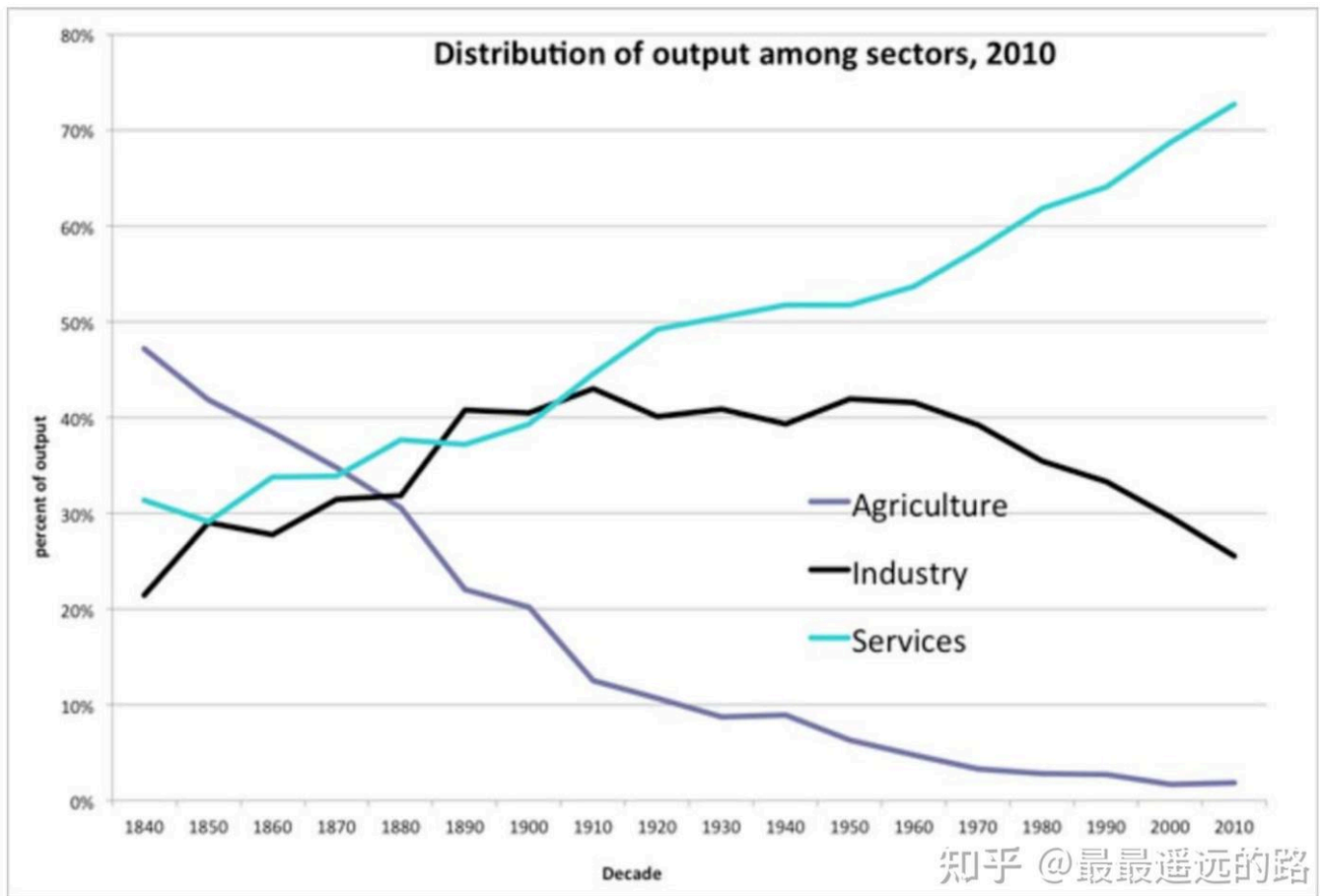
In Mexico, the land reform was accomplished through revolution, producing a coexistence of village-community-based small peasants and capitalist large agriculture:

According to statistics, in 1910, 835 families controlled 97 percent of the country's land; foreign plantations held 30 million hectares, more than half owned by American planters. Since 1915, successive governments have distributed land to varying degrees — nearly 90 million hectares in all, benefiting over 3 million farm families. The Cárdenas period (1934–1940) was the largest land reform in Mexican history: in six years one million landless peasants received nearly 20 million hectares — almost double the total area distributed by the previous seven governments — of which 4.5 million hectares were foreign plantations expropriated by the state. The peasants who received land formed 15,000 ejidos; those who received expropriated plantation land formed over 400 cooperatively run "collective ejidos." While distributing land, Cárdenas also took a series of measures in credit, irrigation, and so on, promoting the development of the ejido economy. According to statistics, in 1930 ejido farmland was only 13.4 percent of the national cultivated area, irrigated land 13.1 percent of the national irrigated area, and ejido output only 11 percent of national agricultural output; by 1940 these shares had risen respectively to 47.4 percent, 57.3 percent, and 50.5 percent... Since the 1950s, land leasing has grown ever more serious. According to statistics, registered lease contracts numbered 9,000 in 1940 and rose to 21,000 in 1960; over the same period "share-cropping" units rose from 5,000 households to over 12,000. In recent years, the lease rate of land — especially irrigated and good dry land — has risen year by year. In 1978, the ejido land lease rate in the Yaqui Valley reached 95 percent, and 80 percent in Sinaloa and the Mayo Valley. It is estimated that about 80 percent of the irrigated and good dry land held by small private farmers and ejido members nationwide has now been leased out. Large numbers of ejido members and small private farmers are losing their land again, steadily enlarging the agricultural proletariat; the landless and near-landless peasants of the country have reached over 3 million. The ejido members and small private farmers who still hold small plots cannot make a living from farming; wage income from selling labor has become an important part of family income ^[45].

As the examples of these three capitalist countries and regions show, land reform in fact promoted the development of rural capitalism: over time, most peasants gradually became urban wage workers, while a minority of small peasants, by renting or buying land, grew into capitalist family farms of some scale, even large farms. Land reform abolished feudal land exploitation and accelerated the development of capitalism in the periphery. Since the development of capitalism itself requires the abolition of feudal exploitation, land reform had a broad social base.

In the central countries, by contrast, the core contradiction in agriculture had become that between agricultural workers and large farm owners, plus the competitive relationship between small peasants and large estates; feudal exploitation had become insignificant. Since the large estates carried on capitalist large-scale agricultural production, breaking up the great estates among small peasants could actually lower productivity; though it might serve to win small peasants politically, without strong state support it could easily cause agricultural decline. Moreover, with the spread of new agricultural technology, the agricultural population of the advanced capitalist countries fell enormously, and agriculture's share of national output declined ever further. In the United States, before World War II the agricultural labor share had already fallen from 40 percent at the beginning of the twentieth century to about 20 percent, below the manufacturing share. In 1900, agriculture was already below 20 percent of US GDP, far below industry's 40 percent. See the two figures below [\[46\]](#).





Thus in the central countries, though the contradiction between large estates and small peasants still existed, it no longer had decisive significance from the standpoint of the evolution of the capitalist world-system.

(2) The Contradiction between Center and Periphery

In the stage of national industrial capitalism, the center of the world was Europe and America; the periphery consisted of politically independent countries, semi-colonies, and colonies. How are these categories distinguished?

From the standpoint of the international division of labor, every peripheral country — politically independent or not — served as a market for the central countries' industrial goods and a source of raw materials and primary products. But political independence or its absence decided whether a country possessed the conditions to develop capitalism and climb from periphery to center.

Colonial countries are those directly ruled by a central country. Their state power is led by officials dispatched by the central country. The people of a colony therefore lose not only tariff autonomy but the domestic power of taxation, currency issue, and so on — in other words, they lose the political conditions for independently developing capitalist industry. A colony's industry can develop only

when the metropolis considers such development advantageous to itself. Typical colonies: India, Indonesia, most of Africa.

Semi-colonial countries are those not directly ruled by a central country but controlled through various unequal treaties. The unequal treaties a semi-colonial country signs are forced upon it as a defeated state, and are very disadvantageous to its independent economic development. A semi-colonial country basically loses tariff autonomy, so it cannot develop its own industry through protective tariffs — in this respect like a colony. But the semi-colonial government retains most of the power of taxation and coinage, and can foster domestic industry through relatively independent fiscal and monetary means — in this respect far stronger than a colony. Typical semi-colonies: China, Japan (before 1911), Thailand (before 1920).

Politically independent peripheral countries are those with tariff autonomy, coinage, and taxation. They can support domestic industry through industrial policies such as protective tariffs. But since industrialization requires importing machinery and equipment from abroad, they need foreign exchange, and foreign exchange depends on the export of primary products; so although politically independent, they remain economically dependent on foreign markets and foreign loans. Such countries are concentrated in Latin America; Turkey (after 1929) in Asia may also be classed here.

Since capitalism had already reached the imperialist stage in the second half of the nineteenth century, any peripheral country that did not develop industry and strengthen its military power risked being reduced to a colony or semi-colony. In the imperialist race to divide the world, the central countries, through financial control, military aggression, and every other means, kept encroaching on the sovereignty of the peripheral countries and tightening economic and political control. Under the central countries' steady encroachment, some independent countries fell to semi-colonial status (Morocco, Algeria, Afghanistan), and some countries or regions fell further from semi-colonial to colonial status (Egypt, Northeast China).

Imperialist oppression blocked the development of productive forces in the peripheral countries, condemning them to prolonged economic stagnation or even regression, with their peoples generally on the verge of ruin and mired in poverty. Hence, for peripheral societies, besides the traditional contradiction between feudal landlords and peasants, the greatest contradiction was that between the central countries and the peripheral countries. Other contradictions — between small and large properties, between bourgeoisie and proletariat — were of lesser importance.

Lenin's analysis of the liberation movements of colonies and semi-colonies established that the class character of these movements was bourgeois, their goal the development of capitalism, not the building of communism. Lenin also pointed out that the bourgeoisie of the oppressed nations was dual in character: on the one hand it supported resistance to imperialist oppression; on the other, in

many cases it allied with the bourgeoisie of the central countries against revolutionary movements. Looking at history, we must admit the great truth of Lenin's series of judgments:

The characteristic feature of the present stage of imperialism is that the whole world is divided into two parts: on the one hand, the numerous oppressed nations; on the other, the small minority of oppressor nations with colossal wealth and strong military power. The majority of the world's population — over a billion, about 1.25 billion in all — are oppressed nations. Taking the world's total population as 1.75 billion, they make up about 70 percent of humanity; some are direct colonies, some are semi-colonial countries like Persia, Turkey, and China, and some are countries defeated by the armies of some imperialist great power, sunk in dependence through the peace treaties they signed.... There is no doubt that every national movement can only be bourgeois-democratic in character, for the main mass of the population in the backward countries consists of peasants, and peasants are representatives of bourgeois-capitalist relations. It would be utopian for a proletarian party (if it could arise at all in such a country) to attempt to carry out communist tactics and communist policy in these backward countries without establishing certain relations with the peasant movement and without giving it practical support.... The imperialist bourgeoisie also strives to foster reformist movements among the oppressed nations. The bourgeoisie of the exploiting countries and of the colonial countries has already formed quite intimate relations, so that the bourgeoisie of the oppressed countries — in most cases, one may say — supports the national movement on the one hand, and compromises with the imperialist bourgeoisie on the other, i.e., joins it against all revolutionary movements and revolutionary classes. This has been proved irrefutably in the committee, and we therefore consider that it is correct to take note of this distinction and to change the term "bourgeois-democratic" almost everywhere to "national-revolutionary." By this amendment we mean that only when the bourgeois liberation movement in the colonial countries is genuinely revolutionary, and when its representatives do not hinder us in educating and organizing the peasants and the broad masses of the exploited in a revolutionary spirit, shall we Communists support such movements and be obliged to support them. If these conditions are absent, the Communists in these countries should fight against the reformist bourgeoisie of the same type as the heroes of the Second International. — Lenin, Report of the Commission on the National and Colonial Questions (July 26, 1920, Second Congress of the Communist International) [\[47\]](#)

After the Asian and African colonial countries won independence in the twentieth century, in Africa and South Asia — regions not on the Cold War front line and with weak domestic proletariats — most countries, apart from French-controlled West Africa and South African-controlled territories, leaned toward the Soviet Union. In Southeast Asia, on the Cold War front line, some countries joined the socialist camp while others went to the anti-communist capitalist camp. This shows that in the peripheral countries, the "national revolution" seeking national independence and national economic development indeed had a broad mass base. Hence these countries leaned politically toward the Soviet Union, some even painting themselves with socialist colors — India is the typical example. But

if class struggle sharpened within a peripheral country, its ruling bourgeoisie would turn to the United States — as under Suharto's Indonesia and Chiang Kai-shek's National Government.



For peripheral countries, winning political independence and recovering full sovereignty was the political precondition of capitalist development. Take India: according to the calculations of the Indian Marxist economist Utsa Patnaik, the British, by monopolizing Indian trade and taxation, extracted from colonial India a surplus equivalent to some \$45 trillion in present-day terms. The British used this surplus to maintain their rule in India, to contend for global hegemony, and to subsidize their own industrial development. Some dispute the figure, but even discounted it remains astronomical. By draining India's surplus, the British enormously retarded India's industrial development. If India could have applied that surplus to its own development, its industrial level in 1947 would certainly have been far higher.

The latest research by the eminent economist Utsa Patnaik — published by Columbia University Press — delivers a heavy blow to this narrative. Using detailed data on taxation and trade over nearly two centuries, Patnaik calculates that between 1765 and 1938, Britain drained nearly \$45 trillion from India. This is a staggering figure. To make it comprehensible: \$45 trillion is equivalent to seventeen times Britain's current annual GDP... Part of the booty was consumed in Britain; the rest was

transshipped elsewhere. This system of transshipment enabled Britain to finance imports from Europe, including strategic materials such as iron, tar, and timber, vital to Britain's industrialization. Indeed, the Industrial Revolution depended to a considerable extent on this systematic theft from India [48].

In fact, the peripheral countries that industrialized first were almost all politically independent ones. Below is my compilation of crude steel output of the major peripheral countries in 1970, from the World Steel Association's 1980 Steel Statistical Yearbook [49], which covers the whole decade. The table shows that the best economic performers were the politically independent countries, while the former colonies and semi-colonies had very low steel output — even China, which took the socialist path of industrialization and heavy-industry high-accumulation, had per-capita steel output far below that of peripheral countries that had long been politically independent. The semi-colonies retained more sovereignty than the colonies, but lacked tariff autonomy; under the international division of labor their role was to develop agriculture and mining with supporting transport and public utilities, at most some light industry — heavy industry could hardly develop. So the semi-colonies' level of industrial development was not much higher than the colonies': roughly six of one and half a dozen of the other.

1970年主要外围国家钢产量情况				
国家	外围国家类型	人口（百万）	钢产量（千吨）	人均（千吨/百万人）
中国	前半殖民地	818	18,000	24
泰国	前半殖民地	36	153	6
伊朗	前半殖民地	29	240	9
印度	前殖民地	545	6,276	12
印尼	前殖民地	116	10	3
埃及	前殖民地	35	450	15
墨西哥	政治独立国家	51	3881	78
巴西	政治独立国家	93	3881	42
阿根廷	政治独立国家	24	1823	78
智利	政治独立国家	10	592	60
土耳其	政治独立国家	36	1,312	39
总计		1793	36618	21

In the second stage of the capitalist world-system, the era of national industrial capitalism, as the central countries exported capital to the periphery and the old ruling classes of the periphery gradually turned to investing in commerce and industry, a bourgeoisie gradually developed in the peripheral countries [50] [51] [52] [53] [54]. As Stalin analyzed, the national movements striving for

capitalist industrialization and capitalist modernization in one's own country are in essence bourgeois movements.

For the young bourgeoisie, the market is the basic question. Its aim is to sell its own goods and defeat the bourgeoisie of the rival foreign nationality. Hence it seeks to secure "its own," "its native" market. The market is the first school in which the bourgeoisie learns nationalism. The bourgeoisie of the oppressed nations, squeezed on all sides, naturally springs into action. It appeals to its "lower compatriots," begins to shout "fatherland," and passes off its private affair as the affair of the whole nation. It recruits its army among the "compatriots" in the interests of... the "fatherland." The "lower classes" do not always turn a deaf ear to this appeal; sometimes they rally around the banner of the bourgeoisie, for the oppression of the upper classes also touches them and provokes their discontent. In the epoch of rising capitalism, the national struggle is a struggle among the bourgeoisies. Sometimes the bourgeoisie manages to draw the proletariat into the national movement, and then the national struggle outwardly assumes a "nation-wide" character; but this is only in appearance. In essence, the struggle is always a bourgeois one, chiefly favorable to and suitable for the bourgeoisie. — Stalin, Marxism and the National Question

It was precisely the bourgeoisie of the peripheral countries that drove the national liberation movements — Sun Yat-sen in China, Gandhi in India, Sukarno in Indonesia — all representatives of the nascent national bourgeoisie. The national liberation movements of the colonial and semi-colonial countries first took the capitalist road under bourgeois leadership. Only when the capitalist road proved unviable, when it proved unable to accomplish the national-democratic revolutionary tasks of opposing feudalism at home and imperialism abroad, did they turn to the socialist road of revolution or the people's-democratic road, representing the interests of workers and peasants.

The most important effect of winning national independence was to recover tariff sovereignty and protect the weak native bourgeoisie, enabling it to monopolize the domestic market or occupy it on favorable terms. In China, after the Revolution of 1911, through the efforts of successive governments — the Beiyang government, the National Revolutionary government, and Chiang Kai-shek's National Government — tariff autonomy was gradually recovered. We can look at the key milestones in China's recovery of tariff autonomy to see how difficult the process was:

On August 14, [1917], the Beijing government declared war on Germany and Austria-Hungary, and announced that all treaties concluded between China and Germany and Austria, and all clauses in international agreements relating to them, were abrogated in accordance with international law and practice. China informed the Dutch minister in Beijing that cases involving Germans formerly handled by the Dutch consul would henceforth be subject to the full jurisdiction of the Chinese courts. Thus, by declaring war, China completely abolished the consular jurisdiction of Germany and Austria-Hungary. After the war, China concluded the Sino-German Agreement and the Sino-Austrian Treaty of Commerce with the two governments, confirming at the bilateral level China's wartime measures.

While the Western powers grudgingly took tiny steps on treaty revision, the new Soviet Russia took great strides on the road of treaty abolition. From July 1919 to September 1923, the Soviet government issued three declarations to China, announcing that "the Soviet government renounces all privileges," "all treaties concluded by previous Russian governments with China are null and void, all territories formerly seized from China and all Russian concessions in China are renounced, and everything taken by the tsarist government and the Russian bourgeoisie from China will be returned to China free of charge and in perpetuity." In October 1926, China signed the Treaty of Amity with Finland. Both treaties abolished consular jurisdiction and tariff agreement rights. In April 1927, with the violent change in Chinese domestic politics — the Kuomintang's "party purge" of Communists — the revolutionary process was temporarily interrupted, and the Party's foreign policy inevitably changed, its anti-imperialist fervor and firmness much weakened; but the cause of abolishing the unequal treaties continued. On May 11, Foreign Minister Wu Chaoshu of the Nanjing government issued the "Declaration that the National Government Will Abolish All Unequal Treaties by Proper Procedure." The Nanjing government decided to begin with abolishing the agreed tariff, declaring China's tariff autonomy unilaterally. On July 20, the Nanjing government issued a tariff autonomy proclamation, announcing that from September 1 of that year all transit taxes in the six provinces of Jiangsu, Anhui, Zhejiang, Fujian, Guangdong, and Guangxi would be abolished, and simultaneously declared tariff autonomy, with imports to be taxed at nationally fixed rates. On the same day it promulgated related regulations, such as the "Regulations for the Abolition of Domestic Transit Taxes" and the "Provisional Regulations for National Fixed Import Tariffs." The powers resisted the Nanjing government's position: the diplomatic corps decided not to respond formally to its proclamation, while the countries concerned assembled warships to station at the Chinese customs as a show of force. At the same time, the Southern armies suffered setbacks against the Northern armies. In these adverse conditions at home and abroad, on August 29 the National Government issued a proclamation deciding to postpone the implementation of the "Regulations for the Abolition of Domestic Transit Taxes" and the "Provisional Regulations for National Fixed Import Tariffs," while declaring that "tariff autonomy is the exercise of the sovereignty of an independent state," so the policy of tariff autonomy remained unchanged: from September 1 of that year, all land and sea customs tariffs would be autonomous. In June 1928, the National Government unified the country. The end of the confrontation between the southern and northern regimes and the formation of unity gave the National Government far greater authority in foreign negotiations than any previous government, and treaty revision entered a period of comprehensive advance. By the end of 1928, all the major countries with trade relations with China except Japan had signed tariff treaties with China recognizing its tariff autonomy. However, under the most-favored-nation clause, so long as Japan did not renounce its agreed-tariff right, the other countries could still enjoy the benefit. Negotiations with Japan therefore became the final and most crucial battle of China's struggle for tariff autonomy. The Japanese government was fiercely hostile to China's demands for treaty revision, denouncing the National Government's provisional measures as "an outrage flouting international good faith which the Imperial Government can by no means tolerate." Only in June 1929 did Japan begin negotiations with China on treaty revision. After nearly a

year of lengthy negotiations, in May 1930 the Sino-Japanese tariff agreement was finally signed and Japan renounced its agreed-tariff right. Therewith China's tariff autonomy was finally realized ^[55].

As the passage quoted above recounts, China first recovered tariff autonomy from the defeated powers by participating in World War I under the Beiyang government; then the Beiyang government negotiated the abolition of the unequal treaties with the Soviet Union and Finland. But the leading powers of the capitalist world — Britain, France, America, Japan — were unwilling to give up their tariff rights, and the Beiyang government dared not offend the imperialist countries. Only when the tidal wave of the Great Revolution swept the country and the National Government forcibly implemented tariff autonomy, drawing imperialist intervention — while the surging revolutionary tide at home and the strong demand of the bourgeoisie forced the National Government to realize tariff autonomy — was the tariff right finally recovered through negotiation.

Having achieved tariff autonomy, the National Government soon adopted protective tariffs, imposing high duties on industrial manufactures that could be produced domestically, promoting import substitution and to a considerable degree fostering the development of domestic industry. If this had continued, the effect would likely have resembled the import-substitution industrialization of Mexico, Brazil, and post-independence India — though the rate of heavy-industry accumulation would have been slower than socialist China's, industry would still have developed.

The National Fixed Import Tariff of 1933 received high praise from the business world; the data in Table 1 also show its protective character. It raised import duties on manufactured goods competing with domestic industry to over 30 percent, most above 50 percent, while rates on raw materials and intermediate products were little changed from 1932. Even the much-criticized National Fixed Import Tariff of 1934 shows marked protection in Table 1: raw materials, intermediate products, hardware, and machinery related to domestic industry, except dyes, were all taxed below 20 percent; among manufactures, apart from locomotives, automobiles, and other goods urgently needed for national defense that did not compete with domestic industry, and flour, which long enjoyed low rates, everything else was subjected to high import duties. In 1929, domestically produced machine-made cotton cloth held less than 50 percent of the market; by 1935, according to Yan Zhongping's estimates of domestic and imported machine-made cotton cloth consumption, domestic cloth could claim over 95 percent of the market. Before 1930, "the sugar needed by the people came almost entirely from abroad." By the 1933 output value of the sugar industry, domestic sugar held only 15 percent of the domestic market; by 1936 its share had reached 59 percent. Domestic matches' share of the domestic market rose from 71 percent in 1929 to nearly 100 percent in 1933. Domestic cigarettes held 94 percent of the domestic market in 1928, rising to nearly 100 percent by 1935. Domestic flour held 68 percent of the domestic market in 1933; after import duties were imposed in 1935, its share rose to 83 percent. In 1936, domestic handmade and machine-made paper held only 28 percent and 10 percent of the domestic market respectively... Within the scope of this study, industries where imports had once held

a major market share showed a more positive trajectory of expansion in the domestic market under protective tariffs as import substitution advanced [56].

But Japan would not sit idly by while China developed along the road of import-substitution industrialization: given China's enormous population, it could fully nurture a considerable modern industry in its domestic market, including heavy and defense industry, in which case Japan could not merely fail to continue its aggression but might even lose Manchuria. Since economic means were insufficient to suppress China, Japanese imperialism resolved to settle the threat by aggressive war. The Japanese war of aggression dealt a devastating blow to China's national industrial development, and proved to the Chinese people of the time that in the imperialist age, if one could not mobilize the masses of the people including the broad peasantry, the strength of a bourgeois state alone was insufficient to deal with imperialism. Hence the development of peripheral countries had to take the new-democratic road: oppose feudalism, support workers and peasants, develop the state economy, support private enterprise — in a word, practice a mixed economy.

If the Sino-Japanese War of 1894 had already shown that Japanese aggression had a major impact on China's modernization, then by the 1930s Japan's full-scale war of aggression completely interrupted China's original modernization process. In the decade before the War of Resistance, China's modern industry grew at an average annual rate of about 7.6 percent, with the growth conspicuously concentrated in basic industry; in 1936 capitalist production already accounted for 65 percent of industrial output value and 24.48 percent of combined industrial and agricultural output. Had there been no Japanese aggression, China's industrialization would inevitably have been greatly accelerated. Though this hypothesis can no longer be tested by history, as Mao Zedong said, without the aggression of the Western powers after the Opium War, the seeds of capitalism in China, dating from the Ming–Qing transition, would have developed slowly into capitalism. These are hypotheses grounded in fact and hence logical. But hypotheses after all did not become reality: Japan's aggression against China completely interrupted China's original modernization. First the Japanese occupation of Northeast China cost China one-third of its forests, iron ore, and coal mines; four-tenths of its railways; seven-tenths of its soybean output; two-fifths of its export trade; 93 percent of its oil; and 55 percent of its gold. By other statistics, by the end of 1932 the Chinese government's losses in the Northeast reached 17.8 billion yuan; with private losses, no less than 20 billion. During the eight years of full-scale invasion, Japan occupied over 47 percent of China's cities, including over 80 percent of its large cities. These cities contained nearly all of China's modern industry. Some of this industry was destroyed directly by gunfire, some closed for lack of operating conditions, some was forcibly moved inland and destroyed en route. In the occupied territories, the Japanese army not only plundered public and private property but intercepted tax revenues, controlled finance, and established a colonial economic system dependent on Japan for the plunder of Chinese resources and wealth. According to figures published by the Chinese government in 1995, China's direct property losses in the War of Resistance were \$100 billion, indirect losses \$500 billion. For a China that was already very poor, these war losses

not only made the original modernization process unsustainable but were enough to bring the whole economy to collapse. — "The Influence of the War of Resistance Against Japan on China's Modernization Process," *Journal of the Chinese Academy of Social Sciences* [57]

China's case was not exceptional. Most countries that achieved relatively successful import-substitution industrialization adopted, at some historical period, a political line of class cooperation similar to "new democracy."

In Latin America, the Mexican revolutionary government under Cárdenas carried out extensive nationalization and land reform, adopted protective tariffs to promote import substitution — anti-feudal at home, class cooperation between labor and capital, and (to a degree) anti-imperialist abroad [58]. Mexicans' experience is better known in China. But the practice was not limited to Mexico. In Brazil, Vargas (in power 1930–1945), in the face of the rise of communism and fascism, took the road of class cooperation, developing national industry through a mixed economy [59].

Vargas partly fulfilled the promises of his electoral platform, adopting democratic measures such as the nationalization of subsoil resources, the eight-hour day, and recognition of the unions. The nationalist and reformist policies he implemented — promoting the development of Brazilian national industry and safeguarding the basic rights of laborers — brought great development to Brazil's economy and society, earning him the title "the great protector of the people." Throughout his rule, Vargas always regarded stimulating the development of capitalism (especially the state industrial sector) as the main goal, adopting the policy of developing state capitalism and strengthening national industry. His government nationalized natural resources, imposed protective tariffs, took back some foreign enterprises, established a number of state enterprises, abolished inter-state trade tariffs, unified the domestic market, and used the favorable opportunity of World War II to increase production and expand exports. These measures brought marked development to Brazilian industry and a considerable rise in the economy. During the war, Brazil's economy developed considerably: it acquired its own ferrous metallurgy, nonferrous metallurgy, and chemical industry, and established aircraft manufacturing and other industrial branches; the number of industrial enterprises rose from 6,000 to 76,000 in 1945. These economic achievements laid a solid foundation for Brazil's rise as a South American economic power and provided institutional and policy guarantees for later development. The economic growth of this period and the establishment of some industrial branches are Vargas's great historical contribution to the modern Brazilian economy [60].

Import substitution first required solving the problem of capital sources. Since backward countries had few industrial goods to export, the surplus of the primary-product export sector became the crux. Whether the nationalization of oil resources in Latin America in the last century, or the "resource nationalism" of West African countries recently, both are essentially about financing the import of capital goods. Countries poor in resources but rich in agricultural population had to carry out land reform of various forms, eliminate the landlord class, and accumulate funds for industrialization by

extracting the surplus of the small-peasant economy through the state and earning foreign exchange by exporting agricultural products ^[61] ^[62].

Yet the import-substitution model of industrialization in the national-industrial-capitalist era had great limitations. The fundamental logic of import substitution was to attract domestic and foreign investment through protective tariffs and build one's industry step by step. The funds needed for industrial development could be provided by credit expansion, but the productive level of backward countries is low: many machines and components cannot be made at home, so industrial development depends largely on imported advanced capital goods. Imports require foreign exchange, and foreign exchange comes from exports or loans. The goods backward countries export are mostly primary products, especially minerals — essentially rent income, embodying little labor value. And industrial development is mainly oriented to the domestic market. Hence the vast surplus labor of backward countries cannot easily be converted into foreign exchange through exports to help domestic capital formation, which objectively limits the speed of economic development. When the central countries' economies fell into recession, demand for primary products fell sharply and prices collapsed, and peripheral countries easily ran out of foreign exchange, triggering exchange-rate crises. To continue developing, these countries had to borrow from the central countries to finance imports, then fell into debt crises. The article "Reasons for the Massive External Debt of Latin American Countries after the 1970s" ^[63] analyzes the limitations of the Latin American import-substitution model fairly clearly:

The capital problem has always been a major issue among the many problems besetting Latin American economic and social development. Many of the factors behind the region's low savings and investment rates exist in developing countries generally, but for Latin America they are the result of the long-standing import-substitution strategy. The Argentine economist R. Prebisch (1901–1986) held that Latin America's import-substitution development model was implemented in a hermetically sealed box: "In the most developed countries of Latin America, import substitution has reached the point where imports are reduced to the level barely sufficient to maintain economic activity." In fact, once import substitution had developed to a certain point, some Latin American countries could not raise its efficiency for lack of a large enough market. As import substitution passed from the "easy" to the "difficult" stage, Latin America's demand for imported inputs grew ever larger. Thus although the original intention of import substitution was to reduce manufactured imports by building one's own manufacturing industry and so solve the balance-of-payments problem, in many Latin American countries the balance-of-payments problem not only went unsolved but became more acute. With the relaxation of import controls, Latin American imports grew rapidly. From 1985 to 1992, exports rose from \$92 billion to \$126 billion, while imports expanded from \$58 billion to \$132 billion. In 1992 Latin America thus recorded a trade deficit (about \$1 billion) unprecedented in years. In 1993 exports grew about 5 percent while imports grew 8 percent, sharply widening the deficit to \$14.74 billion. It cannot be denied that "the final result of import-substitution industrialization placed Latin America's

relations with the industrial developed countries in a new but also the most dangerous position of dependence." Foreign capital played an important role in the Latin American economy. After the 1970s, Latin American countries began to contract foreign debt on a large scale. The first oil crisis of 1973 flooded world financial markets with dollars, keeping international capital-market interest rates low and making them alluring to Latin America. On the one hand, the Western developed countries' economies were stagnant, mired in stagflation, with large volumes of hot money, so international banking groups lured Latin American borrowers with low or even negative real rates. On the other hand, the West strengthened trade protectionism, badly damaging Latin American exports: export earnings fell, trade deficits rose, balances of payments worsened, current-account deficits grew — and Latin America could only fill the gap by borrowing. The second oil crisis came in the early 1980s; the two crises were close in time but different in form. The first appeared as energy shortage and soaring oil prices; the second ran the opposite way — oil prices collapsed while financing costs soared. This change hit Latin American oil exporters very hard. Mexico, for example: with oil oversupply and falling prices in 1981, its exports were set back and its balance of payments ran a huge deficit of \$11.7 billion, forcing it to borrow \$14.9 billion in that single year. After the second oil crisis, Western commercial loan rates rose sharply and new debt became hard to get, raising the cost of new debt and, with exports shrinking, further reducing foreign-exchange earnings; meanwhile the West, through loan rates, terms of trade, and other channels, shifted its economic crisis onto Latin America, deepening the region's balance-of-payments deterioration, aggravating its capital stringency, and steadily enlarging its borrowing.

After World War II, every country that implemented the import-substitution strategy ran into difficulties. Only a few — Japan, South Korea, Taiwan — whose export industries developed well, escaped this plight.

India long pursued import substitution after independence; industrialization required importing large quantities of capital goods, causing a chronic foreign-exchange shortage and hence a long-standing import-licensing system ^[64]. China likewise: "from the founding of New China to the reform and opening-up before 1978, foreign-exchange reserves in most years remained below \$200 million, at most under \$1 billion" ^[65]; "in March 1978 the central government approved the total plan for introducing new technology and complete plants by all departments at \$8.56 billion" ^[66], while that year's reserves stood at only \$167 million ^[67].

Moreover, the import-substitution strategy emphasized capital-intensive industries, which created little employment, leaving huge potential unemployment. China and India — both great powers — after forty or fifty years of import-substitution development strategy, still had urbanization rates of only about 26 percent in 1990, little better than Song-dynasty China. To maintain social stability, China long enforced the household-registration (hukou) system segregating city and countryside. The Latin American countries had high urbanization, but masses of their urban population were in fact

unemployed or informally employed ^[68]. Whether the vast rural populations of China and India, or the unemployed and informally employed of Latin American cities, these were in fact poor or extremely poor people. The poverty-alleviation of these countries was, at bottom, about getting these people into jobs in the modern industrial and service sectors — alleviating poverty by creating employment opportunities.

Before World War II, only the Soviet Union and Japan grew into industrialized countries through the import-substitution strategy. The Soviet Union completed rapid industrialization through collectivization and the price scissors between industry and agriculture, exploiting the fall in the price of machinery and equipment in the capitalist countries during the Great Depression to import capital goods en masse ^[69]. Japan developed because, besides a certain domestic market foundation before the Meiji Restoration and rising agricultural productivity that drove industrial accumulation based on the domestic market, it earned foreign exchange by exporting agricultural products to meet its industrialization's demand for equipment. But Japan's population was limited and its domestic market, however one looks at it, small; hence Japan had to invade Korea and China to control sources of raw materials and markets for its products and to eliminate potential competitors, opening space for its own enterprises ^[70]. Japanese imperialism developed precisely at China's expense:

Especially in the initial stage of industrialization: in 1894, through the Sino-Japanese War, Japan occupied the markets of Korea and Taiwan; the Russo-Japanese War of 1905 consolidated its hold on the Northeast China market. The Sino-Japanese War promoted the development of steel, coal, shipbuilding, and transport centered on the military industry. Victory gave Japan a monopoly of the Korean and Taiwanese markets, expanded its market in China, secured the sources of important industrial raw materials, and the huge indemnity laid the foundation for the gold standard, which Japan adopted in 1897. In the decade from the Sino-Japanese War to the Russo-Japanese War, Japanese industry developed rapidly; victory in the Russo-Japanese War gave new momentum to heavy and chemical industry — electric, machinery, coal, and steel centered on military production. The development of the steel industry was a typical reflection of war's stimulus: in World War I, Britain and America banned steel exports and placed large orders with Japan, spurring rapid growth; in 1918 pig iron and steel output reached 580,000 and 530,000 tonnes respectively, and by 1934 steel output reached 3.172 million tonnes, achieving full self-sufficiency ^[71].

As for South Korea, which developed after World War II, it grew up in the transition from the second to the third stage of the capitalist world-system. As the labor force of the developed countries of Europe and America was gradually exhausted and their labor-intensive industries shrank, market space opened for peripheral countries to develop export industries.

Industrial development requires infrastructure such as roads and electric power; South Korea used the foreign aid its special political position on the Cold War front line brought to complete the most

basic infrastructure.

Economic aid was the most customary and effective American measure of the time. From 1945 to 1970, South Korea received \$4.42 billion in foreign aid — the world's third-largest recipient, after Vietnam and Israel. Of this, 86 percent (about \$3.84 billion) came from the United States and the rest from the UN. In the eleven years 1953–1964, South Korea received \$2.88 billion, of which \$2.54 billion from the US and \$338 million from the UN. These aid flows equaled about 68 percent of Korea's imports or 60 percent of its investment over the period. Of the aid projects, 42 percent were raw materials, intermediate industrial goods, and basic public facilities; 25 percent cereals; 9 percent capital equipment; 5 percent technical assistance. The massive program aid, especially investment in electricity, transport, and other infrastructure, made it possible to restore basic industrial productivity and created a favorable environment for Korea's rapid growth in the 1960s and 1970s; a host of private enterprises — especially in construction, transport, and the processing of American-aid raw materials — grew rapidly with American aid, and the chaebol groups represented by Samsung and Lucky-Goldstar were initially formed, continuing to expand in the later takeoff and rapid growth and becoming the main vehicle of Korean economic growth.

By the 1960s, the Korean government began to attract foreign capital, but the scale was small overall; Korea mainly relied on low wages and a low exchange rate to push exports and earn foreign exchange to finance industrialization. As the tables and figures below show, in the twenty years from 1962 to 1981 Korea attracted less than \$2 billion of FDI, averaging \$100 million a year, with FDI below 1 percent of GDP in most years — in sharp contrast to Singapore, which imported foreign capital on a large scale, with FDI at 5–10 percent of GDP or more since the 1960s. Besides FDI, Korea received \$300 million in grants and \$800 million in low-interest loans from Japan when it normalized relations with Japan in the 1960s ^[72]. Korea's GDP in 1965 was only \$3 billion, so this \$1.1 billion was a colossal sum.

Table 9.1 Trends of FDI in Korea, 1962–98 (million U.S. dollars)

Year	Notified	Actual
1962–81	1,886.1	1,477.8
1982–86	1,767.7	1,157.8
1987–88	2,347.1	1,519.7
1989	1,090.3	812.3
1990	802.6	895.4
1991	1,396.0	1,177.2
1992	894.5	803.3
1993	1,044.3	728.1
1994	1,316.5	991.5
1995	1,941.4	1,357.1
1996	3,202.6	2,308.3
1997	6,970.9	3,085.9
1998	8,852.4	5,155.6

Source: Ministry of Finance and Economy, *Trends in International Investment and Technology Inducement* (Seoul, 1999).

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Source: <https://www.nber.org/system/files/chapters/c8502/c8502.pdf>

Foreign direct investment, net inflows (% of GDP) - Korea, Rep.

International Financial Statistics and Balance of Payments databases, International Monetary Fund (IMF); International Debt Statistics, World Bank (WB); World Bank GDP estimates, World Bank (WB); OECD GDP estimates, Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development (OECD)

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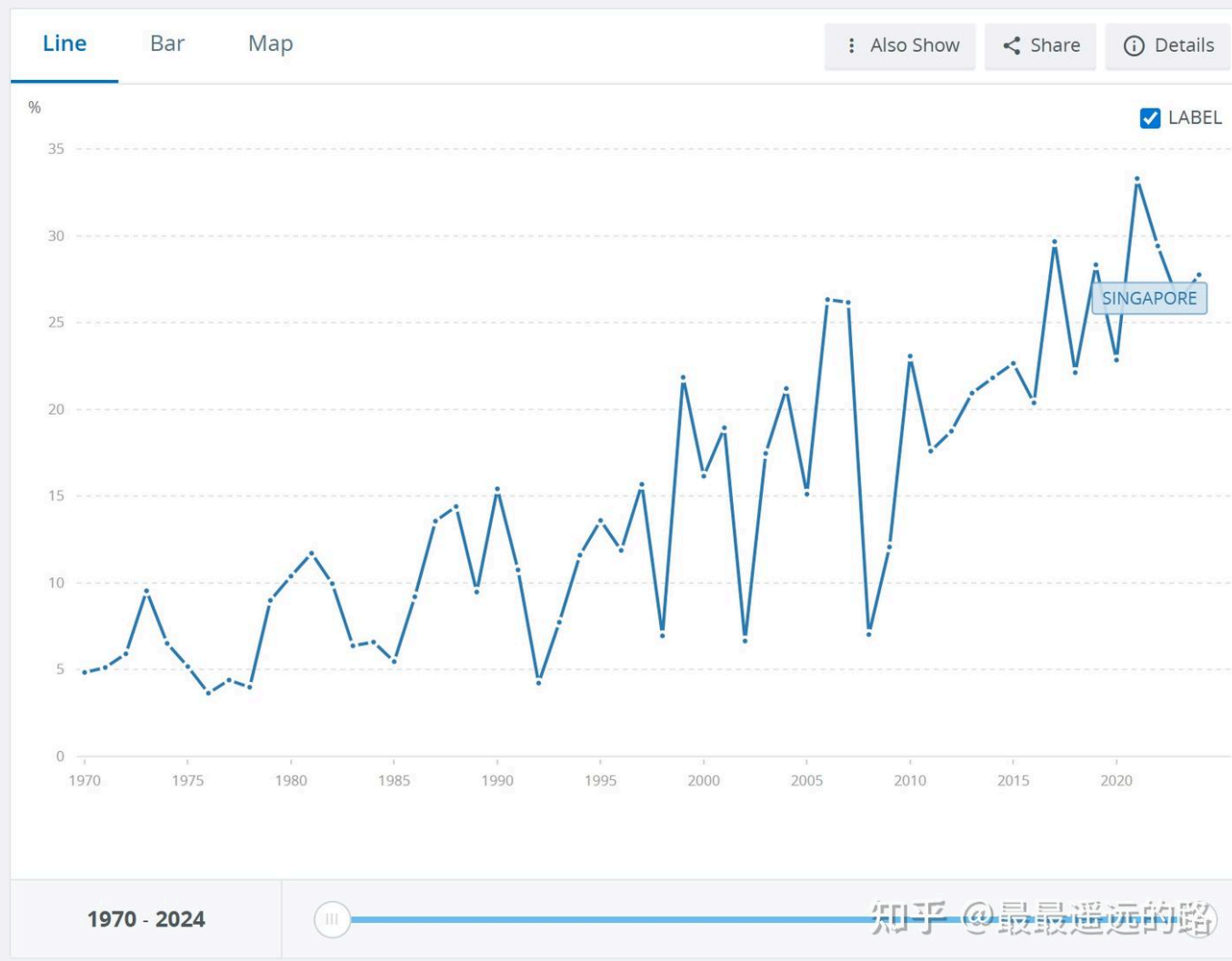


Source: <https://data.worldbank.org/indicator/BX.KLT.DINV.WD.GD.ZS?locations=KR>

Foreign direct investment, net inflows (% of GDP) - Singapore

International Financial Statistics and Balance of Payments databases, International Monetary Fund (IMF); International Debt Statistics, World Bank (WB); World Bank GDP estimates, World Bank (WB); OECD GDP estimates, Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development (OECD)

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Source: <https://data.worldbank.org/indicator/BX.KLT.DINV.WD.GD.ZS?locations=SG>

That Korea later grew into a central country was fundamentally because the Korean government and the chaebols cooperated, seized strategic opportunities, and developed advantageous industries. Since Korea's population was not large, its industrial upgrading met with little suppression; at worst it could not obtain advanced technology from developed countries like Japan and had to develop it independently. Even with considerable market space, Korea's leapfrog development depended on strong state authority — suppressing the workers' movement and keeping wages low — while achieving rapid improvement of popular education (shifting quickly from labor-intensive to knowledge-intensive). Moreover, American aid and Japanese grants and loans played a major role in the early stage. Lacking any of these factors, the feat could probably not have been accomplished. On

the whole, the rise of Korea — a country with nothing, a poor blank sheet, and a small domestic market, rising mainly on its own capital — was a process with great particularity.

On the whole, in this period the peripheral countries tried various methods to industrialize and made some achievements, but only a few entered the center; most remained in the periphery, their internal capitalist development still inadequate.

(3) The Contradiction between Working Class and Bourgeoisie

In this stage, the bourgeoisie gained rule in more and more countries, and the struggle between bourgeoisie and proletariat grew along with it. As Marx classically expressed it in the Communist Manifesto, the more capitalism develops, the more the proletariat organizes as a class to win its interests. The culminating point of this historical process is the proletariat's overthrow of its own class rule and the abolition of capitalism:

The bourgeoisie, wherever it has got the upper hand... has forged the weapons that bring death to itself; it has also called into existence the men who are to wield those weapons — the modern working class, the proletarians. In proportion as the bourgeoisie, i.e., capital, is developed, in the same proportion is the proletariat, the modern working class, developed — a class of laborers, who live only so long as they find work, and who find work only so long as their labor increases capital. These laborers, who must sell themselves piecemeal, are a commodity, like every other article of commerce, and are consequently exposed to all the vicissitudes of competition, to all the fluctuations of the market... Now and then the workers are victorious, but only for a time. The real fruit of their battles lies, not in the immediate result, but in the ever-expanding union of the workers. This union is helped on by the improved means of communication that are created by modern industry, and that place the workers of different localities in contact with one another. It was just this contact that was needed to centralize the many local struggles, all of the same character, into one national struggle between classes. But every class struggle is a political struggle. The medieval burghers, with their miserable highways, required centuries to acquire the union that the modern proletarians, thanks to railways, acquire in a few years... All the classes that ever got into power sought to strengthen their already-acquired position by subjecting society at large to their conditions of appropriation. The proletarians cannot become masters of the productive forces of society, except by abolishing their own previous mode of appropriation, and thereby also every other previous mode of appropriation. They have nothing of their own to secure and to fortify; their mission is to destroy all previous securities for, and insurances of, individual property... The essential condition for the existence, and for the sway, of the bourgeois class, is the formation and augmentation of capital; the condition for capital is wage-labor. Wage-labor rests exclusively on the competition between the laborers. The advance of industry, whose involuntary promoter is the bourgeoisie, replaces the isolation of the laborers, due to competition, by their revolutionary combination, due to association. The development of Modern Industry, therefore, cuts from under its feet the very foundation on which the bourgeoisie produces and appropriates

products. It produces, above all, its own gravediggers. Its fall and the victory of the proletariat are equally inevitable.

If in 1848, when Marx wrote the Communist Manifesto, the communist movement aimed at abolishing capitalism was still a small sect, then by 1910, before World War I, the communist (or socialist, social-democratic) movement had already become a great force in Western Europe:

In 1890, the German Social Democratic Workers' Party already held 27.2 percent of the seats; by 1912 this had risen to 34.8 percent, making it soon Germany's largest party. In 1914, the French Socialist Party's predecessor, the French Section of the Workers' International, held 103 seats with 16.73 percent of the vote, one of the three largest parties in parliament. In 1913, the Italian Socialist Party won 17.62 percent of the vote and 52 seats, also in the parliamentary top three ^[73]. The Austrian Social Democratic Party won the right to stand in the Vienna municipal elections on May 30, 1890; the right to vote, however, came only after the general strike of 1907. In the Reichsrat's lower-house elections it won 87 of 516 seats, becoming the second-largest party after the Christian Social Party; in 1911 it became the largest ^[74]. Even in politically conservative Britain, Labour won 42 seats in the 1910 general election, 6.3 percent of the vote, becoming a party of national influence ^[75]. And in Tsarist Russia, on the edge of Europe, the radical left and pan-socialist forces were very strong: the Second State Duma (February–June 1907) was a more radical left-dominated parliament than the First. The seats of the left (Socialist Revolutionaries, Mensheviks, Bolsheviks, etc.) greatly increased and the left factions held an absolute majority, intensifying the conflict between Duma and government. Because it refused to dissolve the left factions, this Duma was forcibly dissolved by the tsar on June 3, 1907, who also revised the electoral law.

In Europe, the center of the world-system, the forces of the working class and working people seeking to transcend capitalism already directly threatened bourgeois rule. The outbreak of World War I, besides "the seizure of foreign territory, the conquest of other countries, the ruin of competitor nations and the plunder of their wealth" ^[76], had another important aim: "to divert the attention of the laboring masses from the internal political crises of Russia, Germany, Britain, and the other countries; to disunite the workers, fool them with nationalism, and destroy their vanguard, so as to weaken the revolutionary movement of the proletariat — this is the only real content, meaning, and significance of the present war" ^[77] (Lenin).

So it was with World War I, and so again with World War II. War produced revolution; war did not enable the bourgeoisie to destroy the proletarian movement but instead allowed proletarian strength, after World War II, to establish a socialist camp stretching from the Elbe to the Pacific; meanwhile, inside the capitalist countries the working-class and left forces were also very strong, posing an existential threat to bourgeois rule. Under pressure, the bourgeoisie of Europe and America substantially raised workers' wages after the war, guaranteed democratic rights such as the right to

strike, to a degree reversed the pauperization of the proletariat, and built fairly comprehensive welfare-state institutions.

After the late 1960s, as the rural labor force in the European and American countries was gradually exhausted and the working class was again highly combative, it became hard to reduce wages directly by attacking the unions; falling profit rates and rising costs from higher oil prices reduced enterprise investment, while governments, to keep unemployment down, pursued Keynesian policies that boosted demand — the result was stagflation, and capitalism reached an impasse in the 1970s.

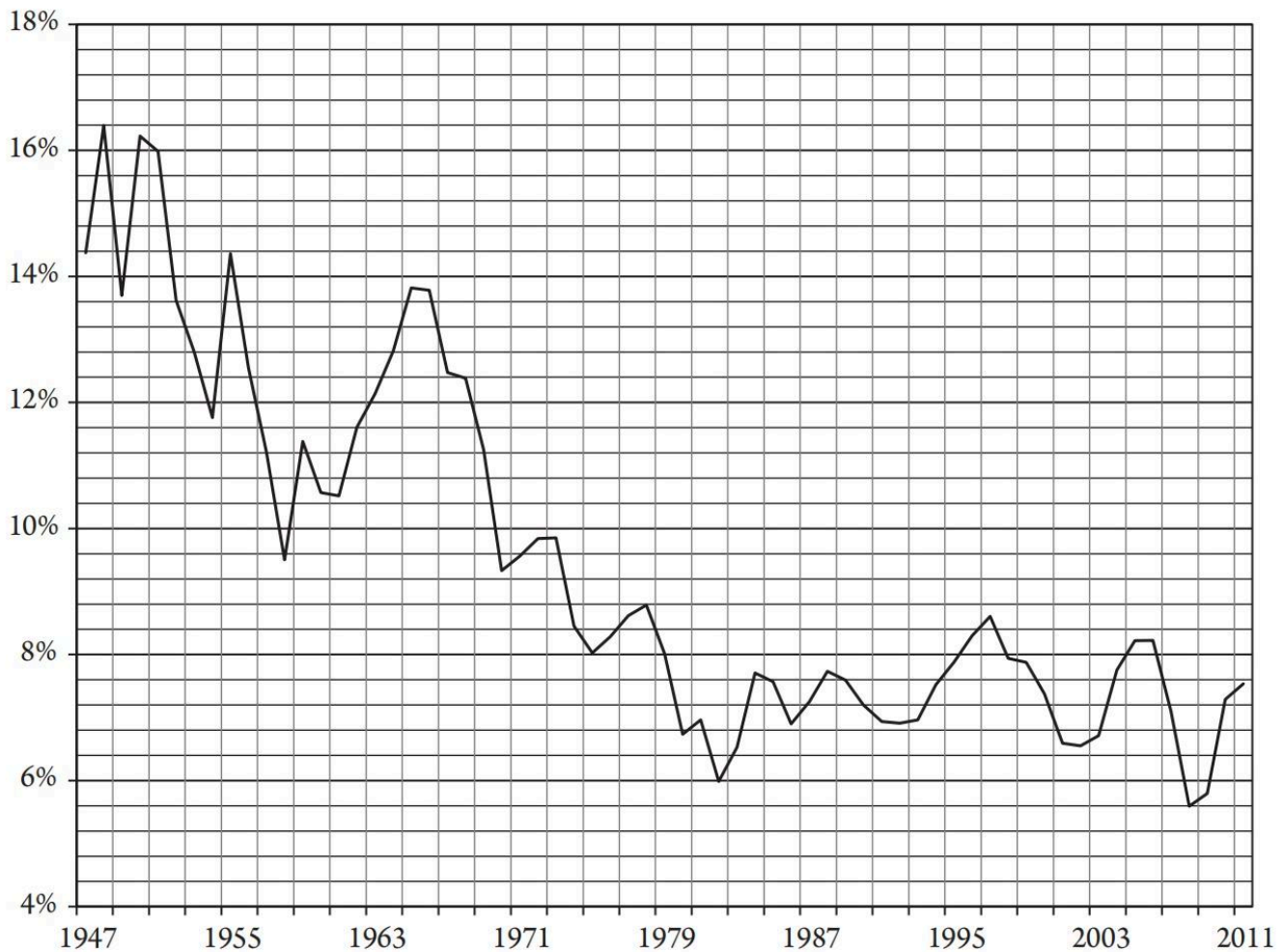


Figure 2.11 US Corporate Rate of Profit 1947–2011

From: Anwar Shaikh, *Capitalism: Competition, Conflict, Crises*

Finally, in the late 1970s and early 1980s, beginning in Britain and America, the whole Western world carried out the neoliberal counterrevolution. The bourgeoisies of Europe and America could systematically attack the class struggle of the working class because, on the one hand, this was necessary to resolve the crisis of capitalist accumulation within bourgeois society, and on the other, the great Eastern power had thoroughly defected to America, while the Soviet Union itself was mired

in internal and external difficulties ^[78] ^[79] and its appeal had greatly declined — the socialist camp no longer threatened the capitalist camp as before, so the Western bourgeoisie could act with a free hand. Through neoliberal reform, the European and American countries restructured their industrial structures: large amounts of mid- and low-end industry moved to the peripheral countries, forming semi-peripheral industrial countries, while the central countries concentrated on high-end manufacturing and services, R&D, and finance. Class struggle thus pushed capitalism from national industrial capitalism to transnational production capitalism, and the world-system entered its third stage.

(4) The Contradictions among the Imperialist Countries

The contradictions among the central countries were the continuation of the contradictions among the semi-peripheral countries of the world-system's first stage. The struggle for colonies was the focus of the contest among countries even in the mercantile-capitalist era — though then the aim of occupying colonies was more often commercial profit, or acquiring land for settler colonization. In the stage of national industrial capitalism, the bourgeoisie's demand for raw materials and markets increased enormously, and the countries' demands on colonies became correspondingly more intense. The contradictions among the imperialist countries finally led to two world wars.

Imperialist war loosened the imperialists' control over the peripheral regions. Hence, during World War I and World War II, the colonies and semi-colonies whose own territories were spared the fighting developed greatly. During World War I, for instance, the reduction of foreign goods entering China gave the development of Chinese light industry a brief opportunity:

High market prices offered Chinese enterprises a rare opportunity for profit. Before the war, many newly founded Chinese cotton textile firms struggled in financial difficulty; the middle and late war years became their period of profit. In Nantong, the Dasheng Textile Company, founded by the former zhuangyuan Zhang Jian, enjoyed its most profitable year since its founding in 1899, with the capital return rate rising from 9.8 percent in 1916 to 108 percent in 1919. In Shanghai, the Shenxin No. 1 mill, just founded by the Rong brothers in 1916, saw its capital return rate rise tenfold in three short years. According to Kyoto University professor Morihiko Toki's statistics on 23 Chinese cotton textile mills, in 1919 the average capital return rate of these mills exceeded 100 percent. In the summary of the late Yan Zhongping, a researcher at the Institute of Economics of the Chinese Academy of Social Sciences: "North or south, large mill or small, nearly all reaped unexpected fat profits" ^[80].

In World War II, Latin America, far from the fighting, also gained a rare opportunity for industrial development:

World War II was a huge stimulus to Latin American industrialization. Take Brazil: before the war, because Brazil had many German immigrants, both the United States and Germany wanted Brazil's

support. President Getúlio Vargas exploited this, hinting to the Americans that he was prepared to build Brazil's own heavy industry with German support. To exclude Germany and win Brazil over, the Roosevelt administration provided loans and technology, helping Brazil build its first famous steel mill, the "President Vargas Steelworks" at Volta Redonda, between Rio de Janeiro and São Paulo. This was the first time in history that the United States provided funds and technology to help a developing country industrialize ^[81].

So, objectively speaking, the wars of the central countries temporarily reduced imperialist oppression on some peripheral countries, which was favorable to their industrialization. Of course, for peripheral countries that suffered the war itself, like China, it was a catastrophe.

Imperialist war not only caused enormous destruction among the belligerents but also gave birth to the socialist camp, throwing capitalism into an existential crisis. The more far-sighted elements of the bourgeoisie hoped to find a way to preserve peace among the nations. Hence after World War I the League of Nations was founded, but it did little good. After World War II, the United Nations, with more coercive power than the League, was established. But what really kept the capitalist world free of the danger of world war, besides the relative unity the socialist camp imposed on the capitalist camp, was the hegemony of the superpower.

After World War II, the capitalist world-system for the first time established a political and military hegemony matching the scope of the world market. The major capitalist industrial countries were either directly militarily occupied by the United States (Germany, Japan, Korea) or joined the American-led NATO (central, western, and southern Europe) to confront the socialist camp. For its own interests, the American bourgeoisie actively promoted the globalization of capital ^[82], seeking to reduce the risk of world war through the interpenetration of capital. Globalization bound the countries ever more closely; a country that started a war on its own, except the hegemonic power, would likely be expelled — hence going to war required UN authorization, or at least American support.

Thus, as I discussed in the previous part, objectively capitalism had already globalized its relations of production in the early twentieth century — the concrete manifestation being the great increase of capital export. The bourgeoisie already demanded the right to do business across borders; the global market had formed. But the corresponding superstructure — a world government — had not formed at all. The various nation-states, each scrambling in the global market for their own bourgeoisies, behaved exactly like the Trump clique today.

Through a full-scale war at the world's center — not one but two devastating wars — there was finally built a political superstructure capable of serving the needs of the globalization of capital: an international order based on American hegemony. The American military protected the smooth flow

of trade and the economic order (against "red" subversion); the dollar provided the global economy with liquidity. The wars among the imperialist countries thus in fact also promoted their fusion.

Of course, so long as nation-states exist, there will be national contradictions pushed by the capitals of different nation-states. But so long as American hegemony is not challenged, these contradictions will not develop into full-scale war. In the postwar capitalist world-system, America had exactly two challengers: Japan and China. The Soviet Union, though stronger than Japan, was not part of the capitalist world-system. By weakening Japan's own strength while giving its capitalists space for globalization, America defused the Japanese threat ^[83] ^[84]. At present, America's attempt to first weaken China's own strength so that it no longer threatens America has failed, and so it blocks Chinese capital's outward investment everywhere in the world. But the world has already become multipolar, and America cannot stop countries — especially Southern countries — from accepting relocated Chinese capital.

In the next subsection we analyze the further evolution of the contradictions among the central countries.

(5) Summary

In this period, the world-system contained mainly the following contradictions:

In the periphery: chiefly the contradiction between feudal landlords and peasants, and that between the peoples of the peripheral countries (including the national bourgeoisie) and imperialism.

In the center: chiefly the contradiction between bourgeoisie and proletariat, the contradictions among the imperialist countries, and the contradiction between the imperialist countries and the peoples of the colonies and semi-colonies.

What drove the world-system forward: in the periphery, politically through the national liberation movements, economically through land reform and import-substitution industrialization; in the center, through the reformist and revolutionary struggles of the proletariat, and through the formation of political hegemony by war.

3. The Stage of Transnational Industrial Capitalism

(1) The Contradiction between Proletariat and Bourgeoisie

In the era of transnational industrial capitalism, because the bourgeoisie has organized production on a global scale, it occupies the offensive in the class struggle.

In the central countries, since proletarian wages are high, when the proletariat rises in struggle the bourgeoisie often counters by closing factories. Especially for enterprises oriented mainly to export rather than the domestic market, since wage rates in the periphery are far below those of the center, moving capacity to the periphery realizes "labor arbitrage" — this "spatial fix" of capital (David Harvey) is a way for capitalists to raise their profit rates.

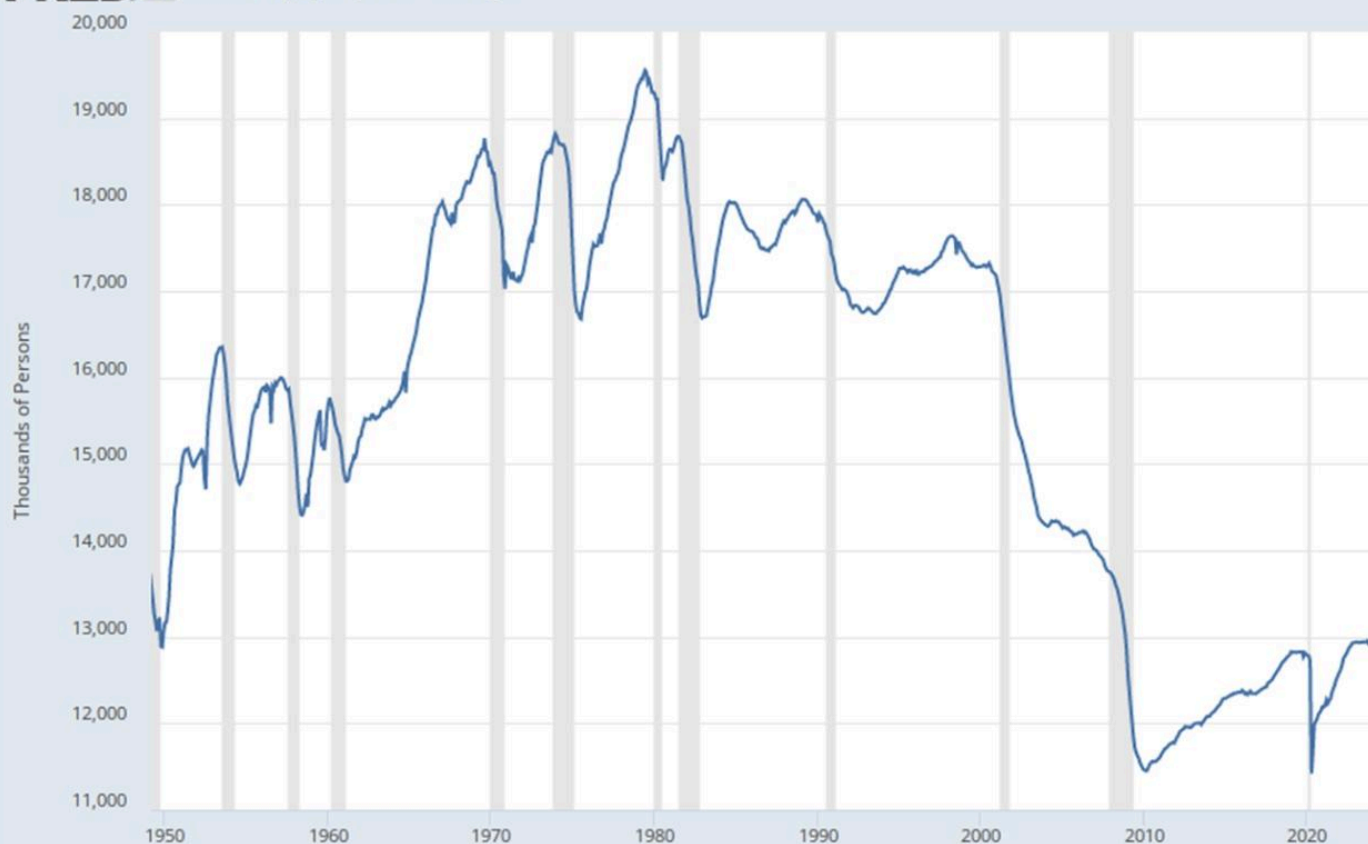
From the 1990s, China and India, the two demographic giants, opened themselves fully to global capital, and the central countries had completed their neoliberal structural reorganization, so that all sorts of policies favorable to global capital were carried out. The central countries of Europe, America, and Japan transferred the mid- and low-end segments of their production chains to the peripheral countries on a large scale. And as China leaped into the center, plus geopolitical factors, Chinese enterprises also began moving on a large scale to countries with lower labor costs.

The workers' struggle against factory closures has become an important part of working-class struggle. Let us take a concrete example.

In 1992, American Levi's planned to close a domestic plant with 1,100 workers and move production to Costa Rica; 200 workers began a five-day hunger strike. Wages in Costa Rican garment factories were one-ninth of those in the United States ^[85]. In 2019, over 40,000 workers struck at American GM plants against the move of production to Mexico ^[86]. In 2023, workers at Hunan Kaisheng Shoes struck because the factory scaled back production and they suspected it would move overseas ^[87]. In 2024, about 100,000 Volkswagen workers in Germany struck twice — the largest strikes in VW's 87-year history — protesting planned wage cuts, capacity reductions, and the possible first-ever closure of a German plant ^[88].

With the large-scale relocation of factories from the central countries, the number of workers fell sharply and service workers increased. Since manufacturing workers are the most organized, the continued relocation of manufacturing caused continuing decline in manufacturing employment and unionization rates, and the fear that strikes would trigger factory relocation, so the number of workers participating in strikes in the central countries fell sharply and the working-class struggle fell into decline and stagnation. The US data below illustrate the point:

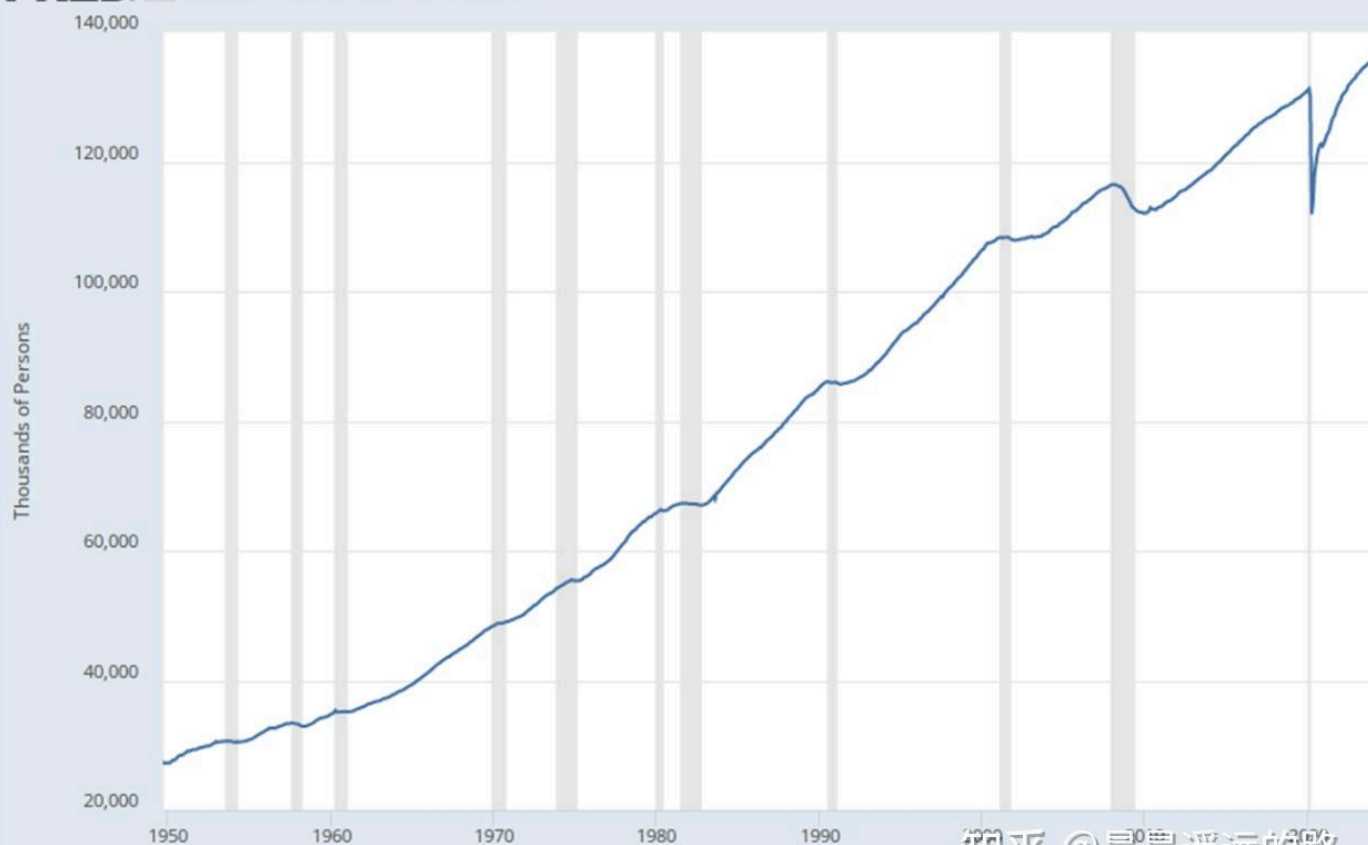
FRED — All Employees, Manufacturing



Source: U.S. Bureau of Labor Statistics

myf.red/g/1qBey

FRED — All Employees, Service-Providing

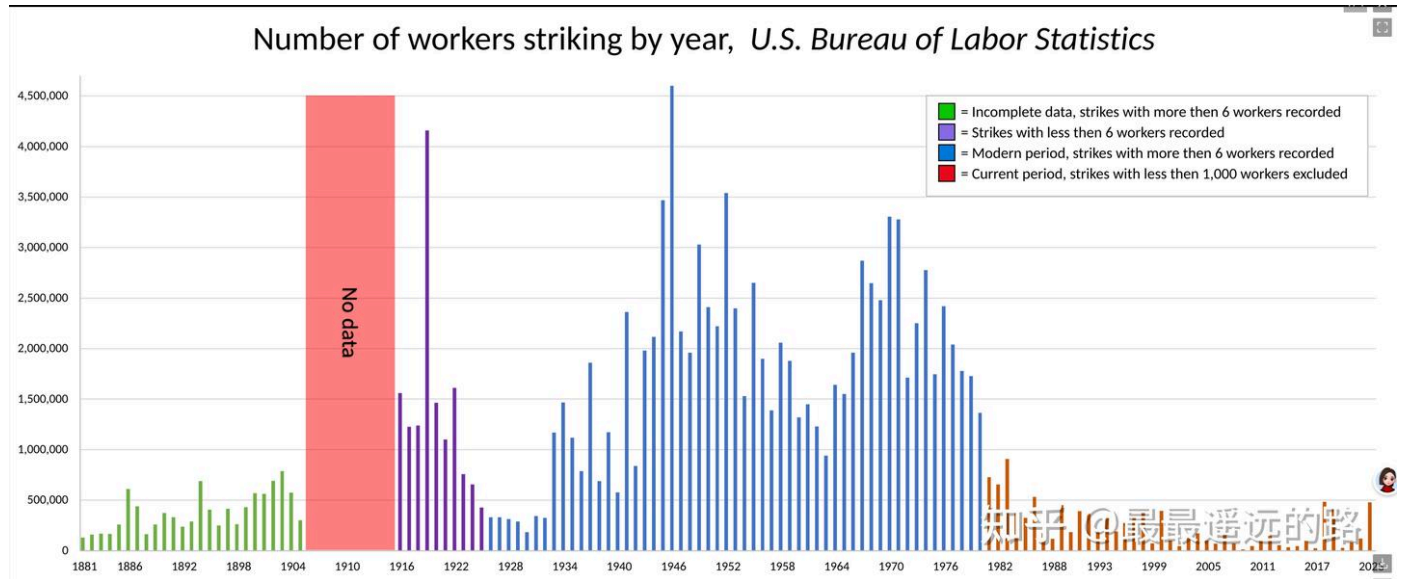


Source: U.S. Bureau of Labor Statistics

mvf.red/e/1aBeF

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Numbers of US manufacturing and service workers. Source: <https://conversableeconomist.com/2024/07/25/us-manufacturing-jobs-in-long-term-context/>



Number of strikes by US workers over the years. Source:
https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/List_of_striking_United_States_workers_by_year

The global mobility of the bourgeoisie and the transfer of capacity create great difficulties for the organization and political development of the working class. Not only do the central countries face the political disintegration of the working class caused by manufacturing hollowing-out; the peripheral countries, when their surplus labor is exhausted and the working class grows more combative, likewise face the problem of enterprises moving out, and the process of working-class unity finds it hard to advance further.

For example, in 2014, the famous strike at Dongguan Yue Yuen shoe factory ^{[89][90]}, involving 30,000–40,000 participants, drew global attention and was a small peak of the Chinese workers' movement. Shortly after, the company closed the Dongguan plant and moved capacity to Vietnam. In 2022, 16,000 workers at Vietnam's Pouyuen Vietnam shoe factory struck over the sharp cut in year-end bonuses. That Vietnamese Pouyuen plant was the very plant relocated from Dongguan Yue Yuen. As Vietnam's rural surplus labor gradually runs dry and working-class militancy rises further, Vietnam's shoe factories may well continue to move to regions with lower wages and a richer industrial reserve army.

When capital has globalized, labor has in fact also globalized. The industrial relocation carried out by the bourgeoisie in fact requires the "cooperation" of the working classes of two countries. Moving a factory is not closing down in country A today and opening in country B tomorrow; rather, one opens in B, gradually expands B's capacity, cuts A's capacity, and finally closes it. Though strikes or geopolitical conflicts sometimes accelerate the process, on the whole one must operate plants in several countries simultaneously, adjusting capacity as needed. If the workers of countries A and B

could unite and conduct collective bargaining with management, the capitalists would have to sit down and negotiate seriously, thinking about long-term solutions. The transnational union of the global working class is therefore what the working class of this period must win — and what transnational capitalists fiercely oppose.

In the peripheral countries, there remain about two billion rural surplus laborers (Southeast Asia, South Asia, Africa) that capital can absorb. Since migrant workers' wages in the cities are very low and their proletarian consciousness weak, transnational union is hard to achieve effectively. By Chinese experience, generally when urbanization reaches 50 percent and the second generation of migrant workers comes to the cities (China around 2010), the high tide of working-class struggle arrives. In the second article we speculated that this turning point will come around the 2050s. This question will be analyzed further in the next article.

Still, in capitalist production, some work cannot be relocated: services, transport, and so on. Some complex manufacturing, such as automobile production, though relocatable, is more difficult. In the central countries, the struggle of these workers is the key to the revival of working-class struggle.

In 2014, fast-food workers in 150 American cities held nationwide strikes and demonstrations — the largest fast-food workers' strike in American history. This powerful wave spread to 30 countries and regions across six continents ^[91]. In 2016, 40,000 employees of the American carrier Verizon struck against the company's transfer of large numbers of jobs to Mexico, the Philippines, and other countries; the protesters then marched to the White House ^[92]. From September to November 2023, the United Auto Workers (UAW) launched a historic general strike against Detroit's "Big Three" (GM, Ford, Stellantis). About 145,000 workers took part; it ended with the UAW winning substantial pay raises (about 25 percent), restoration of cost-of-living adjustments, better benefits, and the conversion of temporary workers, markedly improving auto workers' conditions ^[93]. In 2025, the union representing container handlers at Rotterdam port in the Netherlands announced that its members had unanimously decided to extend the strike indefinitely. Since the strike began on Wednesday afternoon, container operations at Rotterdam have essentially ground to a halt, with a large backlog of ships ^[94].

Against the struggle of this kind of worker, the bourgeoisie cannot — or finds it hard to — respond by moving production to other countries. If production cannot be moved out, then workers must be brought in: importing large numbers of immigrant workers to counter the militant native workers. Since immigrants' union participation rates are far below those of native workers (see the table below ^[95]; "locals" is the unionization rate of native workers, "migrants" that of immigrants), hiring a certain number of immigrant workers greatly constrains the struggle of native workers.

Table 1. Rate of unionization among locals and migrants (%), and country-level variables.

	Locals	Migrants	Migrants/ locals ratio	Ghent system	State financing	Dominant confederation
AT	34	13	0.38	No	No	Yes
BE	51	33	0.65	Yes	No	No
CH	19	13	0.68	No	No	No
DE	20	18	0.90	No	No	No
DK	86	79	0.92	Yes	No	No
ES	16	6	0.38	No	Yes	No
FI	78	72	0.92	Yes	No	No
GR	19	8	0.42	No	Yes	No
IE	41	18	0.44	No	No	Yes
NL	29	13	0.45	No	No	No
NO	61	39	0.64	No	No	No
PT	15	6	0.40	No	No	No
SE	78	70	0.90	Yes	No	No
UK	29	16	0.55	No	No	Yes
Total	29.5	16.1	0.55			

Source: ESS, authors' own elaboration; TUW (2005).

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The import of immigrants, in times of economic recession and rising unemployment, provokes strong working-class opposition. Since bourgeois states are all constructed in the form of nation-states, and nationalism is the foundation of rule, replacing native workers with immigrants easily triggers a crisis of legitimacy of rule. Neither the countries with electoral democracy nor others dare push this issue recklessly; generally they push for a while, pause when resistance flares, then continue. Since the central countries are aging severely, not importing immigrants would greatly strengthen the working class's bargaining power, which is very bad for capital accumulation — so the import of immigrants is an unstoppable trend.

Within the whole capitalist world-system, the regions that are both centers of accumulation and the most sharply contradictory are the semi-peripheral "world factories." In these countries, manufacturing factories widely practice the "sweatshop" model: appalling working environments, extremely low wages, extremely long hours, often lacking basic safety and rights. Chinese people should remember this history of blood and tears only too well.

On the afternoon of March 14, 2005, Lin Qijin was working at a shoe factory. His job was to press the machine with his foot and pull out the cut sole with his hand. This time the sole was a bit far away, so he had to straighten up and reach for it. Having worked overtime continuously, he did not notice that his foot had gradually left the pedal... The machine slammed down, and both hands became a bloody

mess. According to the estimate of Zeng Feiyang, director of the Panyu Workers' Document Service, there are at least 30,000 cases of severed fingers every year in Pearl River Delta enterprises — over 40,000 fingers cut off by machines ^[96]. In 2006, a fire broke out on the east side of the Changhui Weaving factory building in Xinbei village, Gurao town, Chaoyang district, Shantou; fire departments arrived quickly, the fire was extinguished by about 3 p.m., and the site was cleared by about 4 p.m., with 13 bodies found and one seriously injured. The factory building was a four-story structure, 250 square meters per floor, with about 1,000 square meters burned, the first two floors most seriously. A woman worker surnamed Yang told reporters that the boss wanted to ship goods before the Dragon Boat Festival, so workers had to work overtime every day, even on the day a typhoon made landfall. Around 12:30, when Yang stepped into the factory she saw thick smoke pouring from the weaving machines on the first floor; remembering that more than ten workers were still on overtime on the third and fourth floors, she rushed up the stairs to warn them but was driven back by the smoke at the stairwell. The building had two internal staircases and a chimney-like courtyard that gave access to the rooftop, but that day the courtyard door was locked, so six workers could not escape via the roof ^[97]. On January 23, 2010, Ma Xiangqian, a 19-year-old Foxconn worker, jumped to his death. The end of one life and the blow to one family could not stop Foxconn's young workers from dying; on the contrary, it was only a prelude. Within four months, 12 more Foxconn employees jumped in succession, for a total of 10 dead and 3 injured. Watched by hundreds of millions, this tragedy became a mass suicide event. Terry Gou's bow and apology could not bring back the dead; as he himself said, "Even if you throw me down, I can't guarantee no one else will jump" ^[98]. On December 4, 2012, over a thousand employees gathered in front of the Hailiang factory in Shenzhen to strike; the thousand-strong demonstration alarmed the government. A reporter from Fazhi magazine rushed to the scene. "Come down and answer! Come down and answer!" — around 3 p.m. the next day, led by several representatives, the workers gathered at the stairwell outside the chairman's office chanting in unison, demanding an explanation from management — an explanation that had been promised for noon that day. In counterpoint to the urgent chants, huge banners lay scattered on the ground: "If you want to remarry, pay compensation first," "Forced annual leave as long leave," "Forced overtime, forced rotation — shameless" — expressing the workers' grievances and demands ^[99].

If industry had not kept moving out, Chinese workers' class consciousness would have risen quickly; very likely by the late 2010s or early 2020s, led by sweatshop workers in manufacturing, China's proletariat would have completed the transition from a class in itself to a class for itself. Now, the frontier of accumulation has moved to Southeast Asia and South Asia, and the center of global working-class struggle has moved with it:

In 2020, 5,000 workers at Luxshare Precision's Vietnamese subsidiary struck, protesting the company's failure to pay overtime in full, drawing global attention ^[100]. In 2022, 500 workers at BYD's Vietnamese plant struck demanding higher wages, better food, and more rest time; BYD quickly agreed to raise wages in response to the workers' demands. The event, dubbed "BYD beaten up by

Vietnamese workers," drew wide attention at home ^[101]. In 2023, Bangladeshi garment manufacturers "indefinitely" closed 150 factories, and police charged 11,000 workers who took part in violent protests demanding a higher minimum wage. Police told AFP on Saturday (November 11) that 150 factories in Ashulia and Gazipur, the main industrial towns north of the capital Dhaka, had been closed because manufacturers feared renewed strikes when the new work week began on Saturday ^[102]. In 2025, Vietnam saw another collective work stoppage: nearly 2,500 workers at a shoe factory in Thanh Hoa province struck, demanding a pay raise. After the event, the company immediately agreed to raise pay, and the workers returned to work that very afternoon. The enterprise hit by the strike, Công ty TNHH Giày Roll Sport, is a Taiwanese-invested sport-shoe manufacturer located in Thu Xuan district, Thanh Hoa province. According to the Vietnamese newspaper Lao Dong, on March 1, thousands of workers (nearly 2,500) at Roll Sport stopped work collectively, demanding higher wages ^[103]. On June 17–18, 2025, a strike again erupted in the southern zone of the Tsingshan Industrial Park (IMIP) in Morowali, Central Sulawesi, Indonesia. This time the participants were Chinese workers on the steel-structure engineering line, who stopped work collectively after three months without wages, blockading the site gates and demanding immediate settlement of arrears. This was not the first labor conflict at the Tsingshan park: over the past five years, the park has seen repeated strikes led by Chinese and Indonesian workers over chronic wage arrears, overtime, and frequent safety incidents; some incidents escalated into arson and clashes. As a flagship Belt and Road project, the high-speed operation of Tsingshan Industrial Park conceals the real situation of systematic exploitation of countless workers.

The center of global working-class struggle in the 2010s was in East Asia; in the 2020s it moved to Southeast Asia; in the 2030s it will move to South Asia and North Africa; in the 2040s it may move to East Africa; in the 2050s, to West Africa. When large-scale working-class struggle begins in West Africa, industry will have nowhere left to go; the struggle will spread back from the periphery to the center, and the wave of class struggle will make a historic return on a global scale.

(2) The Contradiction between Multinationals and Nation-States

In the age of globalized production, nation-states need multinationals to develop their economies, solve employment and foreign-exchange problems, and obtain advanced technology. And multinationals, to obtain high profits stably, need nation-states to help when class struggle breaks out. In this respect, the two have great common interests. On the cooperation between nation-states and multinationals, Singapore was the absolute pioneer; China was the good student, recognizing this early and changing more quickly and resolutely than the other Southern countries.

In November 1978, Deng [Xiaoping] visited Singapore at the invitation of its government. The visit influenced him greatly. Later, in discussing China's reform and opening-up, he repeatedly said China should learn from "Singapore's experience." In a speech on using foreign capital after his return, Deng said: "When I went to Singapore, I learned about their use of foreign capital. When foreigners set up

factories in Singapore, Singapore gets several benefits: first, 35 percent of foreign enterprises' profits must be paid in taxes — that share goes to the state; second, labor income, which the workers get; and third, it drives their service industry — these are all income" ^[104].

The second-generation core [Deng] saw clearly that the multinational-led globalization would unfold fully after the collapse of the Soviet bloc, and believed that even though China had just gone through a major event and suffered sanctions, the multinationals and their home countries could still form an "alliance" with China to jointly "develop" China's vast labor resources. He believed this window of opportunity could last until 2010 — a rare opportunity for China in hundreds of years. One must say his judgment was extremely accurate:

Comrade Deng attached great importance to the "timing" or "opportunity" of development. "What I worry about is losing the opportunity," he said, repeatedly stressing: "We must seize the moment to advance reform," "we must be good at seizing the moment to solve our development problems," and "by no means should we miss the moment." In June 1990, meeting with Y. K. Pao, chairman of Hong Kong's Worldwide Shipping Group, Deng said: "China now faces a rare development opportunity; we must not lose it. Many people do not understand that this is an opportunity for the Chinese nation, a rare opportunity that descendants of the Yellow Emperor encounter only once in hundreds of years." Although China was then in difficulty under the sanctions of the Western "Group of Seven," Deng believed that so long as China held to the socialist road and stayed stable, it could turn crisis into opportunity and achieve its development goals. Hence, in talks with some local leaders, he cautioned: "From now until 2010 is a rare opportunity; do not lose it." "This is the opportunity! A very rare one! The Chinese have had such opportunities several times but missed some — what a pity! You must seize it well." This overflowing urgency expressed the strong sense of mission and responsibility of Chinese Communists ^[105].

Moreover, in the cooperation between multinationals and nation-states, the national color fades and the commercial calculation grows. For example, it is generally held that multinationals keep their R&D at home and do not move it out. But when home-country R&D faces low-cost foreign competition, multinationals will still choose to move R&D to cheaper locations, even if the move degrades the "home country's" position in the production chain.

A survey report by the European Union Chamber of Commerce in China (EUCCC) in June [2022] found that as many as 72 percent of European companies in China believed Chinese firms' innovation capacity equaled or exceeded European firms'; most European firms in China benefited from doing innovation and R&D in China and would continue this strategy, staying in China to compete and share growth. 75 percent of surveyed firms said they would increase R&D spending in China; 18 percent would maintain current levels; 55 percent said their "R&D ecosystem" in China had become an important part of their global innovation strategy; 75 percent said their R&D results in China were used not only in China but in global markets. The Chamber's report noted that European firms

recognize China's R&D ecosystem is increasingly dynamic, with many advantages over other places: a large number of partners, innovative researchers, a huge market, and the ability to convert new technologies into commercial applications quickly ^[106]. Since [2025], foreign investment in China shows an obvious trend: more and more multinationals are increasing R&D spending in China and accelerating the establishment of R&D centers. According to statistics, by September, Shanghai had 631 foreign R&D centers; by January, Beijing had 221... The Fourth Plenary Session of the 20th Central Committee proposed: "Promote reform and development through opening up, and share opportunities and common development with countries around the world." From exploiting comparative advantage under the "vertical division of labor" to moving toward collaborative innovation and win-win symbiosis in more fields, China's importance in the global economy keeps growing, but its original aspiration remains unchanged — always willing to share development opportunities with the world ^[107]. PwC research shows multinationals hold strong confidence in their future innovation and R&D investment in China. Within the next two years, 42 percent of surveyed multinationals will maintain their innovation and R&D investment in China; 4 percent plan to increase it significantly; 38 percent plan to increase it; fewer than 10 percent said they would reduce it, and the remaining 6 percent were uncertain. National statistical yearbook data show that from 2018 to 2023, foreign R&D personnel full-time equivalents and spending maintained steady growth, reflecting multinationals' confidence in and commitment to China's innovation ecosystem and their determination to increase R&D investment in the Chinese market ^[108].

It is not only China: Vietnam, India, and others are also actively attracting the R&D arms of foreign capital — for example, 20 percent of the world's chip designers are in India, and Nvidia has set up an R&D center in Vietnam. Because its domestic market and capital scale are limited, for Vietnam to become an R&D power it needs to attract multinational R&D centers. Since R&D involves much communication, language is a major consideration. India has an advantage because nearly all of its higher-education graduates speak English. To begin climbing the high end of the production chain on a large scale in the 2030s, Vietnam has adopted aggressive legislation, such as making English a second language and introducing foreign judges ^[109]. We may well see Vietnam become the first middle power of the globalization era to enter the center chiefly by relying on the transnational bourgeoisie.

For countries not yet in the global manufacturing production chain, multinationals invest mainly in mining and public utilities. Since these sectors create little employment, the relationship between such multinationals and the nation-states is tense.

While foreign armies erode national sovereignty in the name of "counterterrorism," multinationals continue to extract wealth from the Sahel on extremely unequal terms. These countries remain heavily dependent on exporting raw materials under exploitative conditions — Niger's uranium, Mali's gold. In 2010, for example, of the total export value created by the two French uranium companies operating in

Niger, the government received only 13 percent. Though Mali has been one of Africa's largest gold producers since the 1990s, its economic take is negligible. Tax exemptions, unfair royalty regimes, and various preferential policies let Randgold Resources (merged with Barrick Gold in 2018) and AngloGold Ashanti rake in profits while reinvesting almost nothing locally. This economic dependence has produced chronic developmental stagnation, leaving these countries defenseless against external pressure and limiting their ability to diversify or negotiate favorable terms of trade. The lack of sustainable development has triggered a cascade of political, social, and security crises. Since the 1990s, elites have contended for power in fragile institutional settings; coups and regime changes have become routine. Corruption, absent public services, and the exclusion of marginalized groups further weaken state legitimacy and deepen popular distrust [\[110\]](#).

Hence West Africa has seen a "resource nationalism" revolution, similar in nature to the series of revolutions and reform struggles in Latin America in the early twentieth century: its aim is to take back resource revenues and use them for domestic infrastructure and industrial construction.

The government issued large gold-mining licenses (such as the Koraly-Sud license in the Kayes region) and succeeded in acquiring 80 percent of the shares of the Yatela gold mine, previously foreign-controlled. The 2023 Mining Code comprehensively revised the terms of cooperation with foreign multinationals, mandating that the state's shareholding in mining joint ventures rise to 30 percent and abolishing tax exemptions, clearing the way for the state to recover historical tax arrears and dividends [\[111\]](#).

Of course, in the age of globalization no nation-state dares refuse to cooperate with multinationals entirely. Revolutionary Burkina Faso still welcomes foreign capital — in this respect similar to post-revolutionary Mexico. This is the common practice of peripheral countries in the second stage of the world-system. West Africa has not yet received the wave of global manufacturing value-chain relocation; its present position resembles that of the peripheral countries (Mexico, Brazil) of the world-system's second stage.

The nation-state and transnational capital are like landlord and tenant. If the landlord keeps the infrastructure and services in good shape, the tenant is willing to stay; and if the tenant pays rent on time and does no damage, the landlord is happy to rent. So when a nation-state can effectively exercise bourgeois rule and guarantee bourgeois right, the contradictions between nation-state and transnational capital, so long as they do not touch on contradictions among nation-states, are fairly easy to resolve by negotiation. But if the nation-state comes into the hands of working-class reformist or even revolutionary politics and adopts policies transnational capital finds unacceptable, seriously obstructing accumulation, then the contradiction between transnational capital and the nation-state becomes hard to reconcile; it may trigger financial crises in the nation-state, or even the threat of war. In this respect, multinationals need to draw on the power of the nation-states of the center.

On the whole, the current capitalist world-system provides nation-states room to develop from the low end to the high end of the production chain. Of course, using this room well requires the nation-state to improve its governing capacity, invest effectively in infrastructure and education, suppress working-class politics, and provide conditions for capital accumulation at every level of the production chain. In this respect, East Asia has provided the Global South a model to learn from.

Of course, this refers only to genuine nation-states, not to the United States — a world government disguised as a nation-state. The American government controls the financial infrastructure of the global economy and can sanction every multinational in the world; hence America often uses multinationals as tools of its struggle — for example, requiring multinationals not to do business in Iran.

(3) The Contradictions among the Central Countries

As said earlier, after World War II America effectively functioned as the world government of the capitalist world-system. Until 2020, this position was not seriously challenged. Japan challenged America economically; after the eurozone was formed, Europe challenged America financially for a time — but America defused these challenges. Until China appeared. Now America can no longer suppress China militarily or economically; its only remaining hegemony is financial hegemony — dollar hegemony. That is why America could use military means in 1996 to prevent the mainland from unifying Taiwan, but in 2026 can only deter by threatening to kick China out of the financial system ^[112].

Before China's rise, the center consisted of America and its allies; America held the hegemony, and other countries shared in some hegemonic benefits — for example, the currency swaps between America and its central-country allies ^[113]. America also shared markets and opened investment with its allies, in effect promoting the fusion of the bourgeoisies. But now that American hegemony has been shaken by China and is tottering, America's alliance system is also loosening.

The capitalist world-system needs a world government. In an era of many nation-states, the United Nations cannot yet fulfill this function; in practice the world government is realized through a superpower acting as hegemon or alliance leader, which, together with its allies and through a series of agreements and international institutions, brings all countries of the world into the system. Within this system, the hegemon, the hegemon's allies, and the other participants each make decisions according to their own interests.

The principal contradiction among the central countries today is the question of which of China and America shall be the hegemon. China's approach is to win over America's allies among the central countries, especially Europe — if only Europe can be stabilized and kept neutral — while uniting the strong semi-peripheral countries against American hegemony through the BRICS, the Shanghai

Cooperation Organization, and other bodies. America's strategy we have analyzed in detail in "The Logic of War and Its Prospects"; no need to repeat it here. The contradiction of the hegemonic contest may be resolved peacefully or by war. But either way, that America will lose the hegemony is essentially certain — only the timing is in question.

Every contest among the central countries brings opportunities to other countries; this remains true in the stage of transnational production. To weaken China's manufacturing, America actively promotes "friend-shoring" and "near-shoring," steering industry toward Southeast Asia, South Asia, and the Americas; and multinationals, to avoid the impact of trade wars, widely practice the "China+1" strategy. Moving capacity is not only geopolitically driven but economically profitable, so this relocation is structural and long-term. China's capacity is moving mainly to Southeast Asia, India, and Mexico.

In the Sino-American contest, the middle powers will do their utmost not to become chess pieces of the great powers — neither America's pawn nor China's pawn. Iran and Venezuela, for example, under American threat, on the one hand defend their sovereignty, and on the other give up some interests and deal with America. Likewise, Pakistan actively keeps relations with America good, to avoid being seen as China's cat's paw. Many Chinese observers consider such countries useless; in fact, they simply do not want to take the blows for you, refusing to be cannon fodder.

After America launched its de-globalization, some said there never was globalization, only Americanization. This does not match the facts. Americanization is only the surface phenomenon of globalization. We have seen that when America began to oppose globalization, it discovered that the supply-chain globalization brought by transnational production cannot be reversed even by America. Meanwhile, transnational capital did not support America but, resisting the coercion, supported China. The previous two articles discussed this in detail.

After China replaces America as the alliance leader of the central countries and completes the restructuring of the production-chain division of labor, globalization will very likely accelerate further. There will then come a peace period of perhaps ten to twenty years — the so-called "Pax Sinica." Next will come the challenge of a rising India.

India has entered a high tide of infrastructure construction and industrialization: in the 2040s it will complete its high-speed rail network, expressway network, ports, and a series of other mega-infrastructure projects, and receive the mid- and low-end segments of the global production chain on a large scale. India's tertiary enrollment will reach 50 percent in 2035 and 60 percent or more by the 2040s; with births steady at 22–24 million, India will have 12 million higher-education graduates a year by 2035, approaching 14 million in the 2040s. Such a vast educated population will provide ample high-skill labor for India's industrial upgrading. Hence in the 2050s (possibly earlier) India will begin a comprehensive climb up the manufacturing production chain, delivering a structural

shock to the high-end industries of China, Europe, and America. By the 2050s, India, having entered the center, will trigger the next restructuring of the production-chain division of labor and of hegemony within the center. Since by then only parts of Africa will remain to be industrialized, too weak to support India's complete upgrade into the center, this restructuring may cause a fragmentation of the center–periphery structure. We cannot predict its exact form, but certainly large numbers of mid- and low-end production-chain enterprises will flow back to some central countries, creating conditions for the revival of the workers' movement in the former central countries.

(4) The Contradiction between Central and Peripheral Countries

In the capitalist world, states serve the interests of capital. The contradiction between the central and peripheral countries is, in essence, the contradiction between transnational capital and the peripheral countries. A multinational, weak and alone, cannot open the markets of the peripheral countries by itself; it must call on the nation-states of the center.

For example, the 1997 Asian financial crisis was in essence a financial plunder of the newly industrialized countries of East and Southeast Asia carried out by America and the American-led international institutions:

In 1991, a delegation of American congressmen and well-known scholars lobbied the East Asian countries, claiming that speeding up financial liberalization, trade liberalization, and investment liberalization would create hundreds of billions of dollars of benefits for the region each year. Under America's "hype," some countries began to carry out neoliberal "reforms" — most eagerly Thailand, Indonesia, and others. The result was the devastating Asian financial crisis of 1997. Far from showing the slightest remorse, the American government openly declared that the crisis occurred because these countries' governments lacked economic management capacity — even blaming nepotism and corruption among their officials. What is even more outrageous: after the crisis broke out, the American government shielded and indulged American financial speculators who, profiting from others' misfortune, frenziedly arbitrated the financial and currency markets of East Asia, deliberately aggravating the crisis. America also manipulated the IMF, first long refusing to lend to the Asian countries concerned, then, over their objections, imposing harsh preconditions — further neoliberal "reforms" as the price of loans. Throughout the crisis, the American authorities' performance exposed their sinister intent to control East Asia's financial and capital markets. In a few short years, the "East Asian economic model" so widely praised before the 1990s rapidly degenerated into a disaster model, with the region suffering losses of hundreds of billions of dollars; some economies regressed by 10–20 years ^[114].

Since the 2000s, America has wanted China to open its capital market and help American multinationals hold China's quality domestic assets:

Ending a week-long visit to China, US Deputy Commerce Secretary Franklin Lavin pressured China as usual. He criticized China's economic reform as slowing and in danger of backtracking. Analysts held that such criticism was in essence pressuring China to open its doors wide to America in finance, services, industry standards, and other key areas. On July 26, speaking in Shanghai, Lavin said he hoped the Chinese government would give American firms priority consideration in two transactions involving American acquisitions of Chinese companies: Citibank's purchase of a stake in Guangdong Development Bank and Carlyle's purchase of a stake in Xugong Holdings. At the end of the year, China's financial industry was to be fully opened to the outside world — for the powerful American financial firms, undoubtedly a "fat piece of meat" ^[115].

Such cases are too numerous to list. When peripheral countries face exchange-rate or other crises and need rescue, America, its allies, and the international financial institutions they control usually make financial opening a condition of aid. Transnational capital can not only set up factories in the peripheral countries for high profits but, exploiting its easy access to international currency, engage in financial speculation in the newly industrializing countries. Larger countries such as China and India can rely on their huge domestic markets to bargain and defend their financial sovereignty. For small and medium countries, this is very difficult. Still, the overwhelming majority of countries would rather take risks within the system than leave it — showing that the benefits of remaining in the system are, in the long run, still positive.

(5) Summary

In this period, the world-system contains mainly the following contradictions:

The contradiction between bourgeoisie and proletariat has become the core contradiction of this stage. The continuous relocation of industry from the center to the semi-periphery, the endless moving about, fragments the global working class, making it hard to form class consciousness and class organization in struggle. This is the greatest difficulty of the present global industrial class movement. Yet the workers' struggles objectively accelerate the process of industrial relocation, helping the capitalist world-system evolve forward.

In this period, the multinationals have formed an "alliance" with the nation-states of the periphery: through massive direct investment they "help" the periphery industrialize rapidly. Some peripheral countries, through industrial upgrading, have already risen into the center. But China's enormous size poses an existential threat to America, the alliance leader of the center, provoking great-power rivalry.

At the outermost periphery of the world-system remain countries not yet drawn into the global manufacturing value chain, such as Niger in West Africa. Their relations with transnational capital and the central countries are more complex, expressing greater contradiction.

The basic driving force of the system's evolution in this period is the resistance of the proletariat — including not only demands for higher wages and holidays, but also the refusal to marry and have children — pushing industrial relocation and accelerating the world's industrialization.

Notes

[1] "The Formation and Development of Early Industrial Society in Jiangnan during the Ming-Qing Period": on the urbanisation levels of Jiangnan in the late Ming and mid-Qing, Cao Shuji and Li Bozhong conclude 15% respectively
中文原文：《明清江南早期工业化社会的形成与发展》关于明代后期与清代中期江南的城市化水平，曹树基和李伯重的研究结论分别为15%。

<http://www.historychina.net/jj/362998.shtml>

[2] "Urbanization and Growth: Why Did the Splendor of the Industrial Revolution..."

中文原文：《Urbanization and Growth: Why Did the Splendor of the Italian Cities in the Sixteenth Century not Lead to Transition?》As for the urbanization rate, a declining trend is observed throughout the sample, with a maximum peak recorded in 1530 (21%) and a minimum in 1670 (15%).

https://www.ifo.de/DocDL/cesifo1_wp5038.pdf

[3] "The Enlightenment of China's Three Waves of Urbanisation": according to scholars' calculations, the 35 warring states of the Spring and Autumn/Warring States period built 600 walled cities, though some experts say 800-900

中文原文：《中国三次城市化浪潮的启示》根据学者的计算，整个春秋战国35个诸侯国建有城池600个，也有专家称有800-900个，春秋末期的人口总数为3200万人，而城市居民人数就多达509万人，城市化率达到了15.9%。宋代是我国古代城市化发展的高峰期，南宋时期的城市化率达到了22%。两宋时期，见于史载的市镇多达3600多个，其中一部分市镇，不论人口数量还是经济发达程度，都超过一般州县。北宋首都汴梁（今开封）和南宋首都临安（今杭州）的人口都超过100万，同时期的欧洲人简直无法想象这个数字。据罗兹曼的计算，一直到1500年前后，欧洲最大的4个城市是米兰、巴黎、威尼斯和那不勒斯，人口只有10万至15万。

https://www.xinhuanet.com/politics/2015-11/09/c_128408467.htm

[4] "China's Modern Urbanisation Rate and Its Stages": Xing Long estimates the urban population share at 6.3% in 1820 and 6.5% in 1840

中文原文：《中国近代城市化率及城市化分期》，行龙估计的1820年城市人口比重为6.3%，1840年为6.5%，1893年为7.9%。[10](P.541)这与赵冈的估计很接近。在清朝之前的唐、宋、明三朝代的城市人口比重据保守估计都在10%左右，8这也说明清代中叶的城市人口比重相比前后时段处于一个低落时期。

<https://www.sinoss.net/uploadfile/2010/1130/7841.pdf>

[5] "Collective Protests of Urban Handicraft Workers in the Late Ming and Early Qing — Centred on Suzhou": the strikes and riots of Qing Suzhou workers mainly involved silk weavers and cotton dyers/calendriers

中文原文：《明末清初城市手工业工人的集体抗议行动——以苏州城为探讨中心》清代苏州工人的罢工与暴动主要以丝织机匠、棉业染踹匠、製纸业工匠等三类为多，但在嘉慶以前是以棉业的染踹匠罢工为主。工人的罢工与抗争活动大部分的原因仍是「年荒米贵」，加上坊户或包头「扣克工资」，⁵²又经流棍煽惑，以组织行帮、或帮助普济院、育婴堂等为由，要求增價。由此可见这段期间手工业工人集体抗议行动与糧食價格的上漲是有很大的關聯性。而工人所以对米價的漲跌很敏感，因為他們的工資結構與米價相牽聯。在此將蘇州工人集体抗议事件發生的時間、工人的薪資、江南米價，以及銀錢比價相比較列於表二。

[\[6\] The citizen struggles of the Wanli-Tianqi period and the Donglin Party debates](https://www.mh.sinica.edu.tw/MHDocument/PublicationDetail/PublicationDetail_702.pdf#:~:text=38%20%E3%80%8A%E6%98%8E%E7%A5%9E%E5%AE%97%E5%AF%A6%E9%8C%84%E3%80%8B%20%2C%E5%8D%B7%38%4%2C%E8%90%AC%E6%9B%86%E4%B8%89%E5%8D%81%E4%B8%80%E5%B9%B4%E4%BA%94%E6%9C%88%E4%B9%99%E4%BA%A5%E6%A2%9D%2C%E9%A0%81%72%29%2D%72%30%E3%80%82%20%20%2D%60%2D%20Page%2014,%E7%9B%B8%E5%90%8C%E7%9A%84%2C%40%E5%A3%AB%E5%A4%A7%E5%A4%AB%E3%80%81%E5%9C%B0%E6%96%B9%E5%AE%98%E8%88%87%E5%95%86%E4%BA%BA%E4%BA%A6%E7%AB%99%E5%9C%A8%E5%90%8C%E4%B8%80%E9%99%A3%E7%B7%9A%E3%80%82%20%41%E8%98%87%E5%B7%9E%E7%9A%84%E6%89%8B%E5%B7%A5%E6%A5%AD%E5%9C%A8%E6%98%8E%E4%BB%A3%E9%9B%96%20%E6%97%A9%E5%B7%B2%E6%9C%89%E9%9B%87%E5%82%AD%E5%B7%A5%E4%BA%BA%E7%9A%84%E6%83%85%E5%BD%A2%2C%E4%BD%86%E5%A6%82%E7%AC%AC%E4%BA%8C%E7%AF%80%E6%89%80%E6%8F%90%E5%88%B0%E7%9A%84%2C%E5%8B%9E%E8%B3%87%E9%97%9C%E4%BF%82%E6%98%AF%E7%B6%AD%E6%8C%81%E8%91%97%E3%80%8C%E6%A9%9F%E6%88%B6%E5%87%BA%20%E8%B3%87%2C%E6%A9%9F%E5%B7%A5%E5%87%BA%E5%8A%9B%2C%E7%9B%B8%E4%BE%9D%E7%88%B2%E5%91%BD%E4%B9%85%E7%9F%A3%E3%80%82%E3%80%8D%20%0E9%80%99%E9%A1%AF%E7%A4%BA%E6%A9%9F%E6%88%B6%E8%88%87%E6%A9%9F%E5%8C%A0%E4%B9%8B%E9%96%93%E7%9A%84%E9%97%9C%E4%BF%82%E6%98%AF%E9%A0%97%E5%92%8C%E8%AB%A7%E7%9A%84%2C%20%E9%80%99%E7%A8%AE%E3%80%8C%E7%9B%B8%E8%B3%87%E7%9B%B8%E9%A4%8A%E3%80%8D%E7%9A%84%E9%97%9C%E4%BF%82%E5%8F%AF%E4%BB%A5%E7%A8%B1%E4%B9%8B%E7%82%BA%E3%80%8C%E7%88%B6%E9%81%93%E4%B8%BB%E7%BE%A9%E6%A8%A1%E5%BC%8F%E3%80%8D(paternalist%20model)%E3%80%82&text=%E3%80%8A%E6%98%8E%E7%86%B9%E5%AE%97%E5%AF%A6%E9%8C%84%E3%80%8B%2C%E5%8D%B7%30%2C%E5%A4%A9%E5%95%9F%E4%B8%89%E5%B9%B4%E4%B8%80%E6%9C%88%E8%BE%9B%E4%B8%91%E6%A2%9D%2C%E9%A0%81%50%6%E3%80%82%20%E9%81%8E%E5%8E%BB%E7%9A%84%E7%A0%94%E7%A9%B6%E4%B8%AD%2C%E5%A4%A7%E9%83%A8%E4%BB%BD%E5%AD%B8%E8%80%85%E9%83%BD%E4%B8%BB%E5%BC%B5%E7%95%B6%E6%99%82%E6%A9%9F%E6%88%B6%E8%88%87%E6%A9%9F%E5%B7%A5%E4%B9%8B%E9%96%93%E6%98%AF%E5%92%8C%E8%AB%A7%E7%9B%B8%E5%AE%89%E7%9A%84%2C%E5%B0%8D%E5%8F%8D%E7%A4%A6%E7%A8%85%E7%9A%84%E7%AB%8B%E5%A0%B4%20%E4%B9%9F%E6%98%AF%E4%B8%80%E8%87%B4%E7%9A%84%E3%80%82%20%E4%BD%86%E6%98%AF%E4%BD%90%E4%BC%AF%E6%9C%89%E4%B8%80%E5%9C%A8(1601%E5%B9%B4%E3%80%8C%E7%BA%96%E5%82%AD%E4%B9%8B%E8%AE%8A%E3%80%8D%E8%AB%B8%E5%95%8F%E9%A1%8C%E5%8E%BB%E3%81%AE%2D%2D%2D%3E%E4%B8%80%E6%96%87%E4%B8%AD%E5%89%87%E8%AA%8D%E7%88%B2%2C%20%E6%A9%9F%E6%88%B6%E6%9C%89%E5%A4%A7%E5%B0%8F%E7%9A%84%E5%88%86%E5%8C%96%2C%E8%80%8C%E4%B8%94%E5%B0%8D%E5%8F%8D%E7%A4%A6%E7%A8%85%E6%B0%91%E8%AE%8A%E9%81%8B%E5%8B%95%E7%9A%84%E5%8F%83%E8%88%87%E4%B9%9F%E6%9C%89%E4%B8%8D%E5%90%8C%E7%9A%84%E6%85%8B%E5%BA%A6%E3%80%82%20%E5%85%B6%E8%AA%A9%E9%9B%96%E6%9C%89%E5%8F%AF%E8%83%BD%2C%E4%BD%86%20%E5%9C%A8%E7%8F%BE%E6%9C%89%E5%8F%B2%E6%96%99%E4%B8%AD%E4%BB%8D%E7%84%A1%E6%B3%95%E6%98%8E%E7%A2%BA%E5%8D%80%E5%88%86%E5%85%A9%E8%80%85%E5%9C%A8%E6%B0%91%E8%AE%8A%E7%9A%84%E6%85%8B%E5%BA%A6%E4%B8%8A%E6%9C%89%E4%BD%95%E5%B7%AE%E7%95%B0%E3%80%82%20%E5%8A%89%E5%BF%97%E7%90%B4%2C%E8%A9%A6%E8%AB%96%E8%90%AC%E6%9B%86%E6%B0%91%E8%AE%8A)%%2C%E3%80%8A%E6%98%8E%E6%B8%85%E5%8F%B2%E5%9C%8B%E9%9A%9B%E5%AD%B8%E8%A1%93%E8%A8%8E%E8%AB%96%E6%9C%83%E8%AB%96%E6%96%87%E9%9B%86%E3%80%8B(%E5%A4%A9%E6%B4%A5:%E5%A4%A9%E6%B4%A5%E4%BA%BA%E6%B0%91%E5%87%BA%E7%89%88%20%E7%A4%BE%2C1982%E5%B9%B4)%%2C%E9%A0%81%68%8E3%80%81%69%2%E3%80%82</p></div><div data-bbox=)

中文原文：万历天启时期的市民斗争和东林党议

<https://ccj.pku.edu.cn/Article/Download?id=271015674&&type=ArticleFile>

[7] Ciompi Revolt

中文原文：Ciompi Revolt

https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Ciompi_Revolt

[8] Britain's urbanisation began in the mid-18th century, developing in step with industrialisation. In the early 18th century, Britain's urban population was about 20-25% of the total

中文原文：英国的城镇化进程发端于18世纪中叶，是与工业化进程同步发展的。18世纪早期，英国的城市人口约占总人口的20—25%，到1801年就已经增加到33%。1800年，伦敦的人口达到100万，成为当时世界上人口最多的城市。1851年，英国已有580多座城镇，城镇人口达到总人口的54%。

<https://world.people.com.cn/n/2014/0225/c187656-24460386.html>

[9] "Similarities and Differences: A Comparative Study of the Economic Histories of Jiangnan and Holland in the Early 19th Century": first, the share of industry (secondary sector) value added in Jiangnan's GDP (33%) was much higher than Holland's (29%)

中文原文：《相似与相异：19世纪初期江南与荷兰经济史比较研究》第一，工业（第二产业）增加值在江南GDP中所占的比重（33%）大大高于在荷兰GDP中的比重（29%），而服务产业增加值在荷兰GDP中所占比重（46%）则大大高于在江南GDP中的比重（36%）。工业人口在就业人口中的比重，江南（56%）也大大高于在荷兰的比重（26%），而服务产业人口在就业人口中的比重，荷兰（31%）则大大高于江南（16%）。换言之，在19世纪初期，工业在江南经济中的地位，远高于在荷兰经济中的地位，而服务产业在荷兰经济中的地位，则远高于在江南经济中的地位。第二，农业人口在就业人口中的比重，江南（27%）低于荷兰（43%），而在城市化水平方面，两个地区却比较接近。这是因为江南农村工业人口占了工业人口的3/4。一些学者怀疑明清中国一些农村地区可能已“过度工业化”了。①如果这个“过度工业化”真的存在的话，那么19世纪20年代的江南就是最主要的地区。

<https://xbzs.ecnu.edu.cn/EN/article/downloadArticleFile.do?attachType=PDF&id=12007>

[10] Growth, Shrinkage and Long-Run Economic Performance: a historical perspective on economic development — Caixin

中文原文：增长、萎缩和长期经济表现：经济发展的历史视角 - 比较 - Caixin

https://bijiao.caixin.com/m/2022-11-21/101968531_all.html

[11] "On the Taiping Heavenly Kingdom's Urban Policy": egalitarianism was a major feature of the Taiping urban policy. Mao Zedong repeatedly noted that the destruction of industry and commerce in cities and towns was...

中文原文：《论太平天国的城市政策》平均主义是太平天国城市政策的一大特色。毛泽东多次指出，导致在城市和乡镇破坏工商业的是绝对平均主义思想(参见薄一波《若干重大决策与事件的回顾》第1卷，中共中央党校出版社1991年版，第208页。)。而绝对平均主义思想“只是农民小资产者的一种幻想。”(毛泽东：《关于纠正党内的错误思想》，《毛泽东选集》第1卷，人民出版社1991年第2版，第91页。)

http://jds.cssn.cn/xscg/xslw/201605/t20160506_5252049.shtml

[12] "A Cultural Comparison of the New Administration (Zi Zheng Xin Pian) and Westernisation Thought": in the Zi Zheng Xin Pian, Hong Rengan advocated vigorously developing capitalist industry and commerce

中文原文：《《资政新篇》与洋务思想的文化学比较》。在《资政新篇》中，洪仁玕则倡导大兴资本主义工商业，他不但着力提高工商业者的社会地位，而且设计了发展资本主义工商业的具体方案，主张“兴车马之利”“兴六舟楫之利”、“兴银行”、“兴器皿技艺”、“兴宝藏”、“兴邮亭”，认为这些金融业、交通业、制造业、采掘冶炼业同样是国家之本，“大有利于民生国用”。他制定奖励和扶植工商业的措施，根据创造发明的情况，“器小者赏五年，大者赏十年，益民多者年数加多”；矿藏“有民探出者，准其禀报，爵为总领，准其招民采取，总领获十之一，国库获十之二，采者获十之六焉”；兴邮亭，设新闻馆的重要目的之一，亦是传递“货价低昂，事势常变”的信息，以便“商农览之，得以通有无”。他十分重视解决发展资本主义工商业的劳动力问题，“准富者请人雇工，不得买奴”，反对奴隶劳动而给资本主义雇佣劳动开绿灯。

<https://1872.cmhk.com/ziliaoku/4946.html>

[13] (source title not preserved)

<https://pammack.sites.clemson.edu/lec122sts/allen3.html>

[14] "Ni Lexiong: Behind Zheng Chenggong's Navy": the significance of the Zheng maritime commercial group has long been underestimated; its economic and military behaviour resembled that of modern Holland and Britain

中文原文：《倪乐雄：在郑成功水师的背后》看来郑氏海上商业集团的意义过去被远远低估了，它的经济、军事行为同近代荷兰、英国的资本原始积累时期性质相似，因而更具有西方近代资本主义雏形期的特征。历史不能重来一遍，但可在逻辑的范围内假设。如果郑成功抗清复明事业能够成功，那就是中国历史上第一个用海上武力统一中国的特例，他将在实行海禁以维护农业社会稳定和运用王权拓展海上贸易之间进行艰难的抉择，因为把人们束缚在土地上封建社会正常运行的前提，这就从根本上将自己的航海贸易事业给铲除了。假如选择了后者，也许中国近代社会转型将从19世纪中叶提前至17世纪后半叶，中西文化大规模冲突和交流的锋面将在马来西亚、菲律宾、文莱、印度尼西亚一带展开，中国将提前200年和西方在同一起跑线上向近代化迈进并享受工业文明的种种硕果，中华民族也许会避免以鸦片战争为开端的历史劫数。

<https://www.aisixiang.com/data/7687.html>

[15] "Zheng Chenggong in the Eyes of Western Scholars": the author examines the events of the 1630s-40s that successively reshaped the political configuration of the Far Eastern seas

中文原文：《西方学者眼中的郑成功》该书作者在具体考察了17世纪30-40年代相继发生的影响远东海域政治格局的各种重大事件之后认为：在这一时期远东海域局势变化的进程中，为建立远海上贸易霸权地位所进行的经济和军事对抗主要是由两个对手来进行的：即代表荷兰人利益的荷兰东印度公司和强大的郑氏海商集团。因此，荷兰东印度公司与郑氏海商集团一开始就孕育着利益冲突的因素，并且逐渐发展成为不可避免的对抗

<https://files01.core.ac.uk/download/pdf/41451164.pdf>

[16] "Land Law in Ancient China": before unifying China, Qin's principal means of production — land — was basically state-owned; the state distributed it to households according to population and labour power

中文原文：《中国古代的土地法》在统一中国之前，秦的主要生产资料—土地基本上是国有的，国家按照民户及劳动力的多少分授给农民耕种。同时，对有军功的人也赏赐田宅，从而产生了土地私有制。秦统一后，“使黔首自实田”，从而确认了地主、农民对土地的私人所有权。

http://iolaw.cssn.cn/gdfls/200411/t20041111_4593909.shtml

[17] "The Evolution of Land Rights in China and the Formation of Landlord-Tenancy and Smallholder Farming Patterns"

中文原文：《中国土地权演化及地主租佃，小农自耕模式的形成》

<https://ntupoli.s3.amazonaws.com/wp-content/uploads/2011/03/10030751-200901-2009-1-147-153-a.pdf>

[18] "Land Law in Ancient China": after the late Tang, the equal-field system gradually broke down and land sales actually appeared; the Song dynasty formally recognised this in law

中文原文：《中国古代的土地法》唐末叶以后，均田制日渐破坏，土地买卖实际上已开始出现，宋代即在法律上正式承认了这一事实。宋初以降，国家又屡颁诏令，鼓励垦荒，确认垦拓者的土地所有权。土地买卖，官府验契加红印。土地可以自由租佃，国家不再限制占田亩数。.....在广为垦荒的前提下，土地私有化得以实行。

http://iolaw.cssn.cn/gdfls/200411/t20041111_4593909.shtml

[19] "The Formation of the Ancient Chinese 'Rich Folk Society' and Its Historical Position": from the Tang-Song onward, the "rich folk" included those who grew rich through industry and commerce

中文原文：《中国古代“富民社会”的形成及其历史地位》从唐宋以来几朝的史料记载来看，虽然“富民”既包括部分靠工商业致富的人，如唐代富商王元宝等人就被时人称为“富民”，但更主要的是乡村中靠土地经营致富的人。宋人苏洵在讲到富民之家的经营时说：“周之时，用井田，井田废，田非耕者之所有，而有田者不耕也。耕者之田资于富民，富民之家地大业广，阡陌连接，募召浮客，分耕其中，鞭笞驱役，视以奴仆，安坐四顾，指麾于其间；而役属之民，夏为之耨，秋为之获，无有一人违其节度以嬉。而田之所入，已得其半，耕者得其半。有田者一人而耕者十人，是以田主日累其半以至于富强，耕者日食其半以至于穷饿而无告。”[1]表明靠土地经营致富的富民是很多的。现在的问题是：富民的出现，究竟是一种偶然的社会经济现象，还是反映着社会的重大变迁？据宋人苏辙说，早在北宋之世，“惟州县之间，随其大小，皆有富民。”[2]可见，他们已人数众多，分布广泛，它的出现具有着普遍性。

<http://economy.guoxue.com/?p=9480>

[20] "Hou Jianxin: British Early Modern Land Confirmation Legislation and Practice": in pre-capitalist Britain, the absence of independent individuals meant no complete private property rights; after prolonged struggle...

中文原文：《侯建新：英国近代土地确权立法与实践》在前资本主义社会里，英国因独立个体缺失而没有完全的私人财产权。经过长期博弈以及对封建采邑制的法律清算，17世纪中叶英国议会推出《骑士领废除与补偿法》，标志着土地私有制在英国率先实现国家立法。后来的议会圈地则是土地确权实践。“骑士领废除”与历时百年的议会圈地应作为英国近代土地私人产权确立的关键节点。圈地损害小农阶层的利益并遭到小农抵抗，但总体说来，议会圈地的法治化程序缩减了无序性和反复性，并使圈地成果受到法律保护，从而为英国的崛起奠定经济基础。

<https://eshistory.tjnu.edu.cn/info/1422/3352.htm>

[21] "The Revolution and the Land System: the Rupture of Tradition | Land Policy Special": in 1814, King Louis XVIII signed the Charter of 1814, confirming the Napoleonic...

中文原文：《大革命与土地制度：传统的断裂 | 【土地政策】专题》1814年，国王路易十八签署《1814年宪章》，确认《拿破仑法典》和购买“国有土地财产”者的土地权利，这相当于承认大革命的主要成果。11年后，法国再次回调贵族土地政策：1825年，国王查理十世颁布“关于补偿亡命贵族10亿法郎”的法令，赔付当年被强行没收土地的贵族和教士。一个流亡贵族，可以得到相当于他在革命前自己土地年收入20倍的赔款。这显然延续了拿破仑的平衡政策，纠正暴力转移土地财产行为，正式承认农民和贵族都具有相应合法的土地权利。这样，现代所有权从政治依附关系下完全解放出来，取得独立于政治关系的经济形式，这是一种纯粹的经济形式，正如马克思所说，“土地所有权就取得了纯粹经济的形式，因为它摆脱了它以前的一切政治的和社会的装饰物和混杂物，简单地说，就是摆脱了一切传统的附属物”。这是私人财产权利，即绝对所有权（absolute ownership），不受地域、国度和对象限制，不论其所有者是昔日农奴，还是旧时贵族。沃兹沃斯说得更明了：“该权利对整个世界都有效，而不仅仅是原告针对被告的权利。这是现代所有权的原则。”至此，法国土地确权也就有了结果。从《拿破仑法典》到其后国王的两个法令，标志着19世纪上半叶法兰西土地私人所有权的最终确立。

<https://mp.weixin.qq.com/s/jl6pE7lf6-AANCF0Ierq1g>

[22] "Monetisation of Silver in the Ming Dynasty: a New Perspective Linking China and the World": silver was an important factor in the birth of world trade. The French scholar Braudel once said: "Precious metals involve..."

中文原文：《明代白银货币化：中国与世界连接的新视角》白银是促使世界贸易诞生的重要因素。法国学者布罗代尔曾说：“贵金属涉及全球，使我们登上交换的最高层。”[2](P192)与白银相联系，一边是生产，一边是交换。起因于白银需求的中国市场网络的延伸，其主要特征就是将世界各地的白银吸纳进来。与此同时，中国商品走向世界，市场扩大到了世界范围。中国是当时世界上最大的经济体，也是最大的白银需求国，直接影响了白银作为国际通用结算方式用于世界贸易。这种国际交换关系，一端联系的是中国商品，另一端联系的是白银，形成了市场网络的世界性链接。概言之，它以三条主干线，跨越三大洲，形成了三个大小不等的贸易圈，从而构建了一个世界贸易网络。这三条主干线是：中国——东南亚——日本中国——马尼拉——美洲中国——果阿——欧洲

<http://www.historychina.net/msyj/426449.shtml>

[23] "Why Did the Industrial Revolution Happen in 18th-Century Britain — a lecture by Professor Ma Debin at the Shanghai University of Finance and Economics": the most important role of the Glorious Revolution was...

中文原文：《为什么工业革命发生在18世纪的英国——马德斌教授在上海财经大学经济史学讲坛的讲演》光荣革命最重要的作用就是推进了英国现代国家制度的形成，执行了《人权法案》，规定皇帝要定期召集国会，国王要增加的财政预算必须经过国会通过。为什么国会这么关心财政？因为国会代表了有产者和商人的利益，他们自己是交税者，就必须知道这些税是派什么用途的，随着国王权力的虚化，英国的政治架构朝着现代君主立宪制演变。国会制约王权和掌控税收，反而导致税收大幅增加，其中重要的原因是所谓国家能力的增强，特别是建立了现代的纳税制度和文官队伍。文官队伍的中立化与专业化保证了税收直接进入国库，而不是被中饱私囊。更重要的是界定了纳税人的合法财产权，这是光荣革命之后一个重要的制度建设。公共财政制度的建立带动了英国的公债市场，坚实的财政与国会的信誉，提高了英国国债的信誉。与此同时，在17世纪末由政府特许商人认股而成立的英格兰银行，也开始经营政府的公债市场，同时也带动了伦敦的金融市场，使伦敦发展成比荷兰阿姆斯特丹规模更大的金融中心。随着介入欧战与殖民开发，英国政府开支与借款也大幅上升，而公债的利率却在下降，很重要的原因就是它的信誉度高，风险低，这就形成了一个良性循环，构成了17世纪的财政与金融革命。

<https://econ.sufe.edu.cn/97/31/c6907a104241/page.htm>

[24] "The Strength of State Capacity: an Important Cause of the Great Divergence between East and West": in Britain's case, after the Glorious Revolution its fiscal revenue rose markedly, while economic growth did not...

中文原文：《国家能力的强弱：东西方大分流的重要原因之一》以英国为例，在光荣革命以后，它的财政税收明显上升，经济增长并没有这么快，税收增长速度大大高于经济增长速度。据估算，1688-1815年间，英国的GDP增长了3倍，但实际税收增长了15倍。与英国和欧洲各国相比，满清的汲取水平很低，且没有提高。据估计，清代中央政府的年度财政收入，在康熙时期(1662-1722)约为3500万两，在雍正时期(1722-1735)约为4000万两，在乾隆时期(1736-1795)约为4300-4800万两，这种状况一直延续到鸦片战争之前。各级政府的财政总收入大概在6000-8000万两之间摆动。这是人口快速增长的时期，清代人均财政收入不仅没有增长，反倒是持续下滑的。现在已有一批研究表明，国家能力与经济的早期发展有着密切的关系。伦敦政治经济学院的经济史学家帕特里克·奥布莱恩2011年的研究发现：1815年以前，因为英国具有对外维护自身安全、对内维持秩序与产权的国家能力，它得以促进投资与国际贸易，成为第一个工业国家。西班牙没有在加强汲取能力方面做出努力，导致这个曾经的霸主于17世纪逐步衰落。在东西方之间出现大分流的时代，国家汲取能力与经济发展水平之间存在着明显的相关关系。这类观察使得越来越多的学者相信，造成东西方大分流的一个重要原因是国家能力的强弱。（本文摘编自：《中国崛起的世界意义》，王绍光著，中信出版集团出版）

https://m.thepaper.cn/baijiahao_7863857

[25] "Mingde Lecture M731: Why Does Technology Develop? Why Does It Stagnate? — Starting from the Needham Puzzle": Li Bozhong expounds his view of the Needham question

中文原文：《明德讲堂M731报道：技术为什么发展？技术为什么停滞？——从“李约瑟之谜”谈起》李伯重阐述了自己对“李约瑟难题”答案的思考。十七世纪的荷兰和十八世纪的法国在早期工场手工业时代有着巨大的发展，但是因为煤炭不足的问题，在工业革命之中落后于英国。矿物能为能源基础的经济，极大的影响了工业革命的发展，在英国的国民经济之中，煤铁工业的集聚发展的地位越来越重要，因此才出现工业革命。引用罗斯托的观点，英国是当时世界上“唯一能够把棉纺织技术、采煤和炼铁技术、蒸汽机以及巨额的对外贸易结合在一起”的国家，从经济史的角度探寻工业革命产生的原因。中国很早开始对煤铁进行利用，但是人均产量相较于同时期的英国非常低。明清时期，江南工业发展最重要的特点之一，就是重工业轻而轻工业重，并且这种情况日益加剧。即工业革命没有在中国发生的经济史解释。李伯重总结，对任何工业革命原因的探索，都没有一个简单、主要的原因，因此作为一个复杂性的问题，是多方面原因的结果，而非决定论的回答

<https://renwen.ucas.ac.cn/index.php/rczp/2015-12-09-08-37-2/55213-m731-2>

[26] "The Characteristics and Impact of the Smallpox Epidemic in the Americas during the 16th-17th Century Spanish-Portuguese Colonial Period": the Spanish conqueror Cortés and his force of fewer than 600 men, when storming...

中文原文：《16—17世纪西葡殖民时期美洲天花大流行的特点及其影响》西班牙征服者科尔特斯和他带领的不足六百人的军队在攻克这座城市时，曾遭到印第安人的激烈反抗而被迫撤出。但同时，印第安人感染上了天花，这座城市暴发了大规模流行病。天花不仅击溃了印第安人的抵抗力，也给他们造成极大的心理冲击。印第安人不再相信神的庇护，转而信仰“欧洲上帝”。天花肆虐后的6个月内，这里30万居民中的一半暴毙，包括国王蒙特祖玛(Moctezuma)的侄子库伊特拉华克(Cuitláhuac)。1525年，一位西班牙修士来到墨西哥，描述了这样的场景：“印第安人像臭虫那样大量死亡，所有的人同时患病，不能相互照顾，也没有人给他们面包或者其他食物，还有很多人饿死了。在许多地方，一家人全部死亡。因为人们不可能埋葬如此众多的死人，为了遏制尸体发出来的恶臭，他们推倒了房屋，就这样死者的家园变成了他们的坟墓。”可以说，阿兹特克帝国不仅被欧洲人的枪炮所摧毁，更受到了天花的致命打击。1568年天花肆虐后，墨西哥中部人口已经减少至300万，只有科尔特斯登陆时的十分之一。

http://hrczh.cass.cn/sxqy/sjs/202502/t20250228_5854308.shtml

[27] "Who Traded in Black Slaves?": Arab slave traders made full use of conflicts between African tribes, buying off the stronger side as their agents to raid the villages of the weaker

中文原文：《谁在贩卖黑奴？》阿拉伯奴隶贩子充分利用了非洲部落之间的冲突，买通其中势力强大的一方作为爪牙，到弱小方的村落里抢人，再卖给阿拉伯人贩，换回大量廉价的日用品和枪支弹药。人贩们用大篷车把黑奴运至桑给巴尔的奴隶市场，买家再用帆船把挑中的黑奴运到阿拉伯半岛和南亚诸国充当苦力。阿拉伯黑奴贸易路线主要有四条：从西非经毛

里坦尼亚穿越撒哈拉到达马格里布；从西非中非经乍得到达利比亚；从埃塞俄比亚、苏丹经尼罗河到达埃及；从东非经桑吉巴尔等阿拉伯殖民地经海路出售给欧洲人或运回阿拉伯。阿拉伯人还在东非建立了很多贩奴据点。位于东非坦桑尼亚的桑给巴尔因其特殊的地理位置，成了奴隶贩子们最重要的中转站和交易中心。桑给巴尔有东非最大的黑奴市场。据统计，公元1000年的时候每年运进桑给巴尔的黑奴就达到了1.5万人左右。黑奴的死亡率非常高，奴隶贩子们正是通过虐待黑奴的办法淘汰老弱病残。上世纪初期去东非修铁路的印度工人曾经多次遭到狮子的攻击，后来发现那个工地正是当初奴隶贩子的必经之地，他们会把生病的奴隶丢弃在路边，那里的狮子养成了吃人肉的习惯。如果奴隶们没被狮子吃掉，活着到达桑给巴尔，就会被关押在黑奴牢房。岛上至今仍然保存有一处牢房，高度只有1.5米，黑奴们像牲口一样拥挤在里面，不少人窒息而死。19世纪初，当欧美等国立法取缔了非洲西海岸的奴隶贸易时，在中非和东非，阿拉伯人仍在继续这一勾当。英美两国甚至派出军舰在红海和印度洋上打击贩奴行为，然而收效甚微。

https://news.ifeng.com/history/special/blackman/200811/1105_4997_864589.shtml

[28] "The Undying Tupac Amaru": after the fall of the Inca empire, the Inca Indians carried on an unyielding and tragic struggle to restore it, lasting thirty years

中文原文：《不死的图帕克·阿马鲁》印加国覆亡后，印加族印第安人坚持恢复印加国的不屈不挠的悲壮斗争，前后达三十年之久。先是在一五三六年，印加王曼科·卡帕克逃出了西班牙人的魔掌，率众起义，退踞险要的比尔卡巴蒙巴山隘，坚持抗击西班牙殖民者，直至战死。之后，他的儿子，即图帕克·阿马鲁，继为印加王，继续坚持斗争。起义者学会了使用西班牙的武器，对敌人进行不断的游击骚扰。一五七二年，图帕克·阿马鲁因战败被掳，惨遭杀害。但是，从此图帕克·阿马鲁的名字就成了印第安人和拉美人民争取独立的象征。图帕克·阿马鲁死难后两百年，十八世纪八十年代初，秘鲁爆发了印第安人大起义。起义领导人何塞·加夫雷尔·孔多坎基是秘鲁廷塔省的一个印第安人酋长。他十分仇恨西班牙殖民官吏对印第安人贪得无厌的搜刮勒索。一七八〇年十一月四日，他发动印第安人捉住并处死了虐待印第安人的劣迹昭著的西班牙督察，分了他搜刮的财富，由此开始了声势浩大的起义。孔多坎基在起义中袭用图帕克·阿马鲁的王号，自称是“图帕克·阿马鲁二世”，提出了废除徭役制，取消人头税，恢复印加国等口号。在他的号召下，各地印第安人闻风而起，起义者在几个月中达到七、八万人之多。整个秘鲁南部、玻利维亚以及智利和阿根廷部分地区都卷入斗争。在头几个月中，起义军一直胜利进军，并围困了库斯科城，动摇了西班牙在南美的殖民统治。西班牙殖民当局赶忙从各地调遣大军进行围剿。由于起义军缺乏训练和严密组织，武器也过于简陋，作战失利，因而在强大的西班牙正规军夹击下，起义遭到失败。何塞·加夫雷尔·图帕克·阿马鲁被捕，当敌人审问他谁是起义同谋者时，他回答道：“唯一的同谋者就是你和我，你是因为压迫人民，我是因为要把人民从这种暴政下解放出来。”他那英勇不屈的斗争精神深受印第安人的尊敬。当他被押赴刑场时，印第安人不顾殖民统治者的威胁，成群地跪在库斯科街道两旁，表示哀悼。何·加·图帕克·阿马鲁死后，他的兄弟狄埃戈·克利斯托瓦尔又继承了“图帕克·阿马鲁”的称号，他战死之后，又有人举起这面旗帜，继续斗争。十八世纪末，以图帕克·阿马鲁为旗帜的大起义是拉丁美洲历史上最大的一次印第安人反殖起义。它是接踵而来的十九世纪初整个拉丁美洲大陆伟大独立解放战争的光荣先驱。

http://ilas.cssn.cn/sjk/gnwlmyjcgsk/201207/t20120725_2271164.shtml

[29] Palmares was an autonomous state founded in the 17th century by escaped Brazilian Black slaves in the palm forests of Pernambuco; its name derives from the Portuguese word for "palm"

中文原文：帕尔马雷斯共和国是17世纪由巴西逃亡黑奴在伯南布哥棕榈丛林建立的自治政权，其名称源自葡萄牙语“棕榈”。该政权以非洲社会形态为基础，鼎盛时期疆域接近葡萄牙本土，人口约三万，首府设于马卡科。[1-2] 16世纪中叶起，逃亡奴隶陆续在丛林中建立据点，1630年联合形成联盟。该政权实行耕战结合制度，设有行政、军事和司法机构，推举甘加·赞巴为终身领袖，发展农业、手工业及棕榈产品加工业，并构筑丛林防御体系。荷兰殖民者1643年、1645年两次进攻失败，葡萄牙殖民军1654-1678年间发动25次围剿均未成功。1678年和平条约破裂后，殖民军于1694年攻陷首府，领导人赞比率部突围。1695年赞比战死，1697年最后据点被摧毁，政权终结

<https://baike.baidu.com/item/%E5%B8%95%E5%B0%94%E9%A9%AC%E9%9B%B7%E6%96%AF%E5%85%B1%E5%92%8C%E5%9B%BD/55494711>

[30] "On Zheng Zhilong's Development of Taiwan and the Anti-Dutch Struggle": in July 1633, the Dutch colonists again used force to drive China out of Taiwan and the coastal mainland, sending eight warships to Xiamen

中文原文：《论郑芝龙开发台湾和抗荷斗争》1633年七月，荷兰殖民者又用武力强迫中国退出台湾和大陆沿海地区，开八艘战舰到厦门，不宣而战，向毫无战斗准备的福建水师船只袭击。为了回击侵略者，福建巡抚檄调诸将，大集舟师，痛击

荷兰侵略者。身任“五虎游击将军”的郑芝龙担任前锋，实际负责运筹指挥这场战斗。是年九月一日至二十日的海战中，由于东南沿海广大人民的支持“中国士兵顽强抗敌，奋勇争先，加以郑芝龙指挥正确，结果中国军队获得大胜，活捉荷兰一名“伪王”、几个头目，和一百十八名荷兰兵，击毙几千名敌人，焚毁敌人五只夹板船，五十只小船，缴获一只夹板舰，以及盔甲、刀剑、罗经、海图等物，取得了“闽粤自有红夷来‘数十年间，此捷创闻’”(15)的空前胜利，狠狠教训了侵略者，使他们懂得中国人民是不可欺的，不敢再肆无忌惮地到我国沿海地区掠夺骚扰。同时，中国人民经过这次战斗，已充分认识到侵略者的虚弱本质，加强了反对外国侵略的信心和决心，积累了丰富的经验，为日后郑成功收复台湾奠定了基础。抗荷斗争的胜利，是郑芝龙保卫祖国神圣领土的又一个历史作用。后来，由于郑芝龙一心想扩展闽、粤、浙的私人势力离台，才使荷兰殖民者逐步侵吞台湾，建立殖民统治。1652年，台湾发生郭怀一领导的起义，沉重打击荷兰侵略者。直至1661—1662年(顺治十八年—康熙元年)。郑成功才彻底驱逐荷兰，胜利收复台湾。

https://www.mnwhstq.com/szzy/qzwszlqwk/201608/t20160816_105955.htm

[31] 《反帝反封建 虽败犹荣》不丧权。太平天国奠都南京以后，中国大地出现了太平天国、清王朝以及外国侵华势力鼎足而立的局面。为了弄清太平天国对待外国的态度，维护列强从鸦片战争中得到的各种非法利益，美国、英国和法国的驻华使节争先恐后地访问了天京。先是，美国公使马歇尔（H.Marshall）从上海西行，因为座船在途中搁浅而被迫折回。1853年4月，英国公使文翰（Sir.G.Bonham）未作任何通报，即擅自乘船闯入太平军的防区，镇江和南京的太平军立即予以炮击，经过投书解释并表示在中国内战中采取中立态度以后，才获准登岸。北王韦昌辉、翼王石达开在接见文翰的代表密迪乐（T.T.Medows）时，首先申明只要“彼此相安无事”，即可成为“亲密的朋友”。密迪乐提出已经和清王朝订有条约，希望太平天国同样遵守执行，否则即以兵戎相见时，当即受到韦昌辉和石达开的严词拒绝，并且警告说，如果他们帮助满人，则是至大的错误，“即令助之，亦是无用的”。[7]不久，侵略者又向洪秀全提出以“平分地土”为条件，帮助太平军与清军作战。洪秀全则明确表示：此乃“引鬼入邦”、“天下失笑”的卖国行为，万难应允。[8]当美、英、法等国采取各种手段，配合清军疯狂进犯的时候，太平军坚决予以反击，并且义正词严地指出：这是破坏“严守中立”的背信弃义行为，是公然侵犯我国权利和民族尊严荣誉的卑鄙无耻的勾当。

中文原文：《反帝反封建 虽败犹荣》不丧权。太平天国奠都南京以后，中国大地出现了太平天国、清王朝以及外国侵华势力鼎足而立的局面。为了弄清太平天国对待外国的态度，维护列强从鸦片战争中得到的各种非法利益，美国、英国和法国的驻华使节争先恐后地访问了天京。先是，美国公使马歇尔（H.Marshall）从上海西行，因为座船在途中搁浅而被迫折回。1853年4月，英国公使文翰（Sir.G.Bonham）未作任何通报，即擅自乘船闯入太平军的防区，镇江和南京的太平军立即予以炮击，经过投书解释并表示在中国内战中采取中立态度以后，才获准登岸。北王韦昌辉、翼王石达开在接见文翰的代表密迪乐（T.T.Medows）时，首先申明只要“彼此相安无事”，即可成为“亲密的朋友”。密迪乐提出已经和清王朝订有条约，希望太平天国同样遵守执行，否则即以兵戎相见时，当即受到韦昌辉和石达开的严词拒绝，并且警告说，如果他们帮助满人，则是至大的错误，“即令助之，亦是无用的”。[7]不久，侵略者又向洪秀全提出以“平分地土”为条件，帮助太平军与清军作战。洪秀全则明确表示：此乃“引鬼入邦”、“天下失笑”的卖国行为，万难应允。[8]当美、英、法等国采取各种手段，配合清军疯狂进犯的时候，太平军坚决予以反击，并且义正词严地指出：这是破坏“严守中立”的背信弃义行为，是公然侵犯我国权利和民族尊严荣誉的卑鄙无耻的勾当。

http://jds.cssn.cn/xscg/xslw/201605/t20160506_5250471.shtml

[32] 《巴贝夫、巴贝夫主义和“为平等而密谋”》 巴贝夫是法国革命活动家中间第一个克服了一切忠于人民事业的政治家曾经碰到的矛盾，也就是人的生存权利与保存私有制及经济自由之间的矛盾的人。他用他的思想和行动说明他是走在时代的前面，因而成为新社会的倡导者。象无套裤汉和雅各宾派一样，巴贝夫宣称：“普通的幸福生活”是社会的目的，而革命应该保障全体公民平等地享受幸福。但是，私有制必然造成不平等，而土地法即平均分配地产，“连一天也没有实现”（“因为它制定出来之后的第一天就恢复了不平等”），所以，要达到“真正的平等”和“保证每一个人以及他的众多的子孙后代富裕起来，而又不超过富裕水平”的唯一手段，是“建立公共管理，废除私有制，使每一个人从事他有能力做的工作，从事他懂得的生产，并且使他负有向公共仓库交纳自己劳动成果的义务；为分配消费品组织普通的管理机关，这种机关将编造出全体人员和全部消费品的统计表，并在仔细遵守平等原则的情况下主持分配这些产品”。

中文原文：《巴贝夫、巴贝夫主义和“为平等而密谋”》 巴贝夫是法国革命活动家中间第一个克服了一切忠于人民事业的政治家曾经碰到的矛盾，也就是人的生存权利与保存私有制及经济自由之间的矛盾的人。他用他的思想和行动说明他是走在时代的前面，因而成为新社会的倡导者。象无套裤汉和雅各宾派一样，巴贝夫宣称：“普通的幸福生活”是社会的目的，而革命应该保障全体公民平等地享受幸福。但是，私有制必然造成不平等，而土地法即平均分配地产，“连一天也没有实现”（“因为在它制定出来之后的第一天就恢复了不平等”），所以，要达到“真正的平等”和“保证每一个人以及他的众多的子孙后代富裕起来，而又不超过富裕水平”的唯一手段，是“建立公共管理，废除私有制，使每一个人从事他有能力做的工作，从事他懂得的生产，并且使他负有向公共仓库交纳自己劳动成果的义务；为分配消费品组织普通的管理机关，这种机关将编造出全体人员和全部消费品的统计表，并在仔细遵守平等原则的情况下主持分配这些产品”。

<https://www.marxists.org/chinese/reference-books/mia-chinese-babeuf-1975.htm>

[33] (source not preserved)

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中文原文：《孔祥智等:大国小农 何去何从?》

http://xuebao.ruc.edu.cn/attached/file/20230922/20230922160914_191.pdf

[35] 《农业资本主义演进的法国式道路及其现代转型》

中文原文：《农业资本主义演进的法国式道路及其现代转型》

<https://illss.gdufs.edu.cn/info/1024/7937.htm>

[36] 《农业资本主义演进的“普鲁士式道路”历史终结及其启示》

中文原文：《农业资本主义演进的“普鲁士式道路”历史终结及其启示》

<http://sociology.cssn.cn/webpic/web/sociology/upload/2010/11/d20101126150405775.pdf>

[37] 《法德农民问题》

中文原文：《法德农民问题》

<https://www.marxists.org/chinese/engels/mia-chinese-engels-18941115-22.htm>

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中文原文：《日治時期臺灣業佃會之成立及其運作（1908-1938）：以農政官員論述為中心》

https://ws.th.gov.tw/002/TH/tjpdf20241015/var/www/html/new_site/05publish/03publishquery/02journal/tj/401074304.pdf

[39] 《日本涉农法律制度及政策调整》

中文原文：《日本涉农法律制度及政策调整》

<https://ccrs.ccnu.edu.cn/List/H5Details.aspx?tid=8796>

[40] 《财富、权力与20世纪前期中国乡村的社会分层》

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<http://economy.guoxue.com/?p=7646>

[41] 《1920—1940年代中国东南地区的土地占有——兼谈地主、农民与土地革命》

中文原文：《1920—1940年代中国东南地区的土地占有——兼谈地主、农民与土地革命》

http://jds.cssn.cn/xscg/ybwz/201605/t20160506_5253989.shtml

[42] 《THE NATIONAL SAMPLE SURVEY》REPORT ON LAND HOLDINGS

中文原文：《THE NATIONAL SAMPLE SURVEY》REPORT ON LAND HOLDINGS

https://164.100.161.63/sites/default/files/publication_reports/nss_rep_30.pdf

[43] 《试析拉美工业化的启动时间及特点》

中文原文：《试析拉美工业化的启动时间及特点》

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[44] 《国外农村土地产权制度变迁及启示》

中文原文：《国外农村土地产权制度变迁及启示》

http://www.rcrc.agri.cn/zjsd/gwnj/202106/t20210608_7695506.htm

[45] 《国外农村土地产权制度变迁及启示》

中文原文：《国外农村土地产权制度变迁及启示》

http://www.rcrc.agri.cn/zjsd/gwnj/202106/t20210608_7695506.htm

[46] 《墨西哥农村资本主义的发展》

中文原文：《墨西哥农村资本主义的发展》

<http://ilas.cssn.cn/webpic/web/ilas/manager/jeditor/UploadFile/201161101530446.pdf>

[47] 《History lessons: Understanding the decline in manufacturing》

中文原文：《History lessons: Understanding the decline in manufacturing》

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[48] 《民族和殖民地问题委员会的报告》（1920年7月26日在共产国际第二次代表大会上的报告）

中文原文：《民族和殖民地问题委员会的报告》（1920年7月26日在共产国际第二次代表大会上的报告）

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中文原文：《How Britain stole \$45 trillion from India》

<https://www.aljazeera.com/opinions/2018/12/19/how-britain-stole-45-trillion-from-india>

[50] 《STEELSTATISTICAL YEARBOOK 1980》

中文原文：《STEELSTATISTICAL YEARBOOK 1980》

<https://worldsteel.org/wp-content/uploads/Steel-Statistical-Yearbook-1980.pdf>

[51] 《拉丁美洲资产阶级的形成》1778年，从布宜诺斯艾利斯出口的兽皮为十五万张，而1780年为八十万张，到1783年则达一百四十万张。在墨西哥、秘鲁、智利已生产家具、铁制品、鞋、鞍子、器皿、玻璃，在秘鲁还生产武器。几乎在所有的殖民地都生产肥皂和火柴。在巴拿马、瓜亚基尔和布宜诺斯艾利斯，造船业得到广泛的发展。十七至十八世纪，在秘鲁和墨西哥有了纺纱作坊，那里不仅强制印第安人劳动，而且还使用城市提供的雇佣工人。到十九世纪初，在新西班牙，采矿提供了大量工业产品。1801年这里开采的金、银总额为一千六百五十多万比索，而到1803年超过了二千三百万比索；每年从维拉克鲁斯运出的银子占世界银产量的三分之二。十九世纪初，在瓜达拉哈拉已有将近一百个棉织、毛织、皮革等企业；在克雷塔罗有二十个作坊制造便宜的呢绒，那里有一千五百名工人；在大工业中心普埃布拉皮革生产很发达，还生产针织品、帽子及陶器；在墨西哥还开办了制皂、制烟以及其他工厂。在多种经济成分和殖民地统治的条件下，资本主义生产关系为自己开辟了道路。独立战争前夕，一小部分人已经开始大量积累资金；他们为了增加自己的财富，即为了实现资本主义的生产，到城乡各地寻找自由劳动力。这样就开始了“原始积累”的过程。

中文原文：《拉丁美洲资产阶级的形成》1778年，从布宜诺斯艾利斯出口的兽皮为十五万张，而1780年为八十万张，到1783年则达一百四十万张。在墨西哥、秘鲁、智利已生产家具、铁制品、鞋、鞍子、器皿、玻璃，在秘鲁还生产武器。几乎在所有的殖民地都生产肥皂和火柴。在巴拿马、瓜亚基尔和布宜诺斯艾利斯，造船业得到广泛的发展。十七至十八世纪，在秘鲁和墨西哥有了纺纱作坊，那里不仅强制印第安人劳动，而且还使用城市提供的雇佣工人。到十九世纪初，在新西班牙，采矿提供了大量工业产品。1801年这里开采的金、银总额为一千六百五十多万比索，而到1803年超过了二千三百万比索；每年从维拉克鲁斯运出的银子占世界银产量的三分之二。十九世纪初，在瓜达拉哈拉已有将近一百个棉织、毛

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<http://ilas.cssn.cn/webpic/web/ilas/manager/jeditor/UploadFile/201122111457752.pdf>

[52] 《鸦片战争与中国近代化》随着近代产业和近代商品经济的出现，产生近代的阶级——资产阶级和工人阶级。十九世纪七十年代以后，到二十世纪初，中国出现近代工商企业，采矿业（煤矿、铁冶）、机器制造业（造船、军工）、轻工业（纺织、面粉、卷烟）、交通运输业（铁路、国内外航运）、公用事业（电灯、自来水）、建筑业（水泥、玻璃）、通讯（电报、电话）、金融业（银行）等，都采用了近代机器生产，实行近代化管理，管理人学习西方经营思想和方法，特别是由买办而成为资产者的，他们从过去为洋行东经营中学会了近代管理技术。这些企业内部形成资本主义生产关系。新式企业是近代化的，与传统的工商业不同。当然，它还很幼弱，在全部社会经济中比重不大，但是它以新的生产方式，打破传统社会经济的一统天下，而且有发展前途。新式企业的出现，伴随着两个新的社会阶级的诞生。资产阶级由三种人员构成，一是从买办转化来，即买办中的一部分人，有了自己的资本，开设近代企业；二是由传统商人和官绅、地主转化而来，经营的是近代企业，还有一些华侨回国开办企业，加入这个队伍；三是洋务运动中，政府经办企业，一部分主事的官僚成为资产者，在官督商办、官商合办的企业里，有着一些原来买办出身的人参与进来。中国资产阶级的产生同外国资本主义侵略分不开，它反对外国政治、经济侵略，又以西方的生产方式为蓝图进行模仿。

中文原文：《鸦片战争与中国近代化》随着近代产业和近代商品经济的出现，产生近代的阶级——资产阶级和工人阶级。十九世纪七十年代以后，到二十世纪初，中国出现近代工商企业，采矿业（煤矿、铁冶）、机器制造业（造船、军工）、轻工业（纺织、面粉、卷烟）、交通运输业（铁路、国内外航运）、公用事业（电灯、自来水）、建筑业（水泥、玻璃）、通讯（电报、电话）、金融业（银行）等，都采用了近代机器生产，实行近代化管理，管理人学习西方经营思想和方法，特别是由买办而成为资产者的，他们从过去为洋行东经营中学会了近代管理技术。这些企业内部形成资本主义生产关系。新式企业是近代化的，与传统的工商业不同。当然，它还很幼弱，在全部社会经济中比重不大，但是它以新的生产方式，打破传统社会经济的一统天下，而且有发展前途。新式企业的出现，伴随着两个新的社会阶级的诞生。资产阶级由三种人员构成，一是从买办转化来，即买办中的一部分人，有了自己的资本，开设近代企业；二是由传统商人和官绅、地主转化而来，经营的是近代企业，还有一些华侨回国开办企业，加入这个队伍；三是洋务运动中，政府经办企业，一部分主事的官僚成为资产者，在官督商办、官商合办的企业里，有着一些原来买办出身的人参与进来。中国资产阶级的产生同外国资本主义侵略分不开，它反对外国政治、经济侵略，又以西方的生产方式为蓝图进行模仿。

http://jds.cssn.cn/xscg/xslw/201605/t20160506_5252144.shtml

[53] 《十月革命对印度民族运动影响评析》随着近代企业的创立和发展壮大，印度民族资产阶级于1860-1870年代形成并发展。出现了很多印度人开办的工厂(以棉纺织企业为多)。到1894年印度工厂有815家，平均每日使用工人349, 810人。第一次世界大战迎来了印度民族资产阶级发展的第一个黄金时期。战争的爆发和持续给印度工厂企业带来了好处：来自英国产品的竞争削弱了，而军事订货和军需供应扩大了企业的国内外销路。大战期间，在印度(包括土邦)登记的股份公司(包括英资和印资)由2545家增至2789家。其中受利多的如塔塔钢铁公司，因为有军事订货保证销路，便在现有设备能力下开足马力生产。大战期间，塔塔家族拥有的纺织厂、水泥厂等也都谋得很高利润。大战期间得到一定发展的民族资产阶级，进一步意识到了自己的力量和作用。他们要求得到制定经济政策的权利，并提出了印度自治的要求。他们希望一战结束后能有更大的发展空间。民族资产阶级力量的逐步壮大和要求更多经济和政治权利使他们在大战结束后仍能够站在民族运动的前列，发挥领导性作用，并向英印殖民当局提出更进步的要求。国大党作为民族资产阶级的代言人发挥了应有的作用。

中文原文：《十月革命对印度民族运动影响评析》随着近代企业的创立和发展壮大，印度民族资产阶级于1860-1870年代形成并发展。出现了很多印度人开办的工厂(以棉纺织企业为多)。到1894年印度工厂有815家，平均每日使用工人349, 810人。第一次世界大战迎来了印度民族资产阶级发展的第一个黄金时期。战争的爆发和持续给印度工厂企业带来了好处：来自英国产品的竞争削弱了，而军事订货和军需供应扩大了企业的国内外销路。大战期间，在印度(包括土邦)登记的股份公司(包括英资和印资)由2545家增至2789家。其中受利多的如塔塔钢铁公司，因为有军事订货保证销路，便在现有设

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http://euroasia.cssn.cn/xsyj/xsyj_sls/201101/t20110114_1784921.shtml

[54] 《鸦片公营局制度下的爪哇民族关系研究》与此同时,西方私人资本的大量涌入促进了印尼农村自然经济的瓦解和商业市场、劳动力市场的形成,这为印尼民族资本主义的发展提供了客观条件。因此,印尼的民族主义也有了一定的发展。从1921年荷印政府农工商部工业司所发表的《荷印工业指南》一书中有关印尼民族工业和华侨工业的行业分布情况来看,当地民族工业经营的主要是陶瓷窑、砖瓦窑、食品加工工业(农产品食品加工工业)、铁器工业、木材加工工业、花裙印染业、竹器加工业等,而华人工业经营的则主要是食品加工工业(农产品食品加工工业)、铁器工业、木材加工工业、花裙印染业、皮革工业等。由此可见,当时的印尼当地民族工业和华人工业是处于同一经济地位的,它们都只是在殖民主义、帝国主义经济势力没有控制的经济部门如零售商业、中间商业和传统民族工业以及一些利润低微的落后工业部门存在着,它们的发展十分有限,曲折而艰苦。相同的经济地位就意味着竞争的存在,特别是19世纪中期后华人的蜡染花裙业和土卷烟业逐渐兴盛起来,而这些行业原来是由当地人占主导地位的。1892年的调查表明,花裙工业以进口布料代替当地布料作原料(向中国商人购买)使得整个花裙工业转为中国商人所控制。花裙业一直是印尼的传统民族工业,其优势地位的丧失促使振兴蜡染花布业成为印尼本土人振奋民族精神、捍卫民族地位的一种象征,20世纪初蜡染花布业成为推动爪哇民族主义萌芽的催化剂。

中文原文:《鸦片公营局制度下的爪哇民族关系研究》与此同时,西方私人资本的大量涌入促进了印尼农村自然经济的瓦解和商业市场、劳动力市场的形成,这为印尼民族资本主义的发展提供了客观条件。因此,印尼的民族主义也有了一定的发展。从1921年荷印政府农工商部工业司所发表的《荷印工业指南》一书中有关印尼民族工业和华侨工业的行业分布情况来看,当地民族工业经营的主要是陶瓷窑、砖瓦窑、食品加工工业(农产品食品加工工业)、铁器工业、木材加工工业、花裙印染业、竹器加工业等,而华人工业经营的则主要是食品加工工业(农产品食品加工工业)、铁器工业、木材加工工业、花裙印染业、皮革工业等。由此可见,当时的印尼当地民族工业和华人工业是处于同一经济地位的,它们都只是在殖民主义、帝国主义经济势力没有控制的经济部门如零售商业、中间商业和传统民族工业以及一些利润低微的落后工业部门存在着,它们的发展十分有限,曲折而艰苦。相同的经济地位就意味着竞争的存在,特别是19世纪中期后华人的蜡染花裙业和土卷烟业逐渐兴盛起来,而这些行业原来是由当地人占主导地位的。1892年的调查表明,花裙工业以进口布料代替当地布料作原料(向中国商人购买)使得整个花裙工业转为中国商人所控制。花裙业一直是印尼的传统民族工业,其优势地位的丧失促使振兴蜡染花布业成为印尼本土人振奋民族精神、捍卫民族地位的一种象征,20世纪初蜡染花布业成为推动爪哇民族主义萌芽的催化剂。

<http://niis.cssn.cn/webpic/web/niis/upload/2012/11/d20121129111821761.pdf>

[55] 《19世纪以来埃及阶级结构的演变及其对当前社会的影响》西方资本的输入以及资本主义的扩张催生了埃及的欧洲资本家与民族资本家阶级。在西方资本主义的压力下,赛义德和伊斯梅尔采取了一系列西化政策:开放市场,废除奴隶制度,实行生产与贸易自由。这些政策减少了政权对个人的人身限制,刺激了私人经济与资本的发展,导致了欧洲资本家的涌入与民族资本家的产生。大批欧洲资本家跟随殖民者涌入埃及,他们相互勾结,共同控制了埃及的经济命脉,成为埃及社会上层中的上层。这一状况一直持续到第二次世界大战结束,此后随着殖民势力衰退,欧籍资本家也相继退出了埃及。

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<http://niis.cssn.cn/webpic/web/niis/upload/2012/11/d20121126145032200.pdf>

[56] 《中国废除不平等条约的历史考察》

中文原文:《中国废除不平等条约的历史考察》

http://jds.cass.cn/xscg/ybwz/201605/t20160506_5254066.shtml

[57] 《1928-1936 年南京国民政府进口关税政策保护性与成效再研究》

中文原文:《1928-1936 年南京国民政府进口关税政策保护性与成效再研究》

<https://yangtze.silkroadinfo.org.cn/2018/5/31/20180531101822.pdf>

[58] 《日本侵华战争对中国现代化进程的双面影响》

中文原文:《日本侵华战争对中国现代化进程的双面影响》

https://news.ifeng.com/history/special/2008918/news/200809/0917_4667_789305.shtml

[59] 《墨西哥革命制度党执政的经验教训》 第一, 实行国有化。1937年政府把外国垄断资本家控制的铁路全部收归国有;1938年把属于英、美、荷的17家石油公司全部收归国有。通过国有化, 墨西哥建立了石油、铁路等国家资本主义部门, 大大增加了国有经济在经济中的比重和控制力, 加强了国有资产的管理, 为国家的工业化创造了条件。1944年颁布外资法, 规定外国人在墨西哥经营企业要经外交部批准, 且出资比重不得超过49%。1960年, 开始实行电力工业的国有化。第二, 大力推进土地改革。卡德纳斯政府没收了本国和外国人拥有的大地产, 分配给无地农民。其任内共分配土地2000多万公顷, 比其执政前历届政府20年的分配总额还多一倍以上, 100多万无地农民无偿获得土地。此外, 政府还取消了过去给予外国人的共计452万公顷土地的租让合同, 同时设立国家农贷银行支持农民组织合作农场。卡马乔政府继续推进土地改革, 1943年颁布新的土地法, 承认村社土地分成小块经营的原则, 继续分配土地, 共分给农民500多万公顷土地。马特奥斯执政时期恢复土地改革, 分配土地300多万公顷。埃切维里亚政府时期分配土地650多万公顷, 土地改革达到一个新高峰。第三, 推行进口替代工业化战略。卡马乔政府在1941年颁布工业加工法令, 规定新企业5年内免税。马特奥斯政府为推进进口替代工业化, 开始制定经济发展计划, 促进经济的稳定发展。埃切维里亚政府提出均衡发展的方针, 合理照顾工人阶级利益, 同时让资本家获得合法利润;给农民提供贷款和技术, 把农业和工业结合起来, 实现农产品的工业化。

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http://ilas.cssn.cn/xschengguo/xslunwen/201902/t20190219_4831378.shtml

[60] 《瓦加斯历史定位问题探究》

中文原文:《瓦加斯历史定位问题探究》

<http://ilas.cssn.cn/webpic/web/ilas/manager/jeditor/UploadFile/201311113828613.pdf>

[61] 《中国农产品贸易角色变迁: 1949—2019》进入20 世纪70年代, 伴随着中国在联合国合法席位的恢复, 中国外交关系掀开新的篇章, 中国对外贸易发展也 迎来春天, 1973年中国货物贸易额突破 100 亿, 1978年突破200亿美元达到206.4亿美元。在农产品贸易 领域, 其发展速度更为迅猛, 进出口贸易额由1972年的30.75亿美元增长至

1978年的81.34亿美元，年均增速达到17.6%，远远高于同期GDP增长速度，农产品贸易的发展为工业化建设积累了宝贵的资金。

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<http://hprc.cssn.cn/gsyj/jjs/hyyxs/202105/P020210527526436464720.pdf>

[62] 《全球香菇产业发展历史、现状及趋势》20世纪50年代，韩国政府把香菇作为出口创汇和增加农民收入的重要产业大力扶持，使得香菇产量快速增加，1959年，韩国干香菇产量为39 t，其中69.2%用于出口。

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<http://rdi.cass.cn/yjcg/202409/P020240920454764684956.pdf>

[63] 《20世纪70年代以后拉美国家大量举借外债的原因》

中文原文：《20世纪70年代以后拉美国家大量举借外债的原因》

<http://ilas.cssn.cn/webpic/web/ilas/manager/jeditor/UploadFile/20106301167415.pdf>

[64] 《金砖国家汇率管理制度转型历程与经验借鉴》印度独立后，实行重工业进口替代策略，进口增长很快，由于外汇短缺，印度不得不实行严格的外汇管制。印度早在1947年通过了《1947年外汇管制法案》，对所有对外交易进行全面管制，1973年又通过《1973年外汇管制法案》，禁止了除特别许可以外的所有印度居民与非居民之间的外汇交易。同时，印度政府担心市场机制下的汇率波动会影响经济发展计划的实施，此阶段印度主要采取钉住英镑的汇率制度。

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https://www2.ccb.com/chn/2014-02/26/article_2021082106142175090.shtml

[65] 《外汇储备应助力中国企业“走出去”》

中文原文：《外汇储备应助力中国企业“走出去”》

https://paper.people.com.cn/zgjzk/html/2014-06/02/content_1436995.htm

[66] 《略论新中国工业化起步时期的技术引进》

中文原文：《略论新中国工业化起步时期的技术引进》

<http://hprc.cssn.cn/gsyj/jjs/hyyxs/201604/P020180416366894212272.pdf>

[67] 《国家外汇储备规模（1950年-2015年）》

中文原文：《国家外汇储备规模（1950年-2015年）》

<https://www.safe.gov.cn/anhui/file/file/20171024/c5011607c4e64b04941f632c25ee802b.pdf>

[68] 《拉美地区的城市化、城市问题及治理经验》1950-1975年间，拉美工业发展十分迅速，工业生产增长5倍，年均增长率为6.6%^[5]。各国制造工业主要分布在大中城市，尤其是首都及其附近城市。迅速发展的工业化和工业布局的高度集中，致使农村人口如潮水般涌入城市，农村向城市的移民对城市人口增长的贡献率始终保持在40%以上。此外，这一时期是拉美历史上人口自然增长率最高的时期，城市人口年均增长率高达4.2%。拉美的城市化开始于工业化之前，因而工业部门吸收劳动力就业的能力十分有限，城市失业率很高。2003年，拉美城市失业率创11.2%的历史新高，城市失业总人数达到1700万人。此后，拉美经历了新一轮的经济扩张，失业率连年下降，2008年下降到7.3%，但2009年又上升到了8.1%，说明这一轮的经济增长对就业的拉动效应已经不明显

了。为了维持生计，许多失业人员纷纷转入非正规经济部门就业，导致非正规经济发展迅速。据国际劳工组织1993年的定义，非正规经济指各种家庭企业和没有固定工资的劳动者、手工业者、车主、流动摊贩等的收入，但不包括贩毒、走私、生产和销售盗版产品等地下经济活动^[7]。一个庞大的非正规经济部门的存在，是当今拉美城市经济的典型特点。据不完全统计，1950年拉美城市非正规就业占城市总就业比重为13.9%，2000年提高到38.2%。2005年，城市非正规部门就业比重超过了正规部门（表3）。其中，牙买加、巴拉圭等国家的城市非正规就业比重在70%以上，玻利维亚、秘鲁、墨西哥等介于50%-70%，巴西、阿根廷、哥伦比亚等介于30%-50%，只有乌拉圭、智利等少部分国家在20%以下^[5]

中文原文：《拉美地区的城市化、城市问题及治理经验》1950-1975年间，拉美工业发展十分迅速，工业生产增长5倍，年均增长率为6.6%^[5]。各国制造工业主要分布在大中城市，尤其是首都及其附近城市。迅速发展的工业化和工业布局的高度集中，致使农村人口潮水般涌入城市，农村向城市的移民对城市人口增长的贡献率始终保持在40%以上。此外，这一时期是拉美历史上人口自然增长率最高的时期，城市人口年均增长率高达4.2%。拉美的城市化开始于工业化之前，因而工业部门吸收劳动力就业的能力十分有限，城市失业率很高。2003年，拉美城市失业率创11.2%的历史新高，城市失业总人数达到1700万人。此后，拉美经历了新一轮的经济扩张，失业率连年下降，2008年下降到7.3%，但2009年又上升到了8.1%，说明这一轮的经济增长对就业的拉动效应已经不明显了。为了维持生计，许多失业人员纷纷转入非正规经济部门就业，导致非正规经济发展迅速。据国际劳工组织1993年的定义，非正规经济指各种家庭企业和没有固定工资的劳动者、手工业者、车主、流动摊贩等的收入，但不包括贩毒、走私、生产和销售盗版产品等地下经济活动^[7]。一个庞大的非正规经济部门的存在，是当今拉美城市经济的典型特点。据不完全统计，1950年拉美城市非正规就业占城市总就业比重为13.9%，2000年提高到38.2%。2005年，城市非正规部门就业比重超过了正规部门（表3）。其中，牙买加、巴拉圭等国家的城市非正规就业比重在70%以上，玻利维亚、秘鲁、墨西哥等介于50%-70%，巴西、阿根廷、哥伦比亚等介于30%-50%，只有乌拉圭、智利等少部分国家在20%以下^[5]

https://ccmc.ecnu.edu.cn/_upload/article/files/23/b6/80005cad48968311b3c129a0fb8c/dea62b46-ob51-461b-8644-f56df53096c8.pdf

^[69]《苏联在列宁、斯大林时期吸收外资引进技术的情况》1930至1945年期间，苏联利用西方经济危机的有利时机，大量引进国外的先进技术和设备，在各主要工业部门建立了一大批骨干企业。1944年，斯大林在赞扬美国技术援助的作用时说，在苏联大约有三分之二的大型工业企业是由美国帮助建设的。苏联引进技术的特点是：规模大、数量多，范围广，几乎包括一切经济和军事生产部门。在冶金工业方面，当时苏联三大钢铁厂（马格尼托哥尔斯克钢铁厂、库兹涅茨克钢铁厂和波罗热钢铁厂）是由美国援建的（部分设备是德国的）。其它二十个原有的钢铁厂，也在外国人帮助下进行了技术改造。在汽车和拖拉机工业方面。苏联著名的高尔基汽车厂，是三十年代初由美国福特汽车公司援建的。另外两个厂，即莫斯科阿莫尔厂和雅罗斯拉夫尔厂，则是用外国新式工作母机重新装备的。这就构成了二次大战前的苏联汽车工业的主干。斯大林格勒拖拉机厂是整套建于美国、拆运至苏联安装的，约80家美国厂商为该厂制造了所有设备，并由美国人和德国人在苏联组装。哈尔科夫拖拉机厂也是由外国援建的，设备是德国和美国制造的，并由美国人担任建设总工程师。通过引进国外的先进技术和设备，使苏联在短期内建立起一大批骨干企业，如马格尼托哥尔斯克等三大钢铁厂，高尔基汽车厂，斯大林格勒拖拉机厂、乌拉尔重型机械厂和第聂伯水电站等。这些大型工厂奠定了苏联工业的牢固基础，使苏联能在短期内建立起革命前俄国根本没有的现代化工业部门：钢铁工业、机械制造、汽车、拖拉机等部门。1940年苏联的钢产量为1,830万吨，比1913年增加3.5倍。1930年前苏联汽车产量仅为3,375辆，到1936年已达161,500辆。1928年苏联仅有拖拉机850台，到1934年已达8.9万台。沙俄时期苏联没有一个象样的机床制造厂，1928年三分之二的机床靠进口，到1937年已能满足国内需求的90%。1939年苏联发电量比1913年增加了9倍以上，石油和煤炭产量也都成倍增加。”这些大型骨干企业的建立，有力地促进了苏联国民经济的高速发展。在1929—1940年间的12年内，苏联工业产值每年平均增长16%。苏联工业产值在世界工业中的比重从革命前的4%上升到1940年的10%。按工业产值计算，1913年俄国占世界第五位，到1940年苏联已跃居世界第2位，仅次于美国。

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http://euroasia.cssn.cn/cbw/cbw_elsdozyj/200910/t20091018_1848593.shtml

[70] 《工业化模式的转换与日本帝国主义的形成》在以国内市场为基础的工业化国家中，资本形成能力的增长和工业品市场的扩大都依赖社会劳动生产率的提高，在工业化的早期阶段，则主要依赖于农业劳动生产率的提高。因为只有农业劳动生产率的提高，才能使占人口80%以上的农村居民不断地增加收入，从而一方面提高社会对工业品的消费需求，扩大工业化的国内市场，另一方面提高社会的储蓄率，增强社会的资本形成能力。一个国家或社会的工业化也可以脱离国内市场，而主要地依赖国外市场而取得进展。但是，直到第二次世界大战之前，经济生产的社会化和国际化水平在全世界范围内都还很低，国际分工体系还没有形成，每个国家和社会都在致力于为本国的工业化开拓国内市场，形成主要以国外市场为基础的工业化模式的条件还不成熟，主要依赖国外市场的出口导向型工业化模式直到本世纪60年代新的科技革命导致先进工业化国家产业升级换代，从而形成国际性的分工体系之后才能出现。在此之前，一个国家或社会的工业化如果脱离了国内市场，而转向以国外市场为基础，只能以武力为背景强行掠夺别国的资源、占领别国的市场，从而使整个国家演变为军事帝国主义，演变为军国主义。日本恰恰是一个典型。从本文的分析中可以看出，在经历了中日、日俄两次战争以后，日本由原来那种以国内市场为基础的自下而上的工业化模式逐渐转换到了以国内固定资本形成(其中又主要侧重于军事工业)和国外市场为引导力的自上而下的工业化。这种工业化建立在剥夺国内人民(尤其是农民)，掠夺国外(主要是东南亚国家和中国)人民的基础之上。为了剥夺国内人民和掠夺国外人民，就必须强化以军事工业为核心的重工业。而为了获得强化重工业的资金，又必须不断地剥夺和掠夺国内外人民。日本工业化脱离国内市场、转向依赖以军事工业为核心的重工业投资和国外市场的过程，实际就是向帝国主义转化的过程。这种反动的工业化模式给日本人民带来了许多痛苦，也给中国和东南亚国家人民造成了巨大灾难。

中文原文：《工业化模式的转换与日本帝国主义的形成》在以国内市场为基础的工业化国家中，资本形成能力的增长和工业品市场的扩大都依赖社会劳动生产率的提高，在工业化的早期阶段，则主要依赖于农业劳动生产率的提高。因为只有农业劳动生产率的提高，才能使占人口80%以上的农村居民不断地增加收入，从而一方面提高社会对工业品的消费需求，扩大工业化的国内市场，另一方面提高社会的储蓄率，增强社会的资本形成能力。一个国家或社会的工业化也可以脱离国内市场，而主要地依赖国外市场而取得进展。但是，直到第二次世界大战之前，经济生产的社会化和国际化水平在全世界范围内都还很低，国际分工体系还没有形成，每个国家和社会都在致力于为本国的工业化开拓国内市场，形成主要以国外市场为基础的工业化模式的条件还不成熟，主要依赖国外市场的出口导向型工业化模式直到本世纪60年代新的科技革命导致先进工业化国家产业升级换代，从而形成国际性的分工体系之后才能出现。在此之前，一个国家或社会的工业化如果脱离了国内市场，而转向以国外市场为基础，只能以武力为背景强行掠夺别国的资源、占领别国的市场，从而使整个国家演变为军事帝国主义，演变为军国主义。日本恰恰是一个典型。从本文的分析中可以看出，在经历了中日、日俄两次战争以后，日本由原来那种以国内市场为基础的自下而上的工业化模式逐渐转换到了以国内固定资本形成(其中又主要侧重于军事工业)和国外市场为引导力的自上而下的工业化。这种工业化建立在剥夺国内人民(尤其是农民)，掠夺国外(主要是东南亚国家和

中国)人民的基础之上。为了剥夺国内人民和掠夺国外人民,就必须强化以军事工业为核心的重工业。而为了获得强化重工业的资金,又必须不断地剥夺和掠夺国内外人民。日本工业化脱离国内市场、转向依赖以军事工业为核心的重工业投资和国外市场的过程,实际就是向帝国主义转化的过程。这种反动的工业化模式给日本人民带来了许多痛苦,也给中国和东南亚国家人民造成了巨大灾难。

<http://jds.cssn.cn/webpic/web/jdsww/UploadFiles/ztsjk/2010/12/201012220944327581.pdf>

[71] 《甲午战争是如何打断中国现代化进程》

中文原文:《甲午战争是如何打断中国现代化进程》

<https://www.krzzjn.com/show-378-98824.html>

[72] 日韩基本条约

中文原文:日韩基本条约

<https://zh.wikipedia.org/wiki/%E6%97%A5%E9%9F%A9%E5%9F%BA%E6%9C%AC%E6%9D%A1%E7%BA%A6>

[73] (source not preserved)

https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/1913_Italian_general_election

[74] (source not preserved)

<https://zh.wikipedia.org/wiki/%E5%A5%A5%E5%9C%B0%E5%88%A9%E7%A4%BE%E4%BC%9A%E6%B0%91%E4%B8%BB%E5%85%9A>

[75] (source not preserved)

<https://zh.wikipedia.org/wiki/1910%E5%B9%B412%E6%9C%88%E8%8B%B1%E5%9C%8B%E5%A4%A7%E9%81%B8>

[76] 《战争和俄国社会民主党》

中文原文:《战争和俄国社会民主党》

<https://www.marxists.org/chinese/lenin-cworks/26/003.htm>

[77] 《战争和俄国社会民主党》

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[78] 《戈尔巴乔夫改革前苏联的政治、经济及社会状况》 但苏联经济的一个重要特点就是属于粗放型,虽经济总量接近美国的水平,但生产效率低下。1960年代,苏联工业的劳动生产率相对于美国而言从44%增长到大约53%;而在1971年到1985年这个更长的时段里,从上述水平增长到55%。^[17]苏联的经济增长主要依靠粗放因素,“社会劳动生产率”几乎没有增长。1966—1970年劳动生产率增长了33%,1971—1975年放缓至21%,1976—1980年及1981—1985年总共只增长了14%。1983年苏联的劳动生产率是意大利的72%,日本的60%,法国的51%,西德的46%和美国的38%。^[18]具体而言,苏联开采的铁矿石比美国多出7倍,用这些矿石所炼出的生铁只多出两倍,再用这些生铁炼出钢则仅仅多出1倍。以这些金属生产出的机器,就价值而言与美国大致相等。但是按单位最终产品计算,苏联所消耗的原料和能源却相应地较美国多出0.6倍和1.1倍。苏联工业企业的平均建设时间超过10年,美国则不到两年。按单位最终产品计算,1980年苏联所耗费的钢比美国多出0.8倍,水泥多出1.3倍,矿物肥料多出6.6倍,林产品多出0.5倍。苏联生产的谷物联合收割机比美国多15倍,与此同时,收获的谷物却要少得多,使自己只好依赖进口谷物。另外,戈尔巴乔夫改革前夕,苏联的经济发展速度下降,不论是与以往相比还是与美国相比都如此。因此称1975—1985年这一时期为“停滞期”。“停滞期”并不是说发展不发展,而是发展缓慢。正如哈宁所指出的,到1980年代末苏联经济著作中普遍认为,“1961—1985年这段时期的特点是经济发展速度不断下降。”各种评估,包括苏联中央统计局的官方评估,都指出经济指标迅速下滑,差别只是在于恶化的程度。就国民收入来看,苏联中央统计局的资料显示,1976—1980年国民收入的平均增长速度是4.4%,1981—1985年为3.2%。而按哈宁和谢柳宁的统计,相应地为1.0%和0.6%。国民生产总值按苏联中央统计局的数字,1976—1980年的平均增长速度是

4.8%，1981—1985年的平均增长速度是3.7%。^[40]生产资金的增长速度也在迅速下降，以1971—1975年1981—1985年的数据为例，在这两段时期，基建投资的增长率分别为44%和17%，基础基金的增长率分别为52%和37%，采掘业的产量增长分别为25%和8%，就业增长率分别为6%和2%。基建投资的基金产值率和效率至少从1960年代下半期起就在下降。

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http://euroasia.cssn.cn/cbw/cbw_wzsf/201611/t20161107_3267373.shtml

^[79]《于洪君：苏联出兵阿富汗内幕》中国作为阿富汗的邻国，认为苏联侵阿是其霸权主义的大暴露，对苏联进行了猛烈谴责，并将此事列为妨碍两国关系正常化的三大障碍之一。已经曙光初现的中苏关系，再次回到缺少互信的迷茫状态。同时，苏联同巴基斯坦以及穆斯林世界的关系，也进一步低落，其国际形象跌回到1968年入侵捷克斯洛伐克时的状态。1980年的莫斯科夏季奥运会，也受到了国际社会的大规模抵制。出兵阿富汗给苏联造成的灾难，不仅表现在外交方面，而且表现在军事和经济领域。在这场持续10年的战争中，苏联派出了总共90余万军人，付出了死亡1.33万人、受伤3万人、失踪311人的沉重代价。就连不承认苏联输掉了阿富汗战争的克留奇科夫也不能不说，阿富汗战争是苏联历史上最艰难的时期。这10年，苏联用于阿富汗战争的直接开支每年为50多亿美元，为美国援助阿富汗反对派开支的10倍多。苏联外长谢瓦德纳泽透露，苏联支付阿富汗战争的费用总数超过了600多亿卢布。到80年代中期，苏联经济捉襟见肘，使苏在阿的军事行动不堪重负。

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https://ciss.tsinghua.edu.cn/info/china_wzft/3943

^[80]【光明网】第一次世界大战与中国的棉纺织工业：困境中的世界为中国提供了机遇吗？

中文原文：【光明网】第一次世界大战与中国的棉纺织工业：困境中的世界为中国提供了机遇吗？

<https://iesr.jnu.edu.cn/2020/0306/c17210a470111/page.psp>

[81] 董经胜：从二战看全球南方崛起

中文原文：董经胜：从二战看全球南方崛起

http://rdcy.ruc.edu.cn/zw/qsyj/qqzllt/qqzllt_ztlb/f8135e07ae294c95afc7641ffa259520.htm

[82] Crusading for Globalization: US Multinationals and Their Opponents Since 1945 (American Business, Politics, and Society)

中文原文：Crusading for Globalization: US Multinationals and Their Opponents Since 1945 (American Business, Politics, and Society)

<https://www.amazon.com/Crusading-Globalization-Multinationals-Opponents-American/dp/1512827150>

[83] 《如出一辙!看美国当年是怎样“打压”日本半导体产业的》从1971年开始，伴随着日本工业化的逐步完成，日本产业结构成功转型升级，产业竞争力不断提升，早期日美双方的互补式生产也慢慢转变为美日产业结构的同质化竞争，日本对美国出现持续性、不断扩大的贸易顺差，顺差规模从20世纪60年代的几亿美元，激增至1980～1985年的年均233.8亿美元，并在之后几年达到每年顺差500亿美元，日美贸易逆差约占美国逆差总额的50%，逆差的主要产品（行业）从纺织品转变为钢铁、彩电、数控机床、汽车、半导体等美国优势主导领域。为缓解巨额贸易逆差，美国先后对日本实施了一系列贸易限制措施，如出口限额、提高关税、设定出口最低限价、强制日本企业赴美设厂等，并通过寻求日本汇率升值，削弱日本出口的整体优势。日本国内经济因日元升值导致泡沫急剧扩大，最终由于房地产泡沫的破灭造成了日本经济的长期停滞。1985年，美日签署的广场协议以及1990年签署的美日结构性障碍协议等，则将日美贸易摩擦推至顶峰。

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中文原文：《美联储货币互换机制：特征事实、影响评估与中国对策》20世纪60年代至70年代中期，美联储陆续与全球14个主要发达国家建立互惠货币协议（见表2）。1962年3月，美联储同法国中央银行建立第一个货币互换协定。1962年至1963年，美联储分别同法国、英国、荷兰、比利时、加拿大、瑞士、德国、意大利、奥地利、瑞典等10个国家的中央银行，及国际清算银行签订互惠货币协议。在1964年和1968年，美联储又分别与日本、丹麦、墨西哥和挪威中央银行签订互惠货币协议。截至1976年，美联储已经同14个国家中央银行签订互惠货币协议，互惠货币协议额度高达201.6亿美元。在此期间，美联储互惠货币协议的建立实质上是美国在危机期间努力维护其“中心-外围”地位的重要体现。有学者指出，美国在避免根本性调整的情况下，通过建立美联储互惠货币协议继续向布雷顿森林体系提供流动性和信心，这成为美国维持布雷顿森林体系秩序的重要制度安排。^[16]为此，央行货币互换合作从固定汇率向浮动汇率的过渡中幸存了下来，该合作从1962年持续至1998年2020年3月16日和3月19日，美联储陆续与14家主要的外国央行建立了货币互换。这是自2008年次贷危机以来，美联储非常特别的双边流动性互换机制的延续。^[2]我们可以发现，在两次重大危机中，中国始终未出现在美联储货币互换协议国家名单之中。从短期来看，以美联储为中心的货币互换网络的建立，维护了全球金融市场稳定、防范危机爆发。在危机期间，美联储实际上承担了最后贷款人职能。但从长期来看，以美联储为中心的货币互换网络间接地维护了美元霸权地位，在一定程度上塑造了国际货币体系的发展格局，这可能给中国参与国际金融治理，人民币国际化带来困难和挑战。

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